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INDEX,

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*** In this Index, many of the articles are entered under different heads, in order to insure their discovery by the reader.

FAMILIAR SKETCHES AND MORAL ESSAYS.

	Page
All Heart and No Heart,	337
Balcarres, Pilgrimage to,	297
"Black not so Black,"	289
Chess,	249
Credentials,	233
Day amongst the Scenery of "The Antiquary,"	357
Dining Experiences,	113
Dinners,	9
Duty of Good Health, the,	369
Illiberal, the,	65
Lumberers,	81
Matter-of-Fact Men,	105
Memoranda on Memory,	33, 41
Monomania,	177
My Son's Friend,	293
My Uncle's Dressing-Gown,	395
Nothing like Leather,	129
On some late Vexations of the Public,	217
Pantomime of Private Life,	353
Parallel Ideas of Nations,	385
Pilgrimage to Balcarres,	297
Poetry Before, and Prose After Marriage,	228
Prison Students,	305
Proverb against Proverb,	49
Puff-Poets, the,	73
Real Nature and Novelists' Nature,	361
Recollections of a Sexagenarian,	57
Reviewers,	393
Saunterings among the Scottish Songs,	121, 134
Schoolboy Essays,	25
Scottish Gastronomy, a Mysterious Circumstance connected with,	21
Small-Talk,	281
Solitude,	97
Specimens of a proposed New Dictionary—Way,	145
Students, Prison,	305
Tact,	1
Toadyism,	193
Which is the Injured Party?	265
Whist,	161

POETRY.

	Page
Address to Spring,	144
Be Kind to Each Other,	112
Beleaguered Widow,	16
Birds,	152
Bread,	384
Casa Wappy,	288
Character of a Happy Life,	248
Consolation,	160
Death,	240
Embroideress at Midnight,	32
Fables in Verse,	344
Felon, the,	200
Friends of my Youth,	24
In the Search of Good Humour,	48
Lines suggested by reading Stanzas by Miss C. Toulmin—"What Dost Thou Whisper, Murmuring Shell?"	392
Lyric for Lovers,	192
My Mother's Kiss,	208
Night,	280
"No,"	264
Nonsense,	168
Nursery Rhymes of England,	6
Ode to the Cuckoo,	370
Ode to Hope,	400
Pass of Death, the,	256
Philosopher and the Fungus,	224
Puff-Poets,	73
River, the,	304
Sky-Lark, the,	328
Something Cheap,	176
Song,	336
Sonnets—The Guili Tre,	117, 118
Stanzas—"When roses deck the cheek of youth,"	72
Voice of Childhood,	56
We are Brethren a',	360
What Dost Thou Whisper, Murmuring Shell?	320
Wild Flowers,	272

TALES.

	Page
Beauty, the,	180
Cleverness,	137, 147
Deeds—not Words,	329
Ensign Martin's First Scrape,	17
Expectations,	195
Figured Satin, the,	365
First Piano-Forte,	12
Fortune-Teller, the,	355
Fortune, Turns of,	99, 107
Frank Lygon,	202
George Selden the Genius,	67
Is it Meekness or Vanity?	273
Laundress of Paris, the,	52
Low Life,	241, 254
Man of the Shore,	91
Manuela,	262
Monomaniac, the,	115
My Aunt's Suppers,	310
Orphan Twins of Beauce,	34
Prison Roses,	75
Self-Devotion,	59
Selfishness,	155
Smuggler, the,	45
Stays and Slippers,	313
Stories of Brothers:—	
Joe Macdiarmid,	269
Guy de Bere,	294
Vincent Sinclair,	307
Story of the Bushel of Corn,	379
Story of the Fortune-Teller,	355
Story, a Grandfather's,	218
Story of Sandy Wright and the Orphan,	391
Story of a Settler,	325
Tattle,	185
Trust, the,	235
Tuft-Hunting,	130
Turns of Fortune,	99, 107
Wedding in Garrison, the,	3
Widow's Son, the,	27
Zilla—the Only Child,	286

BIOGRAPHIC SKETCHES.

	Page
Barry, James,	124
Cartwright, Dr,	364
Cooper, Sir Astley,	238
Dombey, Joseph,	110
Lord, Percival Barton,	318
Mathews, Charles,	189
Pollok, Robert,	77
Wilkie, Sir David,	171

MISCELLANEOUS ARTICLES OF INSTRUCTION AND ENTERTAINMENT.

	Page
Adventure at the Pyrenees,	231
Adventures of Borrow in Spain,	43
Adventures in Ceylon,	290
Adventures of Captain Mitchell,	163
Adventures on the Road,	336
Aërial Poison of Drawing-Rooms,	95
Affghan Captives, the,	157
Agricultural Female Labourers—	301, 309, 342
Agriculture, Application of Chemistry to,	63
Agriculture in England,	22
Album, Comic,	31
Aliments, Effects of,	106
Alligator, Capture of an,	350
Amateur Poets,	141
Ambassador in China,	30
America, Discoveries on the North Coast of,	277, 282
America, a Frenchman in,	383
America, Slavery in,	151
America, Statistics of,	119
American Conversation,	48
American Currency,	40
American Notes, Change for the,	237
Amusements,	335
Ancestry, Pride of,	327
Anecdote of the Flogging Times,	341
Animalcule, Coral,	146
Animals, Regeneration of Parts in,	278
Animals, Travelling Power of,	381
Aristocracy, "Fast Men" of the,	55
Arkwright, the late Mr,	192
Associations, Joint-Stock,	39
Atomics, Theory of,	187
Australia, South,	246
Australia, Western,	56
Austria, Kohl in,	215
Austria, Military Frontier of,	242
Authors, Conversation of,	316
Bagdad, Pestilence of,	399
Baker's Daughter, the,	165
Baltic, Russian Provinces on the,	66
Ban de la Roche, Women of the,	387
Beads, St Cuthbert's,	30
Beard, the,	196
Beginners, Hints to,	88
Beginnings, Small,	112
Behind the Scenes,	31
Bells,	148
Benevolence, Self-Denying,	127
Bertha's Journal,	87
Bianconi's Cars,	326
Blois,	377, 397
Book Dedications,	257
Books, Favourite,	225
Borgias, the,	98
Borrow's Adventures in Spain,	43
Bourbonnais, the,	20
Breakfasts,	61
British Museum,	175
Brown's Theory of Atomics,	187
Bruce Castle, Day at,	213
Burning of a Russian Theatre,	104
Burns and Clarinda,	388
Burns, French Translation of,	152
Canadian Scene,	79
Capture of an Alligator,	350
Carlyle and his Writings,	37
Carpet Weaving,	167
Carrara, Marble Quarries of,	274
Cartoons and Fresco-Painting,	303
Cenci, the,	133
Ceylon, Adventures in,	290
Chalenor, Mrs,	40, 349
Chambers's Educational Course,	56
Chambers's Journal, Alteration of Size,	400
Chambers's Soirée,	197
Change for the American Notes,	237
Characteristic Letters,	312
Charities, English,	70
Cheap Food,	232
Chemistry, Application of, to Agriculture,	63
Chemistry, Familiar Letters on—	378, 386
Children, City-Pent,	87
Child's Letters,	358
China, Ambassador in,	30
China, Russian Intercourse with,	78
Chinese Character,	232
Chinese Education,	64
Classical Toys and Games,	128
Cliffords, the,	341
Club-House, New Variety of,	376
Club-Houses, the,	79
"Colonisation Circular,"	183
Comets,	247
Comic Album, Scraps from,	31
Controversial Fictions,	118
Conversation, American,	48
Conversation of Authors,	316
Coral Animalcule,	146
Cornish Miner,	184
Correspondence between Burns and Clarinda,	388
Cost of Railways,	135
Cretinism,	187
Crime, Progress of,	223
Curiosities in Gardening,	159
Curiosities of the Law—	211, 220, 229, 239, 263
Currency, American,	40
Cuthbert's Beads, St,	90
Cyclopædia of English Literature,	304
"Darnley Jewel,"	125
Davidson, Lucretia and Margaret, Poet-Children of Plattsburgh,	90, 103
Day at Bruce Castle,	213
Days and Nights of Salmon Fishing,	244
Dedications, Book,	257
Delightful People,	122
Discoveries on the North Coast of America,	277, 282
Dunned Poet, the,	117
Earth, Temperature of the,	227
Eclipse of the Sun, 1842,	111
Editorial Note,	128
Education, Medical,	119
Educational Tread-Mill,	24
Effects of Different Aliments,	106
Effects of Tobacco,	94
Egypt, Monumental Sculptures of—	285, 299, 315, 331
"Eight Months in Illinois,"	389
Electric Telegraph,	127
Employment of Children Commission,	125, 130, 138, 150, 158, 167, 191
England, Agriculture in,	22
England, Nursery Rhymes of,	6
England, Sam Slick in,	251
"England Sixty Years Ago,"	335
English Charities,	70
English Cotton,	304

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Page

English Families, Old, 140, 149, 341
English Literature, Cyclopædia of, 304
Enterprising and Spiritless, - 120
Espartero, - - - - - 352
Evening Party, - - - - 123
Facts on Suicide, - - - 231
"Familiar Letters on Chemistry"— 378, 386
"Fast Men" of the Aristocracy, 55
Favourite Books, - - - - 225
Female Agricultural Labourers— 301, 309, 342
Fête of Nanterre, - - - 247
Feyer, Scarlet, - - - - 40
Few Days on the Ohio, - - 173
Fictions, Controversial, - - 118
Fishermen, Loss of Life amongst, 371
Floating the Person, - - - 284
Flogging Times, Anecdote of the, 341
Food, Alcohol in, - - - - 86
Food, Cheap, - - - - - 232
Fontainbleau and Orleans, - - 372
Foreign Quarterly Review, - 143
Fowl-Keepers, a Word to, - - 45
France, Summer Loiterings in— 320, 333, 345, 372, 377
Frenchman in the United States, 383
French Prisoners, - - - - 336
French Translation of Burns, - 152
Fruit, Wild, - - - - - 47
Gardening, Curiosities in, - - 159
Garvie Fishing, - - - - 54
Genealogy of the Queen, - 7
Geology, Economic Museum of, 266
Germany, Domestic Life in, - 2
German Servants, - - - - 3
German Village, Night at a, - 21
German Village, - - - - 363
Glaciers, Adventures on, - - 178
Gleanings in Natural History, 53
Governor Sewall, - - - 391
Great Well at Southampton, - 55
Gun Percussion Lock, - - 207
Hanwell, - - - - - 253
Hatching Chickens, - - 96
Hawaiian Islands, - - - 319
Hebrew Drama, - - - 212
Hedge-School, Irish, - - - 165
Highland Note-Book, - - 93
Hint to Improvers, - - - 15
Hints to Young Beginners, - 88
Hook, Theodore, - - - - 204
Horse Abatoirs of Paris, - 80
Howitt's Visit to Vienna, - - 71
Human Frame, Decay of, - 162
Hunter of the "Far West," - 398
Icebergs, - - - - - - 208
Idiocy, Voisin on, - - - 338
Illinois, Eight Months in, - - 389
Illustrated Periodicals, - - 275
Improvers, Hint to, - - - 15
Incident in Texian Life, - - 371
Incidents of a Whaling Voyage, 308
In-door Games, - - - 102
Infant Schools of Tuscany, - 323
Influence of Manufactures upon Health and Life, - - - 293
Insane, Songs for the, - - 367
Institutions, Mechanics', - 5
Internal Migration, - - - 381
Invention of the Gun Percussion Lock, - - - - - - 207
Ireland, Mr and Mrs Hall's, - 38
Ireland, Silk Manufacture in, - 343
Irish Hedge-School, - - - 165
Is there Alcohol in Food? - - 86
Jenkinson in Search of a Maid-Servant, - - - - - - 181
Joint-Stock Associations, - - 39
Juvenile Offenders, Prison for, 230
Kentucky, Mammoth Cave of, - 14
Killarney, a Week at, - - - 317
King Rene of Anjou, - - - 283
Kohl in Austria, - - - - 215
"Kohl's Russia," - - - 11, 19
Kundah Oil, - - - - - 304
Lace-Making, - - - - - 138
Lamartine on Machinery, - 192
Languages, How to Learn, - 13
Laplanders, the, - - - - 48
Law, Curiosities of the— 211, 220, 229, 239, 263
Lawyers in Past Times, - - 291
Lead Pipes, Water Poisoned by, 112
Leaf from My Log, - - 271
Letters, Characteristic, - - 312
Letters from New York, - 358
Letters, Singular, - - - - 29
Liebig's Familiar Letters on Chemistry, - - - - - 378, 386
Life among the Scottish Hills, 351
Life in Mexico, - - - - 74, 82
Light, the Boccius, - - 303
Linwood's Exhibition, - - 69
Literature, Chinese, - - - 64
Literature, Merits and Rewards in, 276
Literature, Provincial, - - 93
Locusts, - - - - - 183

Page

Log Hut, - - - - - - 371
Log, Leaf from My, - - 271
London, - - - - - - 221
London Book-Auctions, - - 201
London, Egotism of, - - - 180
London—Music of the Streets, 89
London Novelties, - - - 153
London, Organ and White-Mice Boys of, - - - - - 396
London, Pokings about, 234, 243, 253
London Police, - - - - - 54
Love on the Working-Classes, - 398
Lowell Offering, the, - - 260
Lynedoch—"Bessy Bell and Mary Gray," - - - - - 94
Machinery, Lamartine on, - - 192
Macpherson, Ossian, - - - 359
Magnetic Patient, - - - - 96
Maid-Servant, Jenkinson in Search of a, - - - - - - 181
Mail-Posts, - - - - - 349
Mammoth Cave of Kentucky, 14
Man of Fashion in Spain, - 300
Manufactured Silk, - - - 343
Manufactures, Influence of, on Health, - - - - - 293
Marble Quarries of Carrara, - 274
Marriage Customs, - - 250
Mechanics' Institutions, - - 5
Medical Education, - - 119
Medical Reform, - - - 173
Mental Faculties, Effects of Atmospherical Influences upon, - 114
Mesmerism, - - - - - 205
Mexico, Life in, - - - - 74, 82
Migdal Oz, - - - - - 212
Migration, Internal, - - - 381
Milliners and Dress-Makers, - 158
Mitchell (Captain) Adventures of, 163
Mole, the, - - - - - - 53
Money, Weights, and Measures, 101
Montreal Immigration Society, 72
Monumental Sculptures of Egypt— 285, 299, 315, 331
Moscow, - - - - - 19
Mosquito Shore, Residence on, - 36
Movement, the Peace, - - - 109
Mummy, Wheat Found in a, - 340
Museum of Economic Geology, 266
Music of the Streets, - - 84, 89
Nanterre, Fête of, - - - 247
Napoleon before and after Waterloo, - - - - - - 255
National Ignorance, - - - 248
Natur', Essay on, by Sam Slick, 279
Natural History, Gleanings in, - 53
Natural History, Sketches in— 58, 370, 394
Nature, Sketch from, - - 85
Necromancers, the Old, - - 373
New Piano-Forte Player, - - 72
Newspaper, Schoolboy, - - 83
New Zealand, - - - - 246
Niger, Expedition to the, - 258
Niger Expedition, Disasters of, - 270
Night at a German Village, - 21
Nimbus, the, - - - - - 21
Notices in Science and Art:—
New African Grain, - - 206
The Tussack Grass, - - 207
Novel Source of Heat, - 207
Watering Out-door Plants, - 261
Woollen Roving Machine, - 261
Employment and Health, - 262
Bethell's Process for Preserving Timber, - - - - 262
Sugar from Indian Corn, - 262
The Boccius Light, - - 303
Stanhope's Roofing Composition, 304
English Cotton, - - - 304
The Kundah Oil of Africa, - 304
Hydro-Electric Machine, - 335
Nutritive Qualities of Tea, - 335
Oropholithe, - - - - 335
Respiration of Leaves, - 335
Silvering Cast-Iron, - - 335
Nursery Rhymes of England, - 6
Ohio, a Few Days on, - - 173
Old English Families, 140, 149, 341
Old Man whose Father lived in the time of Oliver Cromwell, - 320
Oregon, - - - - - - 61
Organ and White-Mice Boys of London, - - - - - 396
Organs, - - - - - - 190
Origins of Words, - - - 142
Ortolans, - - - - - 328
Ossian Macpherson, - - - 359
Out-of-Door Games, - - 76
Paper-Making, - - - - 130
Paris, - - - - - 333, 345
Paris, Horse Abatoirs of, - 80
Paris—Music of the Streets, - 84
Paris, Police of, - - - - 28
Parkhurst Prison, - - - 230
Peace Movement, - - - 109
Peevish Scotswoman, - - - 7
Pentonville Prison, - - 243

Page

Periodicals, Illustrated, - - 275
Pestilence of Bagdad, - - 399
Petersburgh, St, - - - - 11
Pews, - - - - - - 124
Philanthropy, Humble Efforts in, 62
Physiognomist, the, - - 133
Piano-Forte Player, New, - - 72
Pipers, the Last of the, - - 38
Poet, the Dunned, - - - 117
Poets, Amateur, - - - - 141
Poison-Gas, - - - - - 279
Poison of Fashionable Drawing-Rooms, - - - - - 95
Pokings about London:—
The Reform Club-House, - 234
Pentonville Prison, - - 243
Hanwell, - - - - - 253
Police of London, - - - - 54
Police of Paris, - - - - 28
Pomare, Queen, - - - - 327
Popular Information on Science:—
Fairy Rings in Pasture, - - 10
Ignis Fatuus, or Jack-o'-Lantern, 154
Temperature of the Earth, - 227
The Struthionidæ, - - - 322
Effects of Climate, &c., on Human Beings, - - - - - 347
Population Returns, Recent— 354, 362, 374
Port Natal, - - - - - 246
Potteries, the, - - - - 150
Present State of Texas, - - 302
Prevention of Smoke, - - 26
Pride of Ancestry, - - - 327
Prince Edward's Island, - - 42
Printing, Silk and Cotton, - - 191
Process of Singing a Song, - 123
Progress of Crime, - - - 222
"Progress of the Nation," - 194
Provincial Literature, - - 93
Putrid Fever, Remedy in, - - 382
Pyrenees, Adventure at the, - 231
Queen, Genealogy of the, - - 7
Quiet Street, - - - - 275
Railway Union of England and Scotland, - - - - - - 311
Railways, Cost of, - - - 135
Recent Population Returns— 354, 362, 374
Reform Club-House, - - - 234
Regeneration of Parts in Animals, 278
Rene of Anjou, King, - - 283
Rose Gardens of Hertfordshire, 175
"Rural and Domestic Life in Germany," - - - - - - 2
Rural Games of Old Times, - 76, 102
Russian Intercourse with China, 78
Russian Provinces on the Baltic, 66
Sackville, Lord George, - - 267
Sagacity of Rats, - - - - 53
Salmon and Sea Trout, - - 199
Salmon Fishing, Days and Nights of, - - - - - - 244
Salutes, - - - - - - 31
Sam Slick's Essay on Natur', - 279
Sam Slick in England, - - 257
Sanatorium, the, - - - - 37
Sanctions in Favour of Morality, 328
Sandwich Islands, - - - 319
Scarlet Fever, - - - - - 40
Schoolboy Newspaper, - - 83
Scotch Banks, - - - - - 4
Scotch Farming, - - - - 95
Scotland, Ancient Rural Economy in, - - - - - - 255
Scotland Six Hundred Years Ago, 223
Scotland, Voyage on the Coasts of, 50
Scottish Hills, Life among the, - 351
Scott, Sir W., Rambling Reminiscences of, - - 324, 332
Scott, Sir Walter, and Lord Braxfield, - - - - - - 111
Self-Denying Benevolence, - - 127
Self-Devotion, - - - - 59
Selkirk's (Lord) Settlement in Prince Edward's Island, - - 42
Serjeant's Wife, the, - - - 298
Settler in Van Diemen's Land, - 348
Sewall, Governor, - - - 391
Shetland Life, Anecdote of, - 118
Shetland Sketches:—
William and Jean Manson, - 172
Suneva Renton, - - - - 173
"Silent Love," - - - - 373
Singular Letters, - - - 29
Sketch from Nature, - - 85
Sketches in Natural History:—
Luminous Insects, - - 58
The Cuckoo, - - - - 370
The Rein-Deer, - - - 394
Slavery in America, - - - 151
Small Beginnings, - - - 112
Smoke, Prevention of, - - 26
Songs for the Insane, - - 367
Southampton, Great Well at, - 55
Spa Doctor, - - - - - 127
Spain, Adventures in, - - 48
Spain, Man of Fashion in, - - 300

Page

Spiritless and Enterprising, - 120
Stage-Coach Physiognomist, - 133
Stanhope's Roofing Composition, 304
Stanleys, the, - - - - 140, 149
Statistics of America, - - 119
Stella and Vanessa, - - - 209
Street-Cleaning Machine, - - 32
Strolling Players, - - - 93
Sugar, Why so Dear? - - 142
Suicide, Facts on, - - - 231
Summer Loiterings in France:—
Calais to Paris, - - - 321
Gossip about Paris, - - 333
Gossip about Paris concluded, 345
Paris to Fontainbleau and Orleans, - - - - - 372
Orleans to Blois, - - 377
Blois, - - - - - - 397
Superstition, the Vampire, - 144
Swiss Glaciers, Adventures on, 178
Tahiti, a Sunday at, - - 327
Teachers, Training, - - - 351
Tears Robbed of Sentiment, - 309
Telegraph, Electric, - - - 127
Texas, Present State of, - - 302
Texian Sketch, - - - - 339
Theodore Hook, - - - - 204
Times Printing-Office, Visit to, - 169
Tobacco, Effects of, - - - 94
Toys and Games, Classical, - 128
Training Teachers, - - 351
Travelling Power of Animals, - 381
Tread-Mill, Educational, - - 24
Tuscany, Infant Schools of, - 323
Vampire Superstition, - - 144
Van Diemen's Land, - - 348
Vanessa and Stella, - - 209
Vienna, Howitt's Visit to, - - 71
Visit to the Times Printing-Office, 169
Voisin on Idiocy, - - - 338
Walhalla, the, - - - - - 23
Wallflower, the, - - - - 123
Wassail Bowl, - - - - 122
Water-Flannel, the, - - - 356
Water Poisoned by Lead Pipes, 112
Waterloo, Napoleon before and after, - - - - - - 255
"Week at Killarney," - - 317
Weekly Chit-Chat— 344, 352, 368, 376, 384, 392, 400
Weights, Measures, and Money, 101
Western Australia, - - - 56
Whaling Voyage, - - - 308
Wheat Found in a Mummy, - 340
Which is the First People in the World? - - - - - 375
Why Sugar is so Dear, - - 142
Wild Fruit, - - - - - 47
Wilson's Voyage on the Coasts of Scotland, - - - - - 50
Women of the Ban de la Roche, 387
Words, Origins of, - - - 142
Working-Classes, Elevation of, - 216
Working-Classes, Mr Love on, 398
Young's Residence on the Mosquito Shore, - - - - - 36

ANECDOTES AND PARAGRAPHS.

About the Fisheries, - - - 136
Acquaintanceship, - - - 232
Africa, Cape Coast Castle, - - 280
Affectation of Musicians, - 168
Agreeable, Art of being, - - 296
Ambassador, the Brave, - - 40
Ancient English and Scotch Handwriting, - - - - - 168
Animal Food, Preservation of, 391
Bagpipe Seminary in Skye, - 167
Bath, On taking a, - - - 320
Battle between a Rat and a Crab, 288
Bear and Walrus, - - - 232
Beginning of the Year in Various Nations, - - - - - 80
Birds, Ingenuity of, - - 80
Birds on Board Ship, - - - 176
Bleeding at the Nose, - - 8
Blind Tradesman, - - - 248
Blistering, - - - - - 256
Breeding, Ill, - - - - 280
Burnett's Antiseptic Solution, 380
Business, - - - - - 328
Butcher and Barber, - - - 136
Butter, Bad Flavour of, - - 56
Caoutchouc, - - - - - 256
Carbonic Acid Gas Exhaled in Respiration, - - - 120
Cardinal Spider, - - - 136
Caution in the Use of Guns, - 160
Chain of Beings, - - - 264
Charity, - - - - - 280
Cheerfulness in Want, - - 152
Chinese Foot-Torture, - - 248
Chinese Invention, - - - 16
Chinese Soldiery, - - - 128
Circle of Humanity, - - - 328
Contempt, - - - - - 272

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	Page
Conversation,	264, 320
Correspondence,	304
Cream and Butter,	136
Criminal Offenders,	176
Debts, Pleasure of Paying,	248
Diffidence of Early Writers,	184
Disputes,	328
Diversions,	328
Doing Good,	160
Domestic Duties,	280
Doubting,	296
Early Rising,	328
Eclipses, Utility of,	320
Economy,	240
Education,	272
Electro-Magnetic Clock,	152
English in Germany,	64
Error and Ignorance,	328
Family Affections,	272
Family School,	88
Fancy Fair at Hanwell,	184
Feats of Strength,	104
Fine Arts,	343
Flattery,	360
Flowers, Names of,	320
Food of Labourers,	168
Founder of the Arkwright Family,	208
French Advertising,	136
French Press,	8
Friendship,	264
Frugality,	328
Gems from the German,	375
General Run of Faculties,	264
Genius, Penalty of,	232
Gentleman, a,	160, 280
German Earnestness,	168
Glasgow Lunatic Asylum,	160
Glow-Worm,	399
Gnat Stings, Protection from,	296
"Go the Whole Hog,"	232
Grief,	136
Hahneman, Death of,	256
Hans in Luck,	288
Hear, hear!	8
Heart, Sensibility of,	240
Hedgehogs,	120
Hints to Surgical Students,	120
Honesty,	296
Humanity,	360
Human Skin, Growths in the,	48
Hydraulics,	56
Idleness,	312
Imperfectness of Human Knowledge,	136
Importance of Draining,	360
Income-Tax in the Time of the Crusades,	224
Indian's Ingenuity,	8
Infancy of Knowledge,	328
Insects and their Young,	224
Interesting Fact,	200
Interment, Premature,	24
Inward Blindness,	264
Iron in Ship-building,	280
Irresolution,	176
Ivison's Patent,	80
Juggernaut,	160
Knowledge,	264
Knowledge of Books,	360
Knowledge, Superficial,	272
Labour a Consoler,	224
Lard Oil,	360
Law,	320
Letters in Westmoreland Dialect,	216
Libraries, Increase of,	160
Libraries, Statistics of,	296
Lloyd's,	200
London,	176
Lucifer Matches,	200
Luck, Hans in,	288
Maker of Wealth and his Heir,	24
Mungooze and Cobra Capella,	24
Marmot, the,	32
Marriage,	304
Marriage and Education,	128
Marriage *v.* Insanity,	176
Monkey-Bread Tree,	256
Mother Wit,	272
Musical Devotion,	240
Nelson's Playful Decision,	168
New Antiseptic,	343
New South Wales Farm-House,	296
Newspapers, Increase of,	168
No Effort Fruitless,	320
Nothing Made in Vain,	72
Opinions, Inconsistencies in,	248
Organic Matter in Spring Water,	184
Parisians and their Coffee-Houses,	256
Paying Debts,	160
Penalty of Genius,	232
Photography on a Ceiling,	88
Pleasures, Pure,	304
Pleasure, Pursuit of,	336
Politeness, Profit of,	168
Popular Knowledge in Vienna,	176
Popular Superstition,	64
Poor Man of Mutton,	224
Potatoes, Frosted,	64
Practical Instruction,	168
Prejudice,	328
Prejudice as to Food,	8
Premature Interment,	24
Press, Public,	200
Pride,	336
Public Gardens, Injuries to,	77
Public Press,	200
Public Walks,	296
Punctuality,	168
Raillery,	336
Rat and Crab,	288
Reading,	320
Revenge,	152
Sam Slick on Dinners,	312
Secrets of Comfort,	272
Sensations in a Trance,	48
Sensibility of the Heart,	240
Shipwrecks,	64
Shoemaker, a Conscience-stricken,	136
Short Sight,	40
Shrewd Observation,	72
Sir W. Scott and T. Purdie,	216
Skye, Isle of,	20
Soldiers, Height of,	24
Speaking Machine,	208
Statistics of Mortality,	136
Stockings Made in Half an Hour,	96
Stomach, the,	136
Sun at Midnight,	120
Surgical Students, Hints to,	120
Swinging Looking-Glasses,	176
Tahiti, Climbing in,	336
Talent Acquired,	360
Telegraphs,	32
Theories,	391
Time,	360
Trance, Sensations in,	48
Trickery in Trade,	120
True Philosopher,	264
Truth,	272
Turkish Pipes,	32
Use of Aquatic Plants,	152
Vienna, Humanity of the People of,	232
War,	64
Warmth of the Snow Blanket,	112
What to do with a Watch which has fallen into Water,	16
Wife's Universal Rival,	192
Wisdom and Folly,	304
Wives,	136, 336
World, Way of the,	136

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TACT.

IT was after some twenty years' separation that I met my schoolfellow Wilkins; and following the invariable fashion of Englishmen, we recalled our school-days, and recounted our subsequent adventures over "a dinner." His narrative was far fuller of events than mine. He had been a sailor, a soldier, an emigrant, and farmer in Canada, an author, and an editor; but having lately entered the church and married an heiress, was now settled down to, and sustained the character of, an opulent country clergyman, with, by his own account, considerable credit to himself. It was natural that I should be curious to know how he managed to adapt, from time to time, his tastes and habits to such opposite modes of life. His answer was—"By means of a quality which I flatter myself I possess in an eminent degree."

"And what may that be?"

An expression of triumph passed over his countenance as he replied, "Tact."

The conversation was immediately turned upon the valuable characteristic he had found so useful to him in his career. It was a subject which had evidently excited much of his attention, theoretically as well as practically—a pet topic, upon which he was fond of enlarging.

"Before we go any further," he observed, "let me tell you—from experience, understand—what Tact is and what it does. Much of that which I am going to state may appear to you at the first glance paradoxical, but reflection will assure you of its perfect truth. Tact, then, is the essence of worldly experience drawn out by sharp discrimination and rapidly-exercised judgment. It is a high polish produced on the surface of a man's character by constant friction with the world. It has the glibest of tongues, the sharpest of eyes, the quickest of comprehensions. It is never confounded, never at a stand-still, never idle. It acts while others think, performs while others plan, has finished before others begin. It is always prepared for emergencies, and is never daunted by difficulties. For this reason, it puts off creditors with an air that pleases them nearly as well as payment, and breaks promises so gracefully, that they are almost as much honoured in the breach as in the observance. It is the readiest of ready-reckoners; for its mistakes are so cleverly glossed over, that they are seldom detected; its errors are made to appear like correctness—its lies to seem truer than truth. Tact does everything promptly, and nothing out of place. It seizes the exact minute when to pay visits and when to take leave; when to condole, when to congratulate; when to laugh, when to weep; when to jest, and when to moralise: when to be angry, when to be cool. It knows how to appear profound, and how to seem ignorant; how to be vulgar, and how to be elegant; insomuch that it frequently astonishes the learned with its gentility, and surprises the ladies with its learning."

As might be expected of a man having considerable experience of the world, Wilkins's definitions were far from incorrect. Let us endeavour to offer a few illustrations. Tact, it has been said, has "the glibest of tongues, the sharpest of eyes, the quickest of comprehensions." This is easy of proof, by supposing the man of tact placed in any situation where those advantages are essential. Imagine, for example, two old friends meeting, like myself and Wilkins, by pure accident, after a long absence. Conceive the tactician to be well off in the world, while his friend seems, by certain subtle indications—only discernible by the rapid but deeply scrutinising eye of tact—to be in circumstances the reverse of flourishing. These indications may perhaps consist of a hat not positively shabby, but in the first stage of naplessness; a coat hardly threadbare, but beautifully brushed; and nether garments tightly strapped over second-rate boots. Now, these would be far from unerring guides; because men with millions have been known to dress as shabbily as mendicants. The man of tact therefore looks again, and perceives an effort at concealing defects, contrasted with a decided display of cheap excellences, which the eccentric miser never dreams of. The shirt, of spotless purity, will perhaps be extensively exhibited, the highest buttons of the waistcoat remaining unfastened; the wrist-bands, too, will be made the most of: a relic of former affluence will, not unlikely, appear in the breast, in the form of one stud. But, on the other hand, the sharp eye has been arrested during its investigation, by an almost invisible darn somewhere. From these evidences, the quick comprehension immediately deduces fallen fortunes—struggling poverty. Besides, his own cordial, frank recognition has been met by a shrinking timidity, an uncomfortable desire to shorten the interview; so the glib tongue of Tact is set in motion. "How very extraordinary! Why, it must be fifteen years at least since we last met, and so intimate—so like brothers as we used to be, too." This former equality of station assumed by the more affluent friend, and adroitly accompanied by a fresh shake of the hand, is meant to set the poorer man a little at his ease. It has the desired effect.

"Let me remember," continues Tact. "You went into orders, I think; yes, I recollect perfectly. By the by, I heard you were married; and somebody—I really forget who—told me you had *such* a family; the finest boys and girls in the county." This, most likely, is not strictly true; but the assertion serves to draw forth the fact of a wife and several children; which, added to the manifest poverty, is all the information required for the present, and the two separate.

With every desire to alleviate his friend's misfortunes—which further inquiry shows to be great—Tact knows perfectly well that to do so delicately is a difficult task. Well-educated poverty too often wraps its distresses in a shroud of mystery, dreading the least exposure of its real condition. From coarsely-offered charity it shrinks with loathing, and dreads even mere commiseration. Tact, therefore, at his next interview with the poor friend, kindly shows to him how much delighted he would be to lend him a sum for which at present he has no earthly use, and in the end effects his benevolent object, making it really appear that he, the lender, or rather giver, is the obliged party. Nor is it probable that the tactician ends his vocation here. Most of his tribe belong to some of the clubs. One of his brother-members has a few "patronages" in his gift, and he does not allow his organs of speech to rest till a living is procured for his unfortunate class-fellow.

Let us next see how Tact is able to "put off creditors with an air that pleases them almost as well as payment." Of this, numerous examples might be supplied; but one will suffice. Imagine Tact in this instance to be a tradesman, keeping a small shop in a large town. He is in arrear with his wholesale dealer, who presses him frequently for payment. At length the impatient creditor calls, and Tact receives him with smiles; professes to be delighted to see him; bows him into a sort of half counting-house half parlour, and intreats him to make himself comfortable. There is a suspicious over-kindness in Tact, but his visitor is a little overcome with the very agreeable blandishment. He, however, ventures—hints something of money matters; but the debtor, who has an uncompromising horror of this sort of conversation, acts as a skilful conjuror, throws a kind of spell over his victim, and keeps him quiet by a jargon peculiar to trading tacticians. The words "acceptances," "negotiations," "transactions," flow in torrents from his mouth, with the occasional introduction of "money-market," "shares," "balance at bankers," and "heavy discounts." The innocent creditor can hardly help inferring from these big words, that his customer is carrying on, in a great way, a most extensive business. Tact watches the creditor narrowly, and sees that inference glide, as it were, over his countenance. It is then that he introduces a passing remark about the "small account," which, "odd as it may appear, cannot, just at the present moment, be settled without some inconvenience. Our business (Tact always talks in the plural, as if there were a 'Co.' in the concern) requires a large capital to keep it going. Most of our transactions being with the nobility and gentry, accounts come in slowly, and to ask for one's money, would amount to a loss of patronage." Still, the creditor presses for a settlement, but not so urgently as at first. Tact puts on a slight indication of pique; hints that the traveller of a rival firm has been lately assiduous in soliciting orders from "us," and finally threatens to pay; but in doing so will assuredly "close the account." Mr —— reflects for a moment, and decides that Tact might become a very good customer, and that it would be a pity to lose him, so consents to wait. Upon this, Tact orders a fresh supply of goods, and the creditor leaves him nearly as well-pleased as if he had received the money for the last "transaction."

Aided by a moderate degree of literary ability, Tact often carries all before him in authorcraft, when personages infinitely more profound altogether fail. It is the misfortune of some men, even the most able, to persevere in favouring the public with what the public has no inclination for, and will not, on any account, be coaxed to buy. Great writers of theories on the British Constitution, and of Inquiries into the Cause of National Distress, are these individuals, who doubtless deserve the palm of patriotism; for a consciousness of labouring for the general welfare is their sole reward. Tact darts a century in advance of these venerable writers, and, looking society in the face, sees how it feels inclined in the way of a little literary war. Taking the true diagnosis of the patient, from certain well-understood symptoms, he produces the very thing which was wanted—no matter though only a description of the paper shoes of the Chinese, or the waistcoats of members of the House of Commons—and the very nick of time, when such a delectable production was likely to be in demand. Tact, accordingly, is rewarded for his pains by something more substantial than a sense of patriotism; and although his principles are not always to be spoken of with approbation, we may fairly allow that his tact in going *with*, instead of going *against*, the stream of popular wants and wishes, is an evidence of no mean judgment and spirit.

Another point to be demonstrated in the anatomy of tact, is the success with which its mistakes are glossed over so as not to be detected. One of the greatest triumphs of the man of tact is, the facility with which he can carry on a lengthened and verbose discussion upon a subject of which he is entirely ignorant. Now, in the course of such arguments, it is unreasonable to suppose that a mistake *may* here and there creep in. Though apprised of it, he is "never confounded, never at a stand still;" he goes on talking, and endeavours to draw from his adversary such a hint as affords him enough of information to correct

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his error. He then reverts to it, and, on being charged with saying so and so, declares he *meant* the reverse. In this way his ignorance escapes detection. Again, "His lies seem truer than truth." We can easily illustrate this, by supposing two men to start in life as doctors; one, the man of tact, as a quack; the other as a regularly bred physician. Each commences his career by writing a medical book; the one full of plausible lies, the other full of abstruse truths. The quack publishes his work as a means of puffing a nostrum he has patented; the physician to add, from his own study and experience, to the general stock of physiological knowledge. What is the result? Tact, by some specious theory, and a list of fictitious cures, obtains the credence and the patronage of three-fourths of the public. He has taken care to make his theory plausible: perhaps he propounds that all diseases spring from impure blood; that his pills—provided the patient swallows a certain number of half-crown boxes—purify the blood; *ergo*, they cure all diseases. Then, who can doubt the detail of cures so circumstantially narrated and respectably attested? In the end, the quack makes an immense fortune out of the lies he has put forth in the disguise of truth. But where is the physician? Pining in neglect; honoured, perhaps, by a professional few, but unpatronised by a single patient. He is suffering for the want of Tact; his work, though true from beginning to end, did not *seem* like truth, and he starves; the quack's fallacies did, and he flourishes. But the true physician need not despair, if he will in future call Tact to his aid. Let him publish a chemical analysis of tea, a physiology of blushing, or invent a new tooth-powder, and he may yet ride in his carriage. Another instance will finish this part of the subject. The jest-books relate, that Tact and Truth once appeared on the stage as rivals. Tact was a charlatan, who imitated the squeaking of a pig so admirably, that hundreds of auditors were wont to applaud him. Truth, in the humble guise of a rustic, afterwards came forward and produced a similar noise, but was hissed and pelted. Before leaving the stage, the countryman drew forth from under his vest a live young pig, from whose throat had issued the real sounds which the critics had so violently pronounced a bad imitation! So that Tact, acting upon Ignorance, had made his counterfeit appear more natural than nature itself, as the quack caused his lies to appear more feasible than the physician's truths.

"Tact does everything promptly, and nothing out of place." Whoever has watched the actions and motions of a thorough man of the world, will readily testify to the correctness of this. How exactly he hits the proper time for paying a morning visit, especially to a family where there are ladies! He does not make his appearance too early, before all the domestic arrangements for the day are complete; nor too late, when the damsels are preparing to take their daily walk. He takes leave the instant he finds out his presence is not desired. He never arrives at a party so soon as to be the first or second guest, or so late as to disturb any of the amusements which may be going on; neither does he defer his exit till a lamp has gone out, or a candle is burned to the socket. How well he knows "when to laugh!" How effectually have his prospects in life been improved by hearty approvals of a patron's joke. Experience tells him, also, "when to weep;" for sympathy is the strongest cement of friendship; and how readily he appears to join in the sorrows of those whose esteem he would cultivate! He can, on the contrary, seem angry, at a moment's warning, with a person of whose society he wishes to be rid, and can shun him ever after, with the same coolness as if he had never had the slightest acquaintance with him.

Finally, Tact knows "how to appear profound, how to seem ignorant; how to be vulgar, how to be elegant:" in other words, how to be all things to all men. This, in fact, includes a great part of the code by which his actions are governed. Amongst the well-informed, Tact gets the credit of having been a hard student; for he so cleverly assumes all the appearance of profundity in a great variety of subjects, that the wonder is, how he could have found time to cultivate the graces so successfully. On the other hand, he is an assiduous gallant, and flatters the fair sex so adroitly, that the flattered really imagine he sincerely believes all he utters. Then they, in their turn, cannot conceive how so excellent a dancer, and so pleasing a musician, could have found leisure to make himself so well acquainted with the classics and the sciences. Thus it is that he "astonishes the learned with his gentility, and surprises the ladies with his learning."

I think that nearly all my friend Wilkins's doctrines about Tact are now sufficiently borne out; but being a tactician himself, he forgot to mention one characteristic of the quality, which is not to its advantage. I mean a certain want of principle—a varnishing of the truth, which almost amounts to a sacrifice of it—that inevitably accompanies Tact in its minutest operations, and which, so far as it goes, we can by no means commend. It has also a very dull sense of justice, and often elbows its way to high places over the heads of modest talent and neglected genius.

"RURAL AND DOMESTIC LIFE IN GERMANY."*

SECOND ARTICLE.

THE husbandry of the Germans differs from ours in an important particular. In Germany, the peasantry are for the most part the possessors of the soil; they farm their own lands, and are not, as in Great Britain, the servants of large landed proprietors. The consequence is, that a more industrious hard-labouring peasantry nowhere exists. They work busily, early and late, because they feel they are working for themselves. On the other hand, their farming operations being upon a small scale, are, from the want of capital, and the smallness of their possessions, seldom subject to improvement. But what they want in progressive improvement they make up in real husbandry; for, besides being industrious, they are economical of every imaginable thing the earth produces.

GERMAN ECONOMY.

"Nothing that can possibly be made use of is lost. The children may be seen standing in the stream in the villages carefully washing weeds before they are given to the cattle. As we meet them and the women with large bundles of grass on their heads tied in large cloths, one cannot but call to mind the immense quantities by our highway-sides, and great green lanes in England, and by wood-sides, which grow and wither, which might support many a poor man's cow. But with the German peasant it is not merely grass, it is everything which is collected and appropriated. The cuttings of his vines are dried and trussed for winter fodder. The very tops and refuse of his hemp are saved for the bedding of his cattle; nay, the rough stalks of his poppies, after the heads are gathered, serve the same purpose, and are all converted into manure. When these are not sufficient, the children gather moss in the woods; and in summer you constantly meet them coming down out of the hills with their great bundles of it. In autumn, they gather the very fungi out of the woods to sell for poisoning flies, and the stalks of a tall species of grass to sell for cleaning out their long pipes. Nothing is lost; the leaves in the woods are raked up as they fall, and are brought home before winter for bedding for cattle. The fir-cones, which with us lie all scattered in the forest, are as carefully collected to light their fires, or are carried in sacks, and sold in the cities for that purpose. The slop from their yards and stables is all preserved, and carried to the fields in water-carts to irrigate their crops. The economy and care of the German peasant afford a striking lesson of utility to all Europe. Time is as carefully economised as everything else. The peasants are early risers, and thus obtain hours of the day's beauty and freshness which others lose. As they herd their cattle and swine, or as they meet to chat, the everlasting knitting-needles are at work, and the quantities of stockings which they accumulate are astonishing. It would astonish the English common people to see the intense labour with which the Germans earn their firewood. In the depth of frost and snow, go into any of their hills and woods, and there you find them hacking up stumps, cutting off branches, and gathering, by all means which the official wood police will allow, boughs, stakes, and pieces of wood, which they convey home with the most incredible toil and patience. The women and children carry on their heads, or drag after them, or wheel in barrows, or trail on sledges, great bundles of these sticks down the most steep and stony hollow tracks in the hills. It is one of the characteristics of German scenery, to see all these roads and steep foot-paths out of these hilly woods harrowed with the scratching of these perpetually-descending bundles. The married women and the smart country damsels of England would stand aghast at meeting such objects of slavery, as they would call it, as we meet here continually—women, old and young, dragging and toiling under these bundles in the severity of winter or the intense heat of summer—and would bless their coal-pits, with all their black diamonds, though they sometimes buy them 'plaguy dear.'"

The incessant field-labour demanded from the women, however, takes them out of their proper sphere. Domestic comfort is therefore sadly neglected, and the English cottager's dwelling presents a most favourable contrast to

THE GERMAN PEASANT'S HOME.

"The English of the working-class can indeed form no conception of the hardy, unceasing, out-of-door labour of continental women the year round. How would married women with large families complain, and how would young ones blush, to be seen sweltering in these labours, more like ponies and patient asses than according to our notions of women and their work; and would ask how, if they were to do all this, they were to have their cottage hearths so neat, and their husbands' and children's clothes in nice order? But then they would not have them so. It is in England only that the cottages of the peasantry are so clean, so neat, so sweet, so picturesque, and even poetical. It is impossible that the German women, old and young, can at once be out of doors and at home; at once working all sunburnt and dusty in the fields and woods, and in their houses washing, scouring, mending, and making all domestic and attractive. In fact, there is nothing which so at once extinguishes all the poetical preconceptions which you may have imbibed from German *Märchen* and popular literature of the peasant-life, as going into any of their houses. What a contrast to those sweet little peasant-nests which are scattered all over England, thick as flowers in a summer field! Those little huts, which, however poor they may be in themselves, stand in summer in their lovely little gardens, and are clothed to the thatch with roses and vines, and have their flower-beds sending their odours into them with the sound of bees, and within are as clean and bright as nice hands can make them; and have in winter a cheering fire blazing in the chimney, and the mother, neat as the house itself, sitting at her sewing, or making wholesome household bread that a prince might eat and thank God for it; and with its little chambers and clean linen all so fresh, that it fills the mind of the beholder with a spirit of cheerfulness. Many sad inroads, indeed, have the pressure and poverty of late years made into these rural paradises in some parts of England; but yet, even as they now are, what a contrast are they to the houses of the German bauers!"

We now turn to

GERMAN DOMESTIC LIFE.

"Early hours and simple living distinguish the Germans. Three meals a-day are the usual order. The common people are astir extremely early, especially in summer, when wagons and carriages begin to roll about at two o'clock; and after that time, every hour becomes more lively with the country people proceeding to the town with articles for market. The cooks and good housewives are off to market to make their purchases for the day at five and six o'clock. The peasant girls, of course, before that hour, are going along in streams, with their tubs or baskets on their heads, full of vegetables, eggs, milk, fruit, &c. Men who get up early to study, or to work, often take some coffee directly they come down, and then breakfast with their family at six or seven o'clock in summer. This breakfast is, generally, simply coffee and bread, mostly without butter. Dinner is on table at twelve or one. The German cookery abounds in soups, vegetables, and sausages, of various kinds, sour kraut, of course, salads of as many kinds, amongst which a particular salad, made of cold potatoes with vinegar and anchovies, is a great favourite.

During the day, while the men are at their various avocations, the ladies are busy in their kitchens, or amongst their linen, or are sewing or knitting as if their lives depended on the labour. The hoarding of linen and of stockings is just as great a passion with most German ladies as with the Frau von Westen. Spinning-wheels abound, and are to be seen in the houses of many people of great pretensions, in still more of the burgher class, and in every house of the common people. The rock is often bound about with a gay broad ribbon, and the wheel itself is very neat. Linen is hoarded up in such quantities, that washing-days come in very many families but once a-quarter, in many even but once a-year; and I have heard of one wealthy family where the master's shirts were only gone through in six years. Most gentlemen now have their gross of shirts, and other things in proportion. The quantity of beautiful table-linen, napkins for the table and the chambers, and all such things, would be a cordial to any good housewife's soul. The knitting of stockings is an everlasting job. At home and abroad, Sundays and week-days, in private parties and at public out-of-door concerts, and in public gardens, the dear, good, industrious souls sit knitting, and smiling, and gossiping in the seventh heaven of delight. It is to be hoped, that there is a German heaven where knitting is one of the appointed rewards of virtue; for without the idea of the eternity of knitting-needles, what German lady could look forward with any comfort?

Cooking is equally a lady's pleasure. The education of a German lady is to us a very singular one. It is composed of the two extremes of household usefulness and social ornament. Accomplishments are carefully taught. All that tends to give the ladies *éclat* in the ball-room and in large companies, they are more regularly drilled into even than ours. Music and dancing are indispensable. The French language has long been universal, and English is now becoming so. Their greater intercourse with foreigners keeps in use their French. Music is so much a national enjoyment, that not only all young women, but almost all young men, play on the piano and sing. This is not only a great relief to the monotony of private life, and an elegant and refining enjoyment for the evening circle, especially to weary men, harassed or exhausted by the daily tug of their affairs—but is conducive to the pleasure of those agreeable little parties, which abound so much amongst the Germans, where singing, a dance, and simple games, pass away rapidly the hours. Here are required no hired musicians; one after another will sit down to the harp or piano; others will join in singing; and thus social pleasure can go forward most independently. So general are such accomplishments, that they are much less thought

* Rural and Domestic Life in Germany. By William Howitt. 1 vol. 8vo. Embellished with wood engravings. London: Longman and Co. 1842.

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of; individuals pride themselves much less upon them than in England. They are rather regarded as the indispensable parts of education, as much so as reading and writing are.

The great defect of German female education is, that household and social accomplishments are made the sum of their instruction. They read, indeed, the romances and novels, and poetry, not only of their own country, but almost all the new novels of France, and England too, and truly, it must be confessed, show very little discrimination in their taste for these. Not only the works of Bulwer, Boz, Marryat, James, &c., but the most trashy tales of our inferior writers, which are puffed in England, are immediately translated, or reprinted in Germany, and as much read by ladies and the devourers of circulating-library pabulum, as they are at home. The men of any standing, from the cheapness of a university education, generally receive such a one, and, as if from jealousy, seem to have a mortal aversion to the ladies possessing the same sort of information as themselves. There is, accordingly, a great vacuum in German literature, which in England is filled by a host of productions which are equally read and relished by men and women; in which all matters of history, science, morals, and religion, are ably and profoundly, though not technically, treated. German men are either writers of poetry and romance, or of strictly scientific and philosophical matters, and such things as female writers of first-rate eminence are extremely rare. A Caroline Pichler, a Gräfin Hahn-Hahn, a Bettina von Arnim, a daughter of Tieck translating Shakspeare, are rare exceptions. In fact, literary ladies are looked upon as a sort of pretty monsters; and, accordingly, such a series of fine-minded, and noble-minded, and glorious women as adorn the world of English literature, do not, and cannot, exist in Germany."

A picture of domestic life is never complete without a portraiture of those who always stand in the foreground of the picture. We mean

SERVANTS.

"Of German servants, we may here say a word. The genuine German maid-servant is one of the most healthy, homely, hard-working creatures under the sun. Like her fellows who work in fields, barns, and woods, she is as strong as a pony, and by no means particular as to what she is to do. She wears no cap or bonnet at home or abroad; has a face and arms as stout and red as any that our farm girls can boast; and scours and sweeps, and drudges on, like a creature that has no will but to work and eat, and sleep. She goes to market with bare head, and in a large cloak. She turns out on a Saturday afternoon, with all the rest of her tribe, with bucket and besom into the street, and then, about three or four o'clock, makes a perilous time of it in the city. Before every door water is flowing, and besoms are flirting the dirty puddle about. Each extends her labours not only to the pavement, if there be one, but to the middle of the street; so that they are, in fact, the city scavengers. German housewives complain dreadfully of their maids; but the maids themselves certainly lead hard and most laborious lives, such as our servants would not do. They address you with a sort of family familiarity which would be thought strange in England, but yet without anything like insolence, and are much more willing than English ones. You are not afraid, as you are in England, and especially in the neighbourhood of London, that, at any order to do their work properly, they will turn and say, 'If I can't give satisfaction, I beg you to suit yourself with another.' The worst of them is, that their German mistresses are accustomed to be so much with them, and give them immediate orders for the doing of almost everything, that they have seldom any idea of doing anything but what they are then and there told. They seem to act rather than to think, and to follow orders rather than to exercise foresight; so that, with English mistresses, they are continually letting out fires, leaving things uncooked, and committing similar negligences, totally because they live under the direction of their German mistresses, with no occasion to exercise their heads at all, but merely their hands.

On the other hand, German servants have customs and privileges that would astonish both servants and mistresses in England. They have their public balls, and their invitations to the tradesmen's balls. These they expect to attend just as much as they expect to have their daily food. At least twice in the winter is stipulated for. They have carriages sent to fetch them and bring them back, and go off as smart as their masters and mistresses would. The girls have their ball-books, wherein to enter their engagements for the dance, just as well as any of their young ladies, and, in short, for these evenings are as much ladies as the best of them. At the burgher balls, the maid-servants will often dance with some of the most respectable young tradesmen, and, of course, feel not a little proud of it. An English housemaid whom we brought to Germany with us being about to return again to England, we were surprised to find that the nurse-maid had made her a parting present of a ball-book, the said housemaid never having learned a step in her life, and never being likely to require her ball-book when in England.

The conduct of servants, as well as everything else in Germany, is kept strictly under the surveillance of the police. Each servant is furnished with a character-book, which contains all legal regulations respecting servants, and the engagements between them and their employers, being quite a little code of menial service. In this book, when a servant leaves his or her place, the master or mistress writes his or her character. This book is then laid up at the police-office, and before a servant can procure a fresh place, this book must be fetched, and the character written in by the party whom the servant is leaving; and the book, with all its characters, must be taken to the party with whom the servant wishes to engage. Thus, a powerful check is kept on the conduct of servants, and it is not easy for a bad one to get employ, or to avoid the sharp notice of the police-officers."

We can only refer to our extracts, in proof of the opinions we have expressed of Mr Howitt's book, and close it with the conviction, that a more graphic and entertaining picture of German manners has never yet been painted.

A WEDDING IN GARRISON.*

BY THE AUTHOR OF "SELWYN," "TALES OF THE MOORS," &C.

LIVES there the man, moderately enriched with the blessings of social and domestic ties, who does not number among his relatives some valuable and valued living record of the olden time; some white-haired specimen of age's loveliness, whose reminiscences he would willingly enshrine in somewhat less perishable than tradition, and whose virtues, nay, whose very fast fading peculiarities, he would fain transmit to the admiration of posterity?

Sometimes it is—and I have had a Benjamin's portion of such blessings—a venerable grandmother, towering in scarce diminished majesty amid a seemingly degenerate progeny, with all the stateliness of a far loftier period, and all the pride—the only pride that surely was ever made for man or woman—of unblemished ancestry and spotless life. Sometimes a maiden aunt, the very *beau ideal* of female purity and propriety, yet with a grace and playfulness of nature modern art too often stifles, with an originality of character which modern education smooths away, and altogether one whose like our children certainly will never look upon; for, however the present generation may figure on the stage as busy and efficient actors, whatever may be the ease and confidence of their "entrances," never, never, it strikes me, will their "exits" be dignified and graceful as those of the generation who preceded them.

Where will be, in our children's days, the courtliness that dwelt instinctively in hoops and ruffles?—the wit that rose spontaneously in the vigorous but untutored mind?—the originality fostered and cherished by happy ignorance of books and authors? The age of chivalry is past even for us: we should look vainly for an Amadis or a Tristrem; as vainly shall our descendants seek the finished gentleman of the old school, or courtly specimen of female dignity, still to be found, though few, and fast departing, in our privileged day.

Then the old soldier—Uncle Philip, for example, my thrice beloved, thrice honoured grand-uncle! I do not say our warriors have degenerated—God forbid! The blood of Britons, like the dragon's teeth of fable, must ever send forth its new race of heroes. Our soldiers fight as well, ay, better than ever; but will they talk of battle with the easy energy of those who never dreamt of being quizzed for it? Does woman's name inspire them with a reverential softness—a touch of soul-felt sacredness? Is her heart now to them that proud and virgin fortress which toil and perseverance could alone achieve, and worthy all the protracted hardships of the siege? Alas! flirtation (odious word!) has banished courtship from love's dictionary: the "humble servant" of his obsolete vocabulary is now the lordly sultan, wooed by rival beauties; love's strategy is reversed, and man, entrenched in pride, can brook to see his citadel summoned in vain by troops of unblushing Amazons.

It was not so some fifty years ago, when Uncle Philip was a gay young soldier. He loved as men loved then—in silence and submission—passionately, despairingly, and unsuccessfully. He was of those (now gone) who love not twice; but while one dreary blight chilled all incipient buds of passion, the memory of one bright though unpropitious deity canonized the sex in Philip's reverential bosom. He was its silent worshipper, staunch friend, and dauntless champion. His eye, at fourscore, kindles yet, when past or present loveliness glides before it; and when he speaks of woman's wrongs or sorrows, there is a tear still ready to attest perennial sensibility.

It is the joy of one and all of us to make him talk of what a chequered life has crowded into memory's still unclouded mirror. He loves to suit his flow of rich time-mellowed recollections to the ear that drinks them. To my bold and fearless boys, his war tales are as a battle trumpet; to my soft gentle girls, he breathes of buried sorrows as one who would have them love "wisely—*not* too well."

Last night he had a mingled auditory round the social fire. One inexperienced heart amid the group had recently bled from parental refusal and unsanction the "baseless fabric" of a delusive worthy attachment. Shame and regret were struggling in an ingenuous but still half-repentant bosom the sympathizing circle laboured under a tale of depression, and Uncle Philip, called on for a story of other times, glided insensibly into the very strain. Our a sterner moralist might have sought in vain the first gay young ensign, Arthur, about to join, forgotten time, his regiment at G——, revived the lost, alas, ten subject of the memorable siege. Exploits escoped like modes, grow out of date; but memory's ing the like Herschel's, can obliterate distance, and bring the dim and hazy past again in bright reality before pe and mind's eye. The leagured rock, defying Europe foiled its hosts, the murderous engines of destruction magna- by resolute valour, the British humanity and battle- nimity that crowned the whole, glowed like spoke; piece of Wouverman's before us as the old man lished but it was the momentary flash of unextinguished y and martial fire. His mood to-night was melancholy nearly moralising, and its overflowings shall be given in his own impressive words.

"It will be long, indeed," said Uncle Philip, when his glow of gratified British pride subsided; longer than even I have lived, and that is saying a good deal, before any one who shared in them can for- get the horrors of the memorable siege of G——. There is something in defensive warfare at all times irksome and dispiriting to the feelings of Britons; and even where successful, as ours eminently was, it wants the excitement, the romance, the chivalrous feeling, of attack and onset. Then there are always, in a besieged city, horrors enough to appal a stout heart, and privations to melt a feeling one. Bombs falling perhaps in the midst of a church full of wo- men, or hospital filled with dying; provisions always ten prices, even if to be had for money, and in some sad extremities, hunger perishing with her lap full of gold. The faces of those even most exempt from hardships are sure to grow long and thin at last. One general feeling of imprisonment and degradation robs young cheeks of bloom, and older ones of confi- dence; and well it is if private grief and misery mingle not with public calamity. Much, much there was of both at G——, both during and after the siege; yet my memory dwells, with sad tenacity, on a little domestic tragedy connected with its common cement; perhaps because we had not then 'supped full with horrors;' perhaps because we are born to sympathise more deeply in the woes and errors of humanity than in scenes of physical suffering.

Among the picked but scanty garrison of G——, you could not find a braver man than Captain Osborne. He was one of those soldiers, '*sans peur et sans reproche*,' who might have lived in the age of Bayard, and defied him to the strife of honour. I knew and loved him as he deserved; and next to one fair daughter, who was all his earthly treasure, I believe I ranked highest in his affection and esteem. It was soon proved; for, exhausted by fatigue in the construction of defences preparatory to the siege, this gallant officer was not destined to participate either in its hardships or its laurels. He died some days ere the place was finally invested, and while escape from its devoted precincts was yet safe and practicable. His dying cares were for his country and his daughter: the former he had served while life remained; the latter he sought, even in death, to place beyond the reach of danger; nay, I could fancy him reconciled to an event that would release her from a post of perilous duty. 'Go home to England, my dear child,' he faltered anxiously, with eyes alternately fixed on Ellen and myself. 'You, Merton, will take care that she leaves this fatal town—it will soon be no place for females; and he who might have wanted power or inclination to bid her from him while in life, in death may claim to be obeyed.'

I could not see the face of Ellen as her sobs re- echoed the dying mandate, for it was buried in her father's pillow; but her voice uttered no responsive promise to soothe the ear of death, and when the soldier's muffled drum had ceased to roll, and their brief requiem had been sung over the brave, I learned the reason why.

One tie that anchored Ellen to the beloved walls was severed, but another and a secret remained. She loved, and was beloved again, by one for whom she would have braved peril in a more dire than all the woes of Troy. Yet was he but another Paris—vain, fickle, and effeminate; a soldier not of fame, but fashion; one whom, if her father did not warn her to avoid, it was because he never dreamed she could be thus ignobly won.

But the young maiden and old soldier saw with different eyes. Deloraine had a face that might have served a nobler mind as index, and a form martial enough to shame a host of unpretending heroes. He had the gift too, call it as you will, that fortune lavishes so oft on worthless minions—the gift to cozen woman—the charm, which, like Titania's potent juice, can make a waking dreamer worship folly and dote upon a counterfeit.

Availing himself first of Osborne's professional avocations, and latterly of his declining health, Deloraine, but recently arrived from England, made rapid way in Ellen Osborne's favour. Bred up as she had been, and with, alas! no mother's precious counsel, within the rude precincts of a confined garrison circle, amid

* This tale may be said to be published here for the first time; for, though it was printed a few years ago in a monthly magazine, so small was the circulation of that work, which sunk at the fifth number, that the articles contained in it could scarcely be said to have seen the light. The "Wedding in Garrison" is here reprinted with the obliging concurrence of the author.

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grey-headed veterans and unpolished soldiers of fortune, the gay, young, aristocratic Englishman, seemed doubly fascinating in her eyes; and long confinement in a transport having at least as great effect on his, the passion soon became reciprocal.

Her father's serious illness threw it in the shade; but with his fond injunction to depart, and the cold grasp that stiffened ere she could relinquish it, rushed the sudden conviction, that to go was misery; to stay, perhaps, no longer consistent with propriety. In her despair she opened her mind to me. In pity for a young and bleeding heart, I hinted, perhaps more gently than I ought, my doubts of him on whom her hopes were anchored. I promised to protect and shield, if possible, from injury, the daughter of my departed friend. Yet feeling how soon the pledge might be outweighed by higher duties, I strongly urged her to return to England.

During the first few days of privileged mourning, visitors were necessarily excluded; nor did the state of things in G—— leave time or room for idle ceremonials. But Ellen's eye sparkled through tears when I returned to ask her resolution; for Deloraine had written, as men write when using words to veil the lack of deeds from those who think them still the same. Strange that a few more years, a grey hair more or less, should make that sound so hollow which in youth's credulous ear can seem the music of the spheres!

I read in Deloraine's letter that he loved Ellen to madness, not to matrimony; that, coldly selfish, he sought to trifle with rather than to seduce her; to keep her in his power, like the spared mouse, for long and harrowing suspense, rather than by precipitate measures abridge to himself the pleasures either of pursuit or triumph. I might have contented myself with watching sedulously his manœuvres, and counteracting them with all a parent's vigilance; but I was soon, I knew, to mount a far different and less pleasing guard, while the humbler military rank and inefficient character of Deloraine might leave him leisure to achieve his civil conquest undisturbed.

I was saved the painful task of first remonstrance, by a general order, commanding the departure of all useless persons unconnected by the nearest ties to officers composing the garrison. This order clearly embraced Ellen; and that which, while still optional, she shuddered but to think of, became, except on one supposition, inevitable. She threw herself into my arms and wept; for even *she* could doubt if Deloraine would purchase the right to detain her with his hand.

He, however, could not brook to see her snatched so unexpectedly from him, and agreeably surprised us both by flying, as soon as the order reached him, to claim her as his bride. They had not met since her sad loss; and if, in my sober eyes, her beauty was enhanced both by the reality and garb of woe, it evidently was not less so in a lover's. Poor Ellen! I think when, with her fine tall fragile figure, her clear transparent skin, and floods of golden hair, set off by her black dress, she stood before us, smiling love's radiant smile through nature's filial tears, I never saw a creature more enchanting.

Deloraine saw, by the manner of both, that, in the absence of a natural parent, she had found one in me. He therefore affected to consult me in the dilemma to which he was reduced by the inopportune illness of the garrison chaplain, and the difficulty of finding a substitute in the three days which alone intervened before the inexorable fiat of the governor would separate them, perhaps for ever. The case was a cruel one. G—— certainly did not afford another Englishman in regular orders, besides the one now lying delirious in the fever hospital; and unless the wife of Deloraine before the sailing of the fatal transport, Ellen must, per force, accompany it to England.

In these perplexing circumstances, Deloraine's idea was one as likely to find favour with a young impassioned mind as to startle and repel a more experienced one. G—— then abounded with Catholic priests, some of whom might possibly be bribed or influenced to solemnise a marriage; but I greatly distrusted and loathed this novel-like expedient. I did not reckon every youth a Lovelace, or every monk a Schedoni; but I knew 'men were deceivers ever,' and I urged—tenderly, authoritatively, urged Ellen to be gone. 'If Deloraine loves you as you think, my child, he will come honourably and claim you when this short strife is over; if otherwise, you will live to count escape a blessing. Why would you risk, upon a questionable rite, the happiness and reputation of your future life?' But Ellen had the instinctive doubt of her lover's constancy, though not the rational one of his sincerity. The '*if*' I placed before her was more dreadful than a thousand certainties. To stay and marry might be rash; to go and meet no more, perhaps, was—in her present mood—to die!

The priest was sought and found; raised scruples, sold them, and was ready to officiate. At first, I determined to withhold my sanction and presence from a ceremony my judgment utterly condemned; but suddenly reflecting of what importance as a witness I might be in case of need, I came unexpected, and on one side, I believe, undesired, to the scene.

It was an ominous yet solemn one. The priest, whose tenets forbade the exercise of his sacred office in unconsecrated precincts, yet who durst not bring openly a heretic couple to a Catholic altar, chose, for safety and convenience, a subterranean chapel in the rock, used in times of Moorish persecution, and known but to a few religious. I am not superstitious; yet the damp earthy smell of this sepulchral vault—its darkness rendered visible by one dim glimmering lamp—the perjured priest, and perhaps no less perjured bridegroom, and fond believing victim—all made an impression not soon to be forgotten. Ellen, from motives of natural and pardonable superstition, had thrown aside her deep mourning for the ceremony, yet with such haste and negligence, that relics of it peeped strangely from beneath her bridal garb.

The long rite, at length, was over; the certificate, at my request, duly signed by all present, including an English servant of poor Osborne's; and Deloraine, in triumph, carried home his prize. The vessel sailed for England with her freight of fugitives; the siege commenced in earnest; and all was general bustle and individual exertion.

The first drawback on Ellen's intended happiness, was the frequent exposure to peril and fatigue of one whose temper and habits fitted him for neither. When others laughed at, nay, even courted, hardships, this silken son of affluence shrunk in ill-humour or disgust. But woman's love and patience smiled on Ellen's brow; and sure I am, if undiscovered she could have donned his soldier's cloak, and mounted the dark and stormy guard for him, she would have done so with unhesitating devotion.

I saw them seldom. I could not at first, even for Ellen's sake, love Deloraine; and for her sake I should have learned ere long to hate him, had I not, before the conclusion of the siege, received a desperate wound, and remained in hospital till all was over, and the exhausted garrison relieved by fresh troops. Deloraine came to see me ere he sailed, and brought a billet full of love and gratitude from Ellen. I sought, in vain, in its tone for joy, and should have been happy had it breathed content.

My regiment went to India. I shared in many a hard-fought contest with our then formidable Indian foes, and proved their tender mercies in the far-famed dungeons of Seringapatam. When the first bitterness of this virtual death was past, it is well-known that courage and constitutional cheerfulness rendered the lot of most of us supportable. We were generally contented—sometimes even gay; but while we bore thus wonderfully, to ourselves, an apparently hopeless confinement, little did I dream how fatal its protraction had proved to one whom I did not even *there* forget.

The tale of Ellen has been told for centuries; yet their hoary stamp renders it not the more impressive to the reckless ear of youth. Deloraine ceased to be a lover, and, in so doing, felt that to cease to be a husband was not difficult. The priest was out of reach—transported, perchance, on wings of gold, to a rich convent in Peru. The English soldier present at the marriage was dead; and I alone remained, a witness formidable to the one party, and precious to the other. Ellen, with the powerlessness of utter despair, and painful memory of my prophetic warnings, would have forborne to appeal to me, but she had still distant relations interested by pride in establishing her marriage. They wrote and wrote to me; and it was not till the letters were returned as those of one over whom the grave had well-nigh closed, that Ellen knew how unconsciously her heart had clung to me as her protector and her champion.

In Hyder's dungeon, Deloraine defied me; cast Ellen wholly off; and fortified himself in guilty breach of vows, by interesting, through a second marriage, a whole noble family in the annihilation of all traces of his first.

I was released at length, and re-appeared among my English friends as one arisen from the grave. If to some of these my hollow cheeks and lean gaunt limbs gave an unwelcome shock, it was slight to that I felt when sent for by the dying Ellen.

I should have known her voice—'low, sweet, and musical'—and traced a heightened likeness to her father in her mournful smile! All else had vanished; the tall form was bent and wasted—the fair skin ghastly pale—the golden hair thinned, not by time, but sorrow. There was a mightier change! The thoughtless wilful novice, rushing upon life, was grown a grief-taught heavenward pilgrim. I talked to her of her rights, as soldiers talk, and swore I would assert them with my life. 'Nay, Colonel Merton,' said the gentle injured one, 'speak not of rights to her whose only lawful title was to the years of suffering her rashness purchased. It was mine to sow the wind, and reap the whirlwind; but the storm is spent, the haven almost gained. I waited for your coming, that you might sanction, with your presence, one act more of submission to a higher power, and Christian charity towards one, richer and fairer, yet I fear not much happier, than I; but who, long taught to tremble at my name, and turn pale at the sound of yours, cannot know peace till *this* exists no more.' So saying, she took the certificate, which I had been examining, and which lay between us on the table, cast up her eyes in meek surrender of all earthly hopes, and placed the fatal paper on the flames.

'I have no child, Merton,' said she, answering my look of petrified amazement, 'to upbraid me with this purely personal sacrifice. *She*, I am told, has smiling innocents to profit by it: on them she may now gaze without a pang; and *he*, released from hated vows and racking fears, may grow, perhaps, a faithful husband and fond father. To *me* he can be nothing but an instrument of merited chastisement and contrite self-abasement. I have forgiven, and would fain forget him. I am now again Osborne's friendless daughter, Colonel Merton. You closed my darling parent's eyes in happy ignorance of future woe; you will, I hope, close mine in blest forgetfulness of past misfortunes. The chapel of San Roque, its stolen vows, and murky air—my motley trappings of grief and joy—what were they but unerring omens of a rashly-chosen lot? It has been quickly run, and fatally for time—not without profit, let me humbly hope, for eternity. God bless you, mine own, and my father's friend. I shall not be a tax upon your kindness long!'

It was even so; and Ellen Osborne died at five-and-twenty, the worn and wasted victim of misplaced confidence and headstrong passion. Nor was retributive justice idle. Deloraine, too, died young—a martyr to remorse—alike unloving and unloved by his proud new connexions; who, while they tolerated, for his children's sake, the treason, felt for the traitor merited abhorrence. He sent for me; and asked me, with his dying breath, to lay him at the feet of Ellen."

OCCASIONAL NOTE.

SCOTCH BANKS.

THE following piece of nonsense appeared a short time ago in a London newspaper, when treating of the subject of Scotch Banks:—

"We say, again, that John Knox had much to do with making Scotch banking, and, by consequence, Scotch agriculture (which is in great measure the creation of the former), what they are; for it is owing to that spirit of resistance to foreign interference, and the desire of fostering and aggrandising (perhaps too exclusively) every thing Scotch, that the extraordinary phenomenon of the prosperity of Scotland is to be attributed."

When Englishmen attempt to explain matters connected with Scotland, they generally commit the most ludicrous blunders; and seldom have they said anything more laughable than the above. "John Knox had much to do with Scotch banking, and, by consequence, Scotch agriculture." Just about as much as the building of Tenterden steeple had to do with the creation of the Goodwin Sands. It is really wonderful that the English papers should countenance such stuff. Scotch banking, so far as it possesses any peculiarities, and as we have again and again explained, rests on two or three great principles; such as the necessities of the country, the responsibility of the shareholders to the last farthing of their fortune, the cautiousness of the directors, the universal practice of exchanging notes at short intervals, and, we may add, the public registration of real property, by which each landed proprietor's circumstances are known. But the mainspring of the whole system—that which keeps it in steady motion—is to be sought for in the mental character of the people, their quiet sagacity and shrewdness, their economic habits, and their persevering industry and ambition, all which qualities they possessed ages before John Knox.

Being once planted on a firm foundation, and universal confidence inspired, the Scotch banks have become the great reservoirs of capital, whence streams of money issue to irrigate the whole country. Except the trifle of ready cash in the pockets of the people, all the money in Scotland is deposited in banks, the inducement being an allowance of interest of some 2½ or 3 per cent. per annum, for all sums, even for short periods of time. In Scotland, with less than three millions of inhabitants, there are thirty banks, chiefly located in Edinburgh and Glasgow; but from the whole there are deputed 353 agencies. These agencies are established in the provincial towns, to the most remote corners of the kingdom, so that there is scarcely a place of more than 500 inhabitants which has not its bank—and not a poor, staggering, local concern, but an establishment backed and supervised by its great head institution in the metropolis. But the agencies do not end here. At every great fair or market, agents attend from different banks. In the corner of a tent may be seen a gentleman at a desk receiving and paying out money, discounting bills, or changing notes. Few drovers or farmers now think of either carrying money to or bringing it away from these markets. The banker does all; he honours checks, and receives the proceeds to account; by which facilities, perhaps L.20,000 change hands in the course of a day, and yet only a few hundred pounds of specie have actually been employed. These bank agencies are found to be of great convenience in markets far distant from towns, as, for instance, at the cattle-markets in Skye and Sutherlandshire; but they are likewise of considerable use in markets near large seats of population, as at Hallow Fair, near Edinburgh, Falkirk Tryst, and so forth.

The agency system, however, is carried still further. Villages which have not business for a settled agent, are visited on a certain day and hour weekly. When the specified time approaches, the agent is seen entering the village with his gig, and in half an hour he is found seated in the parlour of the little inn, receiving deposits of all the accumulated savings of the week, discounting *safe* bills with his bank-notes, and honouring draughts on accounts. Probably an hour and a half finishes his transactions; the gig is ordered out; and off he sets to the next village on his route where the same scene is enacted.

It will now be perceived that Scotland is literally

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dotted over with banks. Never, in any country, was there such a universal and complete system of lending and borrowing. Every person who can command L.10 *hastens to* lend it out at interest, by depositing it in a bank, which again lends it out at a somewhat higher rate of interest, employing, as may be supposed, its own notes, which represent the deposits, and also the capital, of the shareholders. By this means two most important ends are gained—no sums of money lie idle in the hands of individuals, all being in active employment for the general behoof, and much real capital (houses, lands, and other kinds of property), represented by notes, swells the amount of money in circulation, at once stimulating habits of economy and judicious enterprise through the whole body of the people.

A WORD ON MECHANICS' INSTITUTIONS GENERALLY.

In the latter part of the year 1835, the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge adopted means for procuring information respecting the number, condition, and prospects of mechanics' and similar institutions in all parts of the country; and the matter which was subsequently collected, formed the basis of a small work, the "Manual for Mechanics' Institutions," issued in 1839. As in that year the institutions erected for the special instruction of the operative classes may be said to have been in the height of their popularity, it may be interesting to know exactly how far the success of the various undertakings realised the expectations originally formed of them. We learn, then, from the above respectable authority, that in 1839 there existed in the United Kingdom 223 establishments for the diffusion of general and scientific information, 26 of which were situated in and around the metropolis. It is further ascertained that the total number of members in attendance at the 125 institutions, from which accurate returns could be obtained, was 27,445—not quite one-fifth of whom were workmen. Now, as this sum gives a fraction over 219 members to each of the 125 institutes, it is fair to presume, that, to the whole 223, no greater number than 50,000 individuals belonged, yielding the small proportion of 10,000 operatives. The total population for whose especial benefit these establishments were set on foot, certainly exceeds one million of persons, not more than the one-hundredth part of whom avail themselves of the vast boon of valuable instruction brought within their reach throughout every part of Great Britain.*

A fact so startling as this leads to some important considerations; and the inquiry naturally arises, who are to blame for such a seeming laxity of attendance? Is the cost of instruction pitched beyond the means of the working-classes generally? Is the routine of study strictly suitable? Are the operative orders really desirous of mental improvement? And will they make any sacrifices to attain it? As in many other cases, there are perhaps faults on both sides. The comparatively high rate of subscription, mentioned in our article on the Manchester Lyceums, is undoubtedly a serious drawback to the extensive usefulness of Mechanics' Institutions; for we have always to take into account, that the working-classes have seldom money to spare on anything beyond immediate necessities, or, at least, from previous and fixed customs, are not in the habit of laying apart sums to produce benefits which are not visible and tangible. But there are other objections perhaps still more cogent, the chief of which is the general want of attractive amusement. With a most imperfect education originally, if any education at all; years of close application to a monotonous routine of duties, in which the mind plays a very inferior part; and springing from these and other circumstances, a want of self-dependence or innate power of appreciating external advantages—with all this, we say, the bulk of the operative classes cannot be viewed as in a fit preparatory condition for those valuable institutions erected for their more immediate benefit. Toiling during the day, the mechanic appears to be in no humour in the evening for grave studies, such as these institutions usually offer; his desire is for that species of relaxation which will amuse and excite, and deprived of this in the existing forms of institutions, he too frequently seeks a stimulus in the enjoyments of the public-house; not that the drink is in all cases the attraction; for the company has its charms; he meets associates whose notions accord with his own, and who enter with him into discussions that interest his feelings, whatever they may be, whether good or bad. Except he be a confirmed toper, in whom drunkenness is a disease, he takes the liquor as a means of paying the landlord for the use of the room, which has attracted within its walls those companions whose opinions, songs, or jests, he likes to hear. It is the amusement, and not altogether the drink, he seeks. The Manchester publicans, for example, well knowing this, do not, in their advertisements to draw customers to their several houses, vaunt the goodness or cheapness of their spirits, but promise a good evening's entertainment. To this end many of them have had organs fitted up in their establishments, or possess piano-fortes; they employ musicians; they take care to publish that on such a night Mr So-and-So, the celebrated comic singer, will oblige the company with his vocal drolleries. They know that amusement is the great attraction, and that the drinking is merely subsidiary; they may thus be said to fathom the wishes, and supply the wants, of a workman's leisure, better than the directors of Mechanics' Institutions. In drawing an auditory of uninformed operatives, the comic singer offers incalculable odds against the scientific lecturer. Whilst, on the other hand, to the well-informed operative, he presents no attraction, but rather excites contempt. In this, then, lies the whole matter: how are Mechanics' Institutes to bring those most needing their assistance within the sphere of their operations? how to entice them to instruction up to that point of intelligence at which intellectual is preferred to demoralising amusement?

But supposing the scale of subscriptions to be reduced to within a workman's means, these establishments would even then be but of little service to him, from the circumstance of their assuming, as at present constituted, that every operative can read and write. None of them—except the Manchester Lyceums—make any provision for elementary instruction upon such a plan as is available to the adult mechanic. The Liverpool Institution, for instance, which has grown into one of the most complete educational establishments in England, is, as such, just an academy for youth belonging to tradesmen and professionals; for the operative must be in very good circumstances who will make up his mind to pay, in one sum, the seven shillings which is required at this establishment as the first instalment of the yearly subscriptions. Again, should ample provision be made for adult instruction, at a moderate rate of subscription, even that would be inadequate without the employment of some attractive inducement—something beyond the mere prospect of acquiring information; some attractions which shall successfully rival those of the dram-shops; and this object has been effected in various ways, by a few institutions, with perfect success, some of whose proceedings are thus described in the report before us:—"It is gratifying to observe, that much attention has recently been given to the subject of amusements in Mechanics' Institutions. The study of music, especially vocal music, has greatly increased, and concerts have been given in many places, and been well attended. Tea and coffee parties, at rates sufficiently low to be within the working-man's means, have been given occasionally, at which music, a few pleasing philosophical experiments, recitations, and in some places dancing, have been the occupations of the evening. One great advantage of this class of recreations is, that they admit of the wives and families partaking of the enjoyment, and thus establish a salutary relation to the domestic pleasures. At one of these coffee parties, held in March 1840, there were 630 persons present who paid 6d. each. The exhibition at Leeds in July 1839, was made the occasion of a visit from the members of the York Institution to that of Leeds, where they were entertained by the latter, who contemplate visiting York in return. Indeed, a lecture upon the antiquities of York has been given at the Leeds Institution. On the 3d of May, a similar visit was made by the members of the Gloucester, Cheltenham, and Tewkesbury Institutions, with many of their families, to Birmingham. More than 600 persons joined in this excursion."

To this we may add, that similar visits of members of Mechanics' Institutions have taken place in Scotland. In the course of the past year, the members of the Glasgow Institution paid a visit to Edinburgh, enjoying a sight of the most interesting objects of that ancient city, and returning in the evening. Shortly afterwards, the members of the School of Arts in Edinburgh, in the same manner, visited Glasgow, and were equally entertained by the excursion. It is not the least of the benefits of railways, that they permit such truly useful means of social intercourse.

At the Manchester Lyceums, tea parties and balls are frequently got up, into the amusements of which the members and their female connexions enter with great zest; and very few instances of any kind of impropriety entitled to notice have occurred during the four years they have been given. Besides the advantages we insist upon to be derived from instituting rational amusements, they are, in a pecuniary point of view (when given with a view to profit), generally lucrative; sometimes extensively so. An exhibition given at the Leeds Mechanics' Institute realised L.3400, out of which a clear profit arose of L.1800. The exhibitions of the Liverpool Institute have generally exceeded that amount of profit.

There is no question that lectures afford a productive source of entertainment, especially to persons who have mastered the rudiments of education, and possess ever so small an insight into the subjects treated of. In Mr Coates's report, this matter is much dwelt upon, and seems to present many difficulties. Unless professional lecturers treat their subjects popularly and amusingly—which is, unfortunately, not always the case—the lecture-room is deserted, except by a few; but when aided by pleasing experiments and familiar explanation, they afford entertainment, and the audiences are numerous. Effective professional lecturers are few in number, and, mostly residing at a distance from the institute requiring their assistance, become costly to engage.

So much may be advanced in judgment upon the dry course of study at Mechanics' Institutions, and so far may we insist on the superior attractions of light evening entertainments. But, speaking seriously to the working-classes themselves, it may not be out of place to inquire, why they should stand so much in need of persuasives to receive instruction, or to avail themselves of other means for harmless recreation? Why, we ask, should the British operative require to be coaxed and petted, and intreated into the bettering his moral and intellectual condition? Why must he, like a child, have the sugar-plum held out to him before he will take what he considers the physic—instruction? The answer, we fear, is to be found in his want of self-dependence. He will not separate himself from the masses by which he is surrounded, and will persist in acting and thinking precisely as they do. He is, apparently, afraid of doing anything which may appear singular and unlike the general habits of his fellows; he will not act singly and for himself. Hence, he joins clubs and associations, and binds himself to hold one set of opinions, to persevere in certain rules of conduct; not to work unless for a certain amount of wages; and so on. It is for this reason that it is so difficult to detach him from old habits and old associates, so as to cause improvement in his condition or in his morals. It appears, that if patrons will think and act for him, or can place him in a better situation than he is in at present, it is all very well; but he will not help them in the task, without the prospect of some tempting advantage. Almost the only prize for which he will resume his individuality, and cease to be the mere integer of a mass, is some kind of personal gratification; this, therefore, must be continually held out.

Once established in better habits—his foot once firmly set in the path of improvement—it will be as difficult to make him turn aside as it was originally hard to lead him into it. If, at the beginning of England's manufacturing productiveness, provision had been made for the enlightenment of operatives, their tastes would have been so firmly set upon intellectual enjoyments, that it would now be as impossible to debase them as it is difficult to improve them. In proof of the unerringly beneficial effects of such good beginnings upon all large classes of human beings, we have only to point to many of those manufactories in America, which are of recent foundation, and in which the right track was at once struck into. The condition of the operatives, male and female, at the Lowell factories, in Massachusetts, has frequently been spoken of by travellers with surprise. Mr Dickens, in his late tour, visited the place, and, like others, was astonished at the progress which had been made in intellectual cultivation, good manners, refined taste, and economic habits. Speaking of the factory girls, he says—"They are all well dressed; and that phrase necessarily includes extreme cleanliness. They had serviceable bonnets, good warm cloaks, and shawls; and were not above clogs and pattens. Moreover, there were places in the mill in which they could deposit these things without injury, and there were conveniences for washing. They were healthy in appearance, many of them remarkably so, and had the manners and deportment of young women, not of degraded brutes of burden. If I had seen in one of those mills (but I did not, though I looked for something of this kind with a sharp eye) the most lisping, mincing, affected, and ridiculous young creature that my imagination could suggest, I should have thought of the careless, moping, slatternly, degraded dull reverse (I *have* seen that), and should have been still well-pleased to look upon her. The rooms in which they worked were as well ordered as themselves. In the windows of some there were green plants, which were trained to shade the glass; in all there was as much fresh air, cleanliness, and comfort, as the nature of the occupation would possibly admit of. Out of so large a number of females, many of whom were just only then verging upon womanhood, it may be reasonably supposed that some were delicate and fragile in appearance; no doubt there were. But I solemnly declare, that, from all the crowd I saw in the different factories, I cannot recall a separate one young face that gave me a painful impression, not one young girl whom, assuming it to be matter of necessity that she should gain her daily bread by the labour of her hands, I would have removed from these works if I had had the power. They reside in various boarding-houses near at hand. The owners of the mills are particularly careful to allow no persons to enter upon the possession of these houses, whose characters have not undergone the most searching and thorough inquiry. Any complaint that is made against them by the boarders, or by any one else, is fully investigated; and if good ground of complaint be shown to exist against them, they are removed, and their occupation is handed over to some more deserving person."

This lively writer proceeds to speak of the saving habits of these toiling but tasteful females. In July 1841, they had accumulated, in the Lowell Savings' Bank, the sum of L.20,000. This is the most astounding fact of all, for in turning to what British factory girls have accomplished with similar means in the same way, it is found to be next to nothing. It is a well avouched fact, that English mechanics are not, generally, depositors in the Savings' Banks, high as their wages sometimes are. In the Dundee Savings' Bank, there were, a few years ago, 237 accounts in the names of female domestic servants, who had, in the aggregate, deposited L.2235; while out of the numerous class of factory female workers, only *one* had an ac-

* These statements are partly derived from "A Report of the state of Literary, Scientific, and Mechanics' Institutions in Great Britain," issued by the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge, and ably drawn up by the secretary, Mr Thomas Coates.

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count. We have been informed, that, in another manufacturing town, Cupar, the proportion is about the same as in Dundee. In Glasgow, few factory girls wear shoes or stockings, but nearly all contrive to decorate themselves with ear-rings, a circumstance indicating a low standard of taste and general comfort.

In further alluding to the Lowell factory females, Mr Dickens mentions a fact noticed by us on a former occasion. These young women have got up among themselves a periodical called the *Lowell Offering*, a repository of original articles of no mean literary merit. Many of the boarding-houses, he says, keep a piano for the use of the inmates, and nearly all the young ladies subscribe to circulating libraries. In these facts, we have shadowed out to us what both male and female operatives, in many parts of England, might become, under more careful management. Accustomed to contemplate the working-classes in a degrading position, many will fail to comprehend how they should be capable of improving their station in society. But there is really nothing in existing arrangements to prevent such a result. The problem is to be wrought out by the united efforts of benevolence, and the exertions of the working-classes themselves. Mechanics' Institutions, extended in the sphere of their operation, and improved by the infusion of recreative entertainments, may do something; national education, on a broad and liberal basis, would do more; and the operatives, once stirred up to exert themselves as *individuals* in the great object of practical melioration, the day might be said to be gained; the victory won.

NURSERY RHYMES OF ENGLAND.

A LARGE collection of these versicles has been published by Mr Halliwell,* a gentleman to whom we have been indebted for many illustrations of our early poetical literature. Ritson and Mr Bellenden Ker have already done something in this field; but their collections are scanty in comparison with the present, which forms a goodly volume of two hundred and fifty pages. There is rarely either sense or poetry in these trifles; but there sometimes is both, or either the one or the other; and to unsophisticated minds, there is a certain charm about them which it is not easy to describe: perhaps it lies partly in the flowing euphony for which they are generally remarkable, partly in certain curious relics of antique expression found in many of them, partly in their power of recalling to us days which the cares of passing existence must ever make seem beautiful and delightful, as little lights shine brilliantly in dark chambers. There is also some historical interest about the rhymes of the people, for many of them can be traced several centuries back, and are found to have parallels among kindred nations. Finally, there is a whimsicality about them, which, even to the maturest and the gravest minds, is often irresistible.

From the name of Jack Straw occurring in a various burden, Mr Halliwell considers the following as a nursery song of the days of the Plantagenets:—

"My daddy is dead, but I can't tell you how;
But he left me six horses to follow the plough:
With my whim wham waddle ho!
Strim stram straddle ho!
Bubble ho! pretty boy,
Over the brow.

I sold my six horses to buy me a cow,
And wasn't that a pretty thing to follow the plough?
With my, &c.

I sold my cow to buy me a calf,
For I never made a bargain, but I lost the best half:
With my, &c.

I sold my calf to buy me a cat,
To sit down before the fire, to warm her little back:
With my, &c.

I sold my cat to buy me a mouse,
But she took fire in her tail, and so burnt up my house:
With my, &c."

It is evidently designed, in our opinion, as a lesson of economy and prudence, and a very good one it is. But the story is not exclusively English: a prose version exists in Germany under the name of *Hans's Luck*, for which we may refer to the German Popular Stories, published about sixteen years ago, with illustrations by Cruickshank.

There is an English nursery story, which begins with an old woman sweeping her house and finding a crooked sixpence, with which she resolved to go to market to buy a little pig. A Scottish version of the same tale makes her only go to pull a bush of gooseberries. In both cases, she asks a variety of animals in succession to help her, which all refuse, until the cat at length solves the difficulty; and the following is the conclusion of the English story:—"Then the cat began to kill the rat; the rat began to gnaw the rope; the rope began to hang the butcher; the butcher began to kill the ox; the ox began to drink the water; the water began to quench the fire; the fire began to burn the stick; the stick began to beat the dog; the dog began to bite the pig; the little pig in a fright jumped over the stile; and so the old woman got home that night." It cannot but be observed, that the celebrated *House that Jack Built* is a story of the same family; and we believe that there are several others. How strange it seems that all of these stories can be traced to an old Hebrew hymn to be found in the *Sepher Haggadah*, and to which a learned German gave an historical interpretation early in the last century. An English translation, with the interpretation, follows:—

"1. *A kid, a kid*, my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

2. Then came *the cat*, and ate the kid
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

3. Then came *the dog*, and bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

4. Then came *the staff*, and beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

5. Then came *the fire*, and burned the staff,
That beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

6. Then came *the water*, and quenched the fire,
That burned the staff,
That beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

7. Then came *the ox*, and drank the water,
That quenched the fire,
That burned the staff,
That beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

8. Then came *the butcher*, and slew the ox,
That drank the water,
That quenched the fire,
That burned the staff,
That beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

9. Then came *the angel of death* and killed the butcher,
That slew the ox,
That drank the water,
That quenched the fire,
That burned the staff,
That beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money
A kid, a kid.

10. Then came the *Holy One*, blessed be He!
And killed the angel of death,
That killed the butcher,
That slew the ox,
That drank the water,
That quenched the fire,
That burned the staff,
That beat the dog,
That bit the cat,
That ate the kid,
That my father bought
For two pieces of money:
A kid, a kid.

The following is the interpretation:—

1. The kid, which was one of the pure animals, denotes the Hebrews. The father, by whom it was purchased, is Jehovah, who represents himself as sustaining this relation to the Hebrew nation. The two pieces of money signify Moses and Aaron, through whose mediation the Hebrews were brought out of Egypt.
2. The cat denotes the Assyrians, by whom the ten tribes were carried into captivity.
3. The dog is symbolical of the Babylonians.
4. The staff signifies the Persians.
5. The fire indicates the Grecian empire under Alexander the Great.
6. The water betokens the Roman, or the fourth of the great monarchies, to whose dominion the Jews were subjected.
7. The ox is a symbol of the Saracens, who subdued Palestine, and brought it under the caliphate.
8. The butcher that killed the ox denotes the crusaders, by whom the Holy Land was wrested out of the hands of the Saracens.
9. The angel of death signifies the Turkish power, by which the land of Palestine was taken from the Franks, and to which it is still subject.
10. The commencement of the tenth stanza, is designed to show that God will take signal vengeance on the Turks, immediately after whose overthrow the Jews are to be restored to their own land, and live under the government of their long-expected Messiah."

It may be curious to Mr Halliwell to know, that, in the Scottish version, the old woman begins—"*Kid, kid*, will you keep my house," &c., thus bringing it nearer to the original than any of the English stories.

Amongst other remarkable examples of a far descent for the rhymes of the nursery, we find that the popular quatrain on Jack Horner belongs to an old metrical tale in parts, of which a printed copy exists in the Bodleian Library. The no less celebrated verses, beginning, "Three children sliding on the ice," is part of a much longer burlesque poem, which appeared in a volume of "Choyse Poems," published in 1662. It strikes us forcibly that these two pieces are by one author, and that he must have also written the ballad of the "Children in the Wood," which, though in a serious strain, has many features of resemblance. No memorial has been preserved of this poet, who, beside his contemporaries Waller, Cowley, and Dryden, was probably looked upon as something infinitely small. Yet what verses of that day, not excepting those by the great bards who have been named, possess at this day a currency like his?

We shall now adduce from Mr Halliwell's book one or two specimens of nursery versicles, containing, either in expression or the objects of allusion, a certain nameless attraction. The following is a song to a nursery dance:—

"Gay go up and gay go down,
To ring the bells of London town.

Bull's eyes and targets,
Say the bells of St Marg'ret's.

Brickbats and tiles,
Say the bells of St Giles.

Halfpence and farthings,
Say the bells of St Martin's.

Oranges and lemons,
Say the bells of St Clement's.

Pancakes and fritters,
Say the bells at St Peter's.

Two sticks and an apple,
Say the bells at Whitechapel.

Old Father Baldpate,
Say the slow bells at Aldgate.

You owe me ten shillings,
Say the bells at St Helen's.

Pokers and tongs,
Say the bells at St John's.

Kettles and pans,
Say the bells at St Ann's.

When will you pay me?
Say the bells at Old Bailey.

When I grow rich,
Say the bells at Shoreditch.

Pray, when will that be?
Say the bells at Stepney.

I am sure I don't know,
Says the great bell at Bow."

In that which follows, there is a strain of banter of a very peculiar and far from unpoetical kind, of which the Scottish ballads give some corresponding examples. It is classed by Mr Halliwell as a song of the nursery:

"Can you make me a cambric shirt,
Parsley, sage, rosemary, and thyme;
Without any seam or needlework?
And you shall be a true lover of mine.

Can you wash it in yonder well,
Parsley, &c.
Where never sprung water, nor rain ever fell?
And you, &c.

Can you dry it on yonder thorn,
Parsley, &c.
Which never bore blossom since Adam was born?
And you, &c.

Now you have ask'd me questions three,
Parsley, &c.
I hope you'll answer as many for me?
And you, &c.

Can you find me an acre of land,
Parsley, &c.
Between the salt water and the sea sand?
And you, &c.

Can you plough it with a ram's horn,
Parsley, &c.
And sow it all over with one pepper-corn?
And you, &c.

Can you reap it with a sickle of leather,
Parsley, &c.
And bind it up with a peacock's feather?
And you, &c.

When you have done and finish'd your work,
Parsley, &c.
Then come to me for your cambric shirt;
And you, &c."

There is a particular class of nursery rhymes which consist of an accumulation of repetitions, not unlike that in the "House that Jack Built," and generally intended as exercises for memory and accuracy, under the penalty of forfeits for mistakes. For instance—

"John Ball shot them all;
John Scott made the shot;
But John Ball shot them all.

John Wyming made the priming,
And John Brammer made the rammer,
And John Scott made the shot,
But John Ball shot them all."

And so on, until it amounts to—

"John Patch made the match,
John Clint made the flint,
John Puzzle made the muzzle,
John Crowder made the powder,
John Block made the stock,
John Wyming made the priming,
John Brammer made the rammer,
John Scott made the shot,
But John Ball shot them all."

The editor justly remarks, that this process is a favourite with children, and that, in early writers, such as Homer, the repetition of messages, &c., pleases on the same principle. He has not, however, presented any specimens equal, in our opinion, to several which appear in a contemporaneously published Scottish collection quoted below,* and of which one now follows:—

"The king sent his lady on the first Yule day,
A papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

* London: J. R. Smith. 1843.

* Popular Rhymes, Fireside Stories, and Amusements of Scotland. Collected by the author of "Traditions of Edinburgh." Edinburgh: W. and R. Chambers. 1842.

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The king sent his lady on the second Yule day,
Three partridges, a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

The king sent his lady on the third Yule day,
Three plovers, three partridges, a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

The king sent his lady on the fourth Yule day,
A goose that was grey,
Three plovers, three partridges, a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

The king sent his lady on the fifth Yule day,
Three starlings, a goose that was grey,
Three plovers, three partridges, and a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

The king sent his lady on the sixth Yule day,
Three goldspinks, three starlings, a goose that was grey,
Three plovers, three partridges, and a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

The king sent his lady on the seventh Yule day,
A bull that was brown, three goldspinks, three starlings,
A goose that was grey,
Three plovers, three partridges, and a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?

The king sent his lady on the eighth Yule day,
Three ducks a-merry laying, a bull that was brown
[*The rest to follow as before.*]

The king sent his lady on the ninth Yule day,
Three swans a-merry swimming—
[*As before.*]

The king sent his lady on the tenth Yule day,
An Arabian baboon—
[*As before.*]

The king sent his lady on the eleventh Yule day,
Three hinds a-merry hunting—
[*As before.*]

The king sent his lady on the twelfth Yule day,
Three maids a-merry dancing—
[*As before.*]

The king sent his lady on the thirteenth Yule day,
Three stalks o' merry corn, three maids a-merry dancing,
Three hinds a-merry hunting, an Arabian baboon,
Three swans a-merry swimming,
Three ducks a-merry laying, a bull that was brown,
Three goldspinks, three starlings, a goose that was grey,
Three plovers, three partridges, a papingo-aye;
Who learns my carol and carries it away?"

Mr Halliwell has, in conclusion, given a series of translations into Greek, Latin, and French, of some of the best-known nursery rhymes, the production of Porson and other learned wits. We generally avoid using other languages than our own; but there is something so extremely droll in these translations, and the meaning is left so transparent, that we cannot altogether resist them. The following French one is exquisite:—

"Petit Bo-Bouton,
A perdu ses moutons,
Et ne sait pas qui les a pris;
O laisses-les tranquilles,
Ils viendront en ville,
Et chacun sa queue après lui."

And no less so is

"Hei didulum! atque iterum didulum! felisque fidesque,
Vacca super lunæ cornua prosiluit:
Nescio qua catulus risit dulcedine ludi;
Abstulit et turpi lanx cochleare fuga."

Mr Halliwell's book, and the brother tome last adverted to, taken in connexion with some practical observations of our own, have suggested to us some curious reflections on the quality which gives popularity in literature. Many persons of good intellect have set themselves to compose poetry and tales for the young; but we are not aware of a single production of theirs having ever, as we may say, taken hold of the nursery, in anything like the way that these externally-silly rhymes have done. What is the cause of this? To what can it be attributed generally, if not to this—that the cultivated literary intellect becomes unfit to deal with the simple mind of childhood. Children left to themselves invent little sports, often of a dramatic kind, which appear to *us* perfectly absurd, but which evidently create infinitely more merriment amongst themselves than anything that their elders could suggest to them. Meaningless, it may be, but inimitable, are those delightful capriccios which the rustic nurse chants, and sings, and screams, half a day together, to her infantine charge. One thing is strongly borne in upon us, that there is much in the modulation of the nursery rhymes, altogether apart from the sense. It is quite remarkable how arrested the merest babe is with them, who would be insensible to everything else. They seem to tell upon the faculties of a child like a delicious music, and it is more the sound than the words which is felt or understood. For these reasons, we conceive that the creation of what might be called a rational literature for very young children, could only be successfully accomplished by a mind of an extraordinary character, such, perhaps, as does not appear even so often as once in an age.

A PEEVISH OLD SCOTSWOMAN.

The following lively representative of a peevish old Scotswoman in humble life, who takes a pleasure in grumbling at all that is done for her, occurs in a recently published novel, "Self-Devotion."

"Well, Elspet," said Katherine in a cheerful tone, "how's the cough to-day? I could not come to see you yesterday, but I hope you got the nice mixture I sent you over by Jeannie."

"Ou, I ne'er expeckit ye to come," said the old dame in reply, when her guests had seated themselves on two stools beside her: "I'm an auld withered stock noo, no able to serve ony body mysel, so I canna expeck service frae ither folk. I'se warrant ye'll hae brawer friends to look after than puir Elspet." And she eyed Marion sourly, as if she suspected her of intruding on her own privileges.

"Well, but you got the mixture; and it brought you a good night's rest, did it not?" pursued Katherine, without noticing the insinuation.

"Rest!" was the indignant reply; "aweel I wot, it was a windlestrae's rest on a windy nicht then. I ne'er had sic a nicht sin' ever I took it; I just hostit and hostit even on, and never devauled. Na, na, it's nane o' yere drugs that's to cure a host like mine—naething 'll e'er cure it but the spade an' the shool. Gin ye had sent me a drap oot o' the grand bottle ye promised to Peggy neist-by there, I micht hae pitten it into my bowl o' gruel, and been mair the better o't. But I dinna ken sae weel how to fleech ye as she does, or I micht hae gotten it too."

"You're tired of the raspberry vinegar, then?" said Katherine; "why, Elspet, you had only to send Ivan to the manse, and you should have had your glass of sherry in five minutes, you stupid body."

"Na, Miss Randolph," answered Elspet, in a tone of triumph—"na, na, I'm no just come the length o' a beggar yet; though I dinna refuse the bits and brats ye send me at your pleasure. I'm sodger-bred, Miss Katherine, but I'm major-minded, an' I'll ne'er ask onybody for what I may jalouse they're no willing to gie me."

"Now, Elspet, hold your tongue," replied Katherine, with invincible good-humour; "you know very well that you would apply to me with all your heart if you had a desire for anything I could give you, if it were only for the sake of gratifying me; and you shall have the wine for to-night's gruel whenever I go home. How does the new toy I sent you yesterday please you? You are looking quite handsome in it, I think."

"Ou, it's no that ill," answered Elspet reluctantly, and as if at a loss for something to grumble at. "But wow! how the bue comes aff on my clean mutches!"—and she pushed back the hood of coloured flannel as she spoke. "It'll haud me ay daicherin' an' washin' them, and ruin me for sape forbye."

"Never mind that, Elspet, it will only give you an excuse for putting on a clean one every day, and that's what delights you," answered Katherine. "Has papa been seeing you lately?"

"Ou ay, honest man," replied the dame, with a wonderful accession of respect in her tone; "he was here this morning, and gied me a lang discourse on the cheerfulness o' Christian hope. Hech me! hoo folk will cumber themselves wi' the mony things o' this sinfu' unsubstantial warld: 'gin a' body had as little warld's gear as I hae, there wad be the less to fash them."

GENEALOGY OF THE QUEEN.

The following tables exhibit the genealogy of Queen Victoria, through the Anglo-Saxon, the Scottish, and the Norman lines, with occasional reference in the notes to her descent from the ancient independent princes of Wales. The lineal descent is represented in columns in regular order; the indirect successions are put within parenthesis, or are exhibited in the form of notes. The dates indicate the year of accession, unless when stated otherwise; and where no date is given, the individual so undistinguished is to be understood as never having occupied the throne.

1. ANGLO-SAXON DESCENT OF HER MAJESTY.

A. D.
800. Egbert, founder of the Anglo-Saxon monarchy. (1.)
836. Ethelwulf. (His four sons in succession, 856 Ethelbald, 860 Ethelbert, 866 Ethelred, and)
871. Alfred the Great.
901. Edward the Elder. (925 his eldest son, Athelstane).
941. Edmund I. (946 his brother Edred, 955 Edmund's son, Edwy.)
959. Edgar. (975 his son Edward, the Martyr.)
978. Ethelred II. (The Danish line, 1013 Sweyn, 1014 Canute.)
1016. Edmund II., surnamed Ironside. (2.)
Edward, designated the Outlaw.
Margaret married Malcolm III., King of Scotland. (3.)

(1.) Egbert, King of Wessex, or of the West Saxons, by the extinction or suppression of the other dynasties of the Heptarchy, became the sole representative of the original Saxon invaders of Britain. The steps connecting him with Cerdic, who founded the Wessex line, A. D. 519, are in the ascending scale—Alchmund, Esa, Eoppa, Ingild (brother to King Ina, the great legislator, who died in 728), Cenred, Ceadwalla, Cutha, Cuthwin, Ceawlin, Cynric, Cerdic the founder. Of the four immediate ancestors of Egbert, no one appears to have worn the crown of Wessex, the successors of Ina being Ethelard, Cudred, Sigebert, Cenulph, and Brihtric, all more or less remotely connected with the family, but none in direct descent from Ina, nor apparently from each other. On the death of Brihtric in 800, Egbert was unanimously voted by the Witan to the vacant throne. In 827, Egbert succeeded in establishing an ascendancy over Saxon England, more absolute and complete than the equivocal supremacy implied in the title of Bretwalda, or Wielder of the Britons, which he also held, being the eighth who acquired that dignity.

(2.) Edmund Ironside's successors on the throne were Canute in 1016, Harold I. in 1035, Hardicanute in 1040, all of the Danish line; Edward the Confessor, younger brother of Ironside in 1042, Harold II., son of Earl Godwin of Kent, in 1066, and the same year William I., the Norman Conqueror.

(3.) Margaret, by the death of her brother, Edgar Atheling, without issue, became the representative of the Saxon dynasty, and her marriage with Malcolm Canmore ingrafted the Saxon upon the old Scottish line as founded by Kenneth MacAlpin, A. D. 843.

For the continuance of this succession, see the "Scottish descent of her Majesty."

2. SCOTTISH DESCENT OF HER MAJESTY.

A. D.
843. Kenneth MacAlpin, styled Kenneth II. (1.)
863. Constantine II. (882 his brother Aodh or Hugh, and same year Grig, a northern chief, followed by Eoch, Kenneth's grandson by a daughter.)
893. Donald IV. (904 Constantine III., son of Hugh.)
944. Malcolm I. (953 Indulf, son of Constantine III.)
961. Duff. (965 Culen, son of Indulf, 970 Kenneth III., brother of Duff, 994 Constantine IV., son of Culen.)
994. Kenneth IV., styled the Grim. (1004 Malcolm, a Moray chief, usually overlooked or confounded with his successor, Malcolm II.)
1029. Malcolm II., whose daughter,
Bethoc, married Crinan, styled Abbot of Dunkeld, perhaps a Pictish chief.
1033. Duncan. (1040 Macbeth, Thane of Moray.)
1057. Malcolm III., surnamed Canmore. (2.)
1124. David I. (3.)
Henry, Crown Prince of Scotland.
David, Earl of Huntingdon. (4.)
Isabella married Bruce of Annandale.
Robert Bruce claimant with Baliol.
Robert Bruce Earl of Carrick by marriage.
1306. Robert I., the Conqueror at Bannockburn. (1329 his son David II.)
Marjory married Walter the High Steward.
1370. Robert II., the first of the Stuart line.
1390. Robert III.
1406. James I.
1437. James II.
1460. James III.
1488. James IV. married Margaret of England. (5.)
1513. James V.
1542. Mary, usually styled Queen of Scots.
1567. James VI. of Scotland and I. of England.

For the subsequent succession, see the "Norman Descent of her Majesty."

(1.) Kenneth MacAlpin, originally king of the Dalriadic Scots, and generally admitted to be the representative by the then acknowledged rule of inheritance of a long line of Scottish monarchs, succeeding, as is commonly supposed by conquest, to the Pictish throne, united in 843 the whole of North Britain under his sway. He was succeeded in 859—according to the established system of *tanistry*, which preferred a full grown brother or other near relative to a son of immature years—by his brother Donald III.

(2.) Malcolm III., by his marriage with Margaret, sister and heiress of Edgar Atheling, united the Saxon and Scottish lines. His immediate successors were his brother Donald Bane in 1093, displaced the same year by Malcolm's son Duncan, at whose death in 1095 Donald Bane was restored—the last instance in which the principle of *tanistry* was exercised in the Scottish line; then Malcolm's three sons in regular sequence, Edgar in 1097, Alexander I. in 1107, and David I. as above.

(3.) The occupants of the throne after David I. were his grandsons, sons of Prince Henry; Malcolm IV., surnamed the Maiden, in 1153, and William the Lion in 1165, whose line was transmitted in direct succession through Alexander II. in 1214; Alexander III. in 1249; Margaret married to Eric, king of Norway; and finally in 1286 Margaret, styled the Maiden of Norway, upon whose death in 1290 commenced those troubles which led eventually to the elevation of Robert Bruce to the throne.

(4.) David, Earl of Huntingdon, third son of Prince Henry, had three daughters, of whom Margaret, the eldest, married Alan, Lord of Galloway; their only child who left issue was a daughter, Deryorgille, whose son was John Baliol, the successful competitor with Robert Bruce and others for the crown, to which he was raised in 1292. His son, King Edward Baliol, dying without issue in 1363, and the title of Marjory, Edward's sister, who had married John Comyn, Lord of Badenoch, being disregarded, perhaps in consequence of the unpopularity into which the Baliol family had sunk by their pusillanimity and sacrifice of the independence of their country, the right to the throne passed to the heirs of Isabella, the Earl of Huntingdon's second daughter, who had married Robert Bruce, Lord of Annandale, and was by him mother of that Robert Bruce who claimed along with John Baliol, and great-grandmother of the hero of Bannockburn.

It may be interesting here to trace the representation of Marjory Baliol till its final disappearance from the records of the northern kingdom. By her husband, John Comyn, commonly styled the *Black* Comyn, she had a son John, designated the *Red* Comyn, who fell at Dumfries by the hands of Bruce and Kirkpatrick in 1305-6, leaving a son John, who died without issue, and two daughters. Of Elizabeth, the younger daughter, who married Richard Talbot of Goderich Castle, Dugdale brings down the descent to 1673. Joanne, the elder, in whom the rights of the family became vested after the death of her brother, by her husband, David of Strathbogie, eleventh Earl of Athole, had a son David, twelfth earl, whose son David, the thirteenth and last earl of the Strathbogie line, left two daughters, Elizabeth and Philippa, married first to Thomas and Ralph Percy, sons of their guardian, Henry Lord Percy, and next to Sir John Scrope, and Sir John Walsham, of the English peerage and baronage, where the subsequent succession of the united Baliol and Comyn line is to be sought.

(5.) The marriage of James IV. with Margaret of England, eldest daughter of Henry VII., led, as is well-known, after several successions, to the union of the two crowns in the person of their great-grandson James VI. of Scotland.

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3. NORMAN DESCENT OF HER MAJESTY.

A. D.
1066. William I., styled the Conqueror. (1087 his second son William II., surnamed Rufus.)
1100. Henry I. (1135 his nephew Stephen.) (1.) Matilda married Geoffrey of Angou.
1154. Henry II., the first of the Plantagenets. (1189 Richard I., his eldest surviving son.) (2.)
1199. John.
1216. Henry III.
1272. Edward I.
1307. Edward II.

1327. EDWARD III. (1377 his grandson Richard II.) (3.)
Lionel, Duke of Clarence, as representing the elder line.
Philippa married Edmund Mortimer, Earl of March. See note (6).
Roger Mortimer, Earl of March.
Ann Mortimer married Richard, Earl of Cambridge.
Richard, Duke of York.
1461. Edward IV., the first of the House of York. (4.)
Elizabeth married Henry VII.

EDWARD III. His younger line was represented by
John of Gaunt, Duke of Lancaster. (5.)
John Beaufort, Duke of Somerset.
John Beaufort, Duke of Somerset.
Margaret married Edmund Tudor, Earl of Richmond.
1485. Henry VII., the first of the Tudors, married Elizabeth of York. (6.)
Margaret married James IV. of Scotland.
James V. of Scotland.
Mary, Queen of Scots.
1603. James VI. of Scotland and I. of England, first of the Stuarts on the English throne. (7.)
Elizabeth married Frederick, Elector Palatine.
Sophia married Ernest, Elector of Hanover.
1714. George I., the first of the Hanoverian line.
1727. George II.
Frederick, Prince of Wales.
1760. George III. (His sons, 1820 George IV., and 1830 William IV.)
Edward, Duke of Kent, fourth son of George III.
1837. Victoria, her present Majesty.

(1.) Henry, like his brother Rufus, intercepted the crown, to the prejudice of the rights of their brother Robert, Duke of Normandy, eldest son of the Conqueror. The failure, however, of Robert's family by the death of his only son, William Fitz-Robert, in 1128, relieved the Anglo-Norman line of any solicitude as to claims founded upon primogeniture. Shortly after his accession, Henry married Matilda, daughter of Malcolm III. of Scotland, by Margaret, heiress of Edgar Atheling—a politic step towards the union of the Norman with the Saxon blood, which contributed not a little to the acceptability of his somewhat dubious title with both classes of his subjects. His successor, Stephen of Blois, the last of the Norman line, seized the throne, to the exclusion of the Empress Matilda, Henry's only child. But the principle of direct descent, according to the rules of primogeniture, was acknowledged even in this reign, and successfully asserted in the next in the person of Matilda's son, Henry II.

(2.) Upon the death of Richard I. without issue, the crown belonged of right to his nephew, Arthur of Brittany, as being the son of his next brother, Geoffrey. This young prince falling into the power of his uncle John in 1202, was barbarously put to death, it is said, by the king's own hand; and his sister Eleanor, who inherited his claims, was kept in confinement, till her death in 1241 relieved John's family of all anxiety as to the legitimacy of their title.

(3.) Upon the deposition of Richard II., son of Edward the Black Prince, in 1399, the crown was assumed by his cousin, Henry IV., son of John of Gaunt, Duke of Lancaster, to the exclusion of the representatives of Lionel, Duke of Clarence, the elder brother of John of Gaunt. The succession was transmitted direct in the Lancastrian line to Henry V. in 1413, and in 1422 to Henry VI., upon whose death in 1461, and the extinction of the elder Lancastrian line by the cruel murder of his only son, Prince Edward, the crown went to Edward IV. as above.

(4.) Edmund of Langley, Duke of York, and younger brother of John of Gaunt, had two sons—Edward, his successor in the title of York, who fell at Agincourt in 1415, without leaving issue; and Richard, usually styled of Conigsberg, Earl of Cambridge, who was executed for treason in 1415, shortly before the death of his brother Edward. Richard married Ann Mortimer, heiress (after the death of her two brothers, Edmund and Roger, and their sister, Eleanor) to the family of March, and had by her a son, also named Richard, who, by the reversal of the attainder consequent upon his father's treason, was permitted to assume the family title of Duke of York. In him, as representing, through his mother Ann, the line of Lionel of Clarence, centred the representation of the now united branches of Clarence and York, which, upon his death in 1460, became vested in his son, afterwards Edward IV. Edward IV. was followed upon the throne in 1483 by his son Edward V., and the same year by his brother Richard III., the last of the House of York, as well as of the Plantagenet line, whose defeat and death at Bosworth opened the succession in 1485 to Henry VII.

(5.) John of Gaunt, founder of the Lancastrian line, had, by Catherine Swynford, a younger family, who, having been born before marriage, were subsequently legitimated by act of parliament, in the reign of Richard II., and began to come into notice as a branch of this house after the extinction of the elder line in 1461. The eldest son of this family was John Beaufort, Duke of Somerset, who perished at St Albans in 1455. His son of the same name, beheaded in 1464, left an only child, Margaret, who married Edmund Tudor, a Welsh chief, who bore the title of the Earl of Richmond. From this marriage sprung a son, afterwards Henry VII.

(6.) It is remarked by Sir James Mackintosh, in his "History of England," vol. ii., p. 65, that "in Henry VII., son of Edmund Tudor, and grandson of Owen Tudor, Welsh chieftains, a race of native (British) princes was restored to the throne after a lapse of nearly a thousand years." But even although the Tudors could claim descent from the ancient sovereigns of Wales—a fact which seems far from being clearly established—the restoration of the Welsh race ought to be considered as having taken place in the person of Edward IV., whose grandmother, Ann Mortimer, wife of Richard, Earl of Cambridge—see note (4) as above—was grandaughter of Edmund Mortimer, Earl of March, the direct representative, through a female, of Llewellyn, the last independent prince of Wales. Again, Edmund's marriage with Philippa, heiress of Lionel of Clarence, brought his family, as is shown above, into the direct line of the succession to the throne, in the person of their son Roger Mortimer, the father of Ann. The auspicious union of Henry VII. with Elizabeth of York, heiress of Edward IV., for ever extinguished the disputes of the houses of York and Lancaster; and the marriage of their eldest daughter Margaret with James IV. of Scotland, contributed still farther to the consolidation of the throne, and the happiness and peace of these realms, by opening the succession in the progress of events to their descendant James VI. of Scotland. Henry's successor was his son Henry VIII. in 1509, who was followed by his three children, Edward VI. in 1547, Mary I. in 1553, and Elizabeth, the last of the Tudors, in 1558, upon whose death the crown passed in 1603 to the Scottish line of the Stuarts. See next note (7).

(7.) James I. of England and VI. of Scotland, in whom the crowns were united, conveyed to his descendants the undisputed representation of the different dynasties which had wielded the sceptre in both kingdoms; and of the ancient line of Welsh princes, transmitted from Cadwalader, the last king of the Britons, who died at Rome about the end of the seventh century. James's successor was his son Charles I. in 1625, who was followed in 1649 by the Commonwealth and Protectorates, then by his two sons, Charles II. in 1660, and James II. in 1685. The abdication of James brought the crown in 1689 to his son-in-law William III., of the House of Orange, and his daughter Mary II. jointly; and after them in 1702 to his younger daughter Anne, the last of the Stuarts who occupied the throne. Upon the demise of Anne in 1714, the succession devolved, by parliamentary arrangement, upon the House of Hanover, in the person of George I., great-grandson of James I., through Elizabeth and Sophia as above, whose descendants continue to fill the throne. It is a coincidence deserving of notice, that, to this comparatively remote degree of kin, these kingdoms have been indebted, on three occasions, to important changes of the reigning dynasty: first in Robert I. (Bruce), as representing and claiming through his great-grandmother Isabella; second, in James VI., as being great-grandson of Margaret of England; and third, in George I., as great-grandson of James VI.—the immediate direct line in none of these cases attaining the possession of the throne.

In concluding this review of the genealogy of our Most Gracious Queen, it may not be improper to mention, that the male representation of the Stuarts, after the expatriated James II., who died in 1701, went to his son James, usually styled the elder Pretender, who died in 1765, and was succeeded in his claims by his sons, Charles Edward, the younger Pretender, who died in 1788, and Henry Benedict, known as Cardinal York, the last male of the royal house, who died at Rome in 1807.

It is worthy of notice, as a curious fact suggested by the consideration of these tables and illustrative notes, that our Scottish line of princes presents a series of eleven monarchs in direct lineal descent, from father to son, without collateral interruption of the succession, commencing with Robert II. and ending with Charles II., a circumstance of which it is tolerably safe to affirm, that it is unprecedented in the history of any other nation, ancient or modern, of which we possess anything like authentic records.—A. N. C.

PREJUDICE AS TO FOOD.

An amusing instance of local prejudice as to food, among an English rural population, is given by a writer on agriculture in a late number of the *Morning Chronicle*.

"A gentleman who keeps some dogs in Wiltshire, procured for them several bags of Scotch oatmeal. A family consisting of husband, wife, and several children, came out of Yorkshire, on the failure of the manufacturing trade, to that, their native place. They were starving. They applied to the gentleman who fed his dogs on oatmeal for work, or charity, or anything, to save them from death. He talked to them; found that they had lived in Yorkshire, and had occasionally used oatmeal. He ordered his servants to give them some. The starving family took it home to the village, and, having used some themselves, gave a portion to some poor neighbours. Two or three days after, the gentleman's steward came to him, and said, 'For heaven's sake, sir, what is this you have done? The whole village and country round about is in commotion; the people will mob you!' 'And what is the matter?' asked the astonished squire; 'what will they mob me for? What do they say I have done?' 'Why, sir, they say you have given oatmeal to some poor people!' 'Oatmeal to some poor people!' returned the gentleman; 'and what of it? I did not seek payment for it. Surely they don't say I made them pay for it?' 'No,' replied the steward, 'they don't, sir, but they say you want to learn the poor to live on oatmeal, and that to make a beginning, you are giving it to them for nothing. Do not, pray, give any more, else we shall have a rebellion throughout the country.'

Now, those villagers were all of them, at least all the labourers, next door to starvation. Their conduct in this case displays some of that spirit of rough pride and resistance which has often distinguished Englishmen, and which is one of the elements of English independence. The spirit that made these people scorn this gift, and resist its use, is that self-same spirit which has made England what she is in point of constitutional liberty and independence among nations. But it is melancholy to remark how often this spirit has been, and still is, erroneously directed; and how often, in evincing it, do we see its assertors bending themselves to contemptible meannesses? These villagers would live on parish pay: they would ask any stranger (I have seldom talked to any of them but they asked me) to treat them to 'something to drink;' they would feel no degradation in being paupers, yet they would feel disgraced to use oatmeal for food. In this we see an additional argument for education. Had they been even but moderately educated, they might have known to distinguish between temporary relief to a poor family, previously used to oatmeal, and an attempt made to bring all the population down to its use; they might have been able to detect the fallacies of the beer-shop orators, whose mouths, for want of food, and hands, for want of honest work, are ever ready to say and do those things they should not say and do; they, the labourers, might have known that oatmeal, though given to dogs in the south of England, is the nutritious and much valued food of men in the north of England and in Scotland; and if educated, they might be taught to direct the energy of their pride to the destruction of their pauperism, and the uprearing of an honourable independence."

BLEEDING AT THE NOSE.

Dr Negrier, of Angiers, France, has published a new method of stopping bleeding from the nose. The following fact induced him to try the plan:—"Some years ago, I cut myself under the nose while shaving. The blood flowed copiously from this petty wound, and I could not stop it, either with court plaster, or by cauterising with the nitrate of silver. By chance, however, I lifted up both my arms at once to reach something, and I saw, to my great surprise, that the flow of blood, which was copious just before, immediately stopped. I lowered my arms, and the hæmorrhage began again; I again lifted them up, and again the blood immediately stopped. In this way I renewed and stopped the flow five or six times, in order to convince myself perfectly that the sudden raising of the arms was really the cause of stopping the hæmorrhage. Lastly, I kept my arms raised for one or two minutes, and during this period a plastic crust formed upon the cut, which put a final stop to the hæmorrhage." The following case, being one of those reported by the author, will show his method of proceeding:—"April, 1839. A chimney-sweep, aged fourteen, had already lost two hundred grammes (six ounces) of blood from the right nostril. The blood was still flowing very fast. I had the boy placed with his head high; then, with the forefinger of the left hand, I compressed the nostril from which the blood was flowing; while doing this, I made him lift up his right arm perpendicularly, telling him to keep it so for two minutes; the hæmorrhage had stopped in ten seconds."—*Newspaper paragraph.*

THE FRENCH PRESS.

La Presse publishes the following statistics relative to the Paris press:—"In 1812 there were but 45 journals, or periodical pamphlets, published in Paris. In 1826 they increased to 179; in the commencement of 1830 to 309; and in the month of August last there existed 493. This number includes 35 daily journals, 95 weekly, 213 monthly, 5 quarterly, 8 appearing three times a week, 51 twice, 8 three times each month, 4 six times a week, 2 every second day, 3 every five days, and 2 every ten days, 1 every six months, and 4 at irregular intervals. The price of the subscription varies from 120 f. to 2½ f. per annum. As to the subjects on which they treat, without including political matters, these publications may be classed in the following order:—15 are devoted to religion (six Protestant, one Israelite), 29 to jurisprudence, 27 to medical subjects, 14 to natural science, 22 to fashion, 4 to naval subjects, 10 to the drama, 4 to philosophy, 5 to moral subjects, 19 to matters of administration, 28 to education, 37 to literature, 1 to freemasonry, 28 to advertisements, 18 to agriculture and horticulture, 10 to the book trade, 4 to mathematics, 4 to manufactures, 33 to trade, and 14 to music."

AN INDIAN'S INGENUITY.

A Spaniard having stolen a horse from an Indian, the latter convicted him of the offence by a very ingenious plan. He complained to a judge, who had the Spaniard, with the horse, brought before him. The prisoner swore that the animal belonged to him, and that he had always had it, so that the judge did not find himself in a position to convict. He was even about to return the horse to him, when the Indian said, "If you will allow me, I will prove that the animal belongs to me." Immediately he pulled off his cloak, and covering the horse's head, asked the Spaniard of which eye it was blind? The robber was much embarrassed at the question, but nevertheless, not to delay the court, he replied at hazard that it was the right eye. The Indian, uncovering the head, exclaimed, "The horse is not blind either of the right eye or the left." The judge immediately decided that the animal was his. —*Newspaper paragraph.*

HEAR, HEAR!

Sheridan once succeeded admirably in entrapping a noisy member, who was in the habit of interrupting every speaker with cries of "Hear, hear." Brinsley took an opportunity to allude to a well-known political character of the time, who wished to play the rogue, but had only sense enough to play the fool. "Where," exclaimed Sheridan, in continuation, and with great emphasis, "*where* shall we find a more foolish knave or a more knavish fool than this?" "Hear, hear!" was instantly bellowed from the accustomed bench. The wit bowed —thanked the gentleman for his ready reply to the question—and sat down amid convulsions of laughter from all but the unfortunate subject.—*Newspaper paragraph.*

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DINNERS.

It has somehow become a kind of reproach to the English, that they are unduly fond of dining. It is said that there are few occasions of public rejoicing, of public charity, or private entertainment, but must be celebrated or enjoyed over a dinner. Yet I cannot understand why this harmless propensity should be alluded to with implied censure. There is much philosophy in it. It cannot be denied that eating, when temperately indulged in, is not only a necessity, but a pleasure. Why, then, may not that pleasure be heightened by social intercourse? and where does social intercourse so well, so conveniently flow, as at the dinner-table? When are men's brows most unclouded, their hearts most open, their conversation most fluent? I answer, after a good (which means a temperate) dinner. The company and the viands act upon each other to produce enjoyment: "each lends to each a double charm." The appetite enjoys its food, the intellect its company, and it is through both these media of enjoyment that we obtain harmless and legitimate entertainment. To dine for the sole sake of the meats is mere gluttony; to declare society to be the entire attraction, is pure affectation. Now, the former of these faults is charged upon us Englishmen. We are accused of assembling frequently at table, *only* to indulge in eating and drinking. I deny this. Our companions, though not the sole, form the main, attraction. Ask nine out of ten, which they would prefer—an indifferent dinner along with agreeable persons, or an exquisite repast with a dull, uninformed, unconversable party. The replies would prove that, under such circumstances, the inferior dinner would command a preponderating majority. In the former case, one or even more bad dishes would have little effect in marring the entertainment; but in the latter, the most delicious dinner that ever was given, loses its comfort and relish by the presence of a single stupid, gluttonous, or garrulous guest. It is on record, that a promising dinner party was utterly marred by the presence of a man, in whom were combined the two former faults. The poet Coleridge was a guest, and mistaking the expansive forehead and long silence of this person for indications of talent and intelligence, was effectually undeceived on the appearance of some apple-dumplings. The hitherto silent guest immediately commenced rubbing his hands, and with an expression bordering on enthusiasm, exclaimed, "Them's the jockeys for my money!" The poet was so shocked at this, that he declined talking before a man who was evidently incapable of appreciating what he might say, and remained dumb during the whole evening. Thus the expectations of pleasure from his conversation were completely disappointed. This single dolt spoiled the entertainment—a result which the worst cook in Christendom could but have produced.

An irresistible plea in favour of dinner-parties, large and small, public or private, is the fact of social intercourse at and after dinner being favourable to health. It is pronounced by the high authority of Dr Combe, that solitary meals are decidedly difficult of digestion. "There is," he declares, "no situation in which digestion goes on so favourably as during the cheerful play of sentiment in the after-dinner small-talk of a well-assorted circle."* More than this, the merrier the assembly, the better their digestion. "Laughter," says Professor Heufeland of Berlin, "is one of the greatest helps to digestion with which I am acquainted; and the custom prevalent among our forefathers, of exciting it at table by jesters and buffoons, was founded on true medical principles. In a word, *endeavour to have cheerful and merry companions at your meals:* what nourishment one receives amidst mirth and jollity, will certainly produce good and light blood."* It is upon this rule (though without knowing that there is any rule in the matter) that Englishmen act. They make any excuse first to have the meals, and then to collect at them "merry and cheerful companions;" or, if those companions be not naturally of a cheerful temperament, they make them so by a good dinner, which, when cleverly managed, acts directly upon the mind, and changes the very nature of a man. Entice a miser to a charity feast, and his contribution will be liberal. At corporation dinners, discontented patriots have been heard to utter the most loyal speeches; at private ones, bitter enemies have shaken hands. I therefore repeat it, there is deep and practical philosophy in the English propensity for dining. It takes root in the heartiest benevolence, combined with the wariest expediency.

It is a startling fact, but nevertheless it *is* one, that dining and dinner-giving form a part of the British Constitution! These are as much a means of government as the prime minister and the police. It is a system which begins at the throne, goes through every department of church and state, and ends at the local magistracy and the petty sessions. It is as clearly a non-official institution of the country, as the three estates and trial by jury are official ones. It is therefore a question whether the business of this country could be adequately carried on without its dinners.

To pursue argument or research to the dinner-table daily spread before the throne would be impertinent. We therefore simply refer our readers to that portion of the London newspapers headed the "Court Circular" for information. Neither will the periodical dinners given at Lambeth Palace to the clergy of England by its primate, bear, for a similar reason, any more than a passing allusion. Those of the Lord Commissioner, at the General Assembly of the Church of Scotland, tended, till lately, in a powerful degree, to promote that harmony which has only recently been broken. And to show what stress is laid upon this agreeable item in church management, the crown annually provides its representative on this occasion with L.2000 for the good entertainment of the Scottish convocation during its short sojourn in Edinburgh.

In the political world, the knife and fork play a no less prominent part. The Speaker of the House of Commons derives a regular income from the state, to give what are known as "parliamentary dinners" to the members in turn. Over party politics, also, this species of entertainment exercises a great influence. It has become an established rule for the leaders of each party to give a continual succession of entertainments. "No one," remarks an excellent authority on this subject,† "who knows anything of human nature, will deny that it is of the last importance to a party to have a few noble and highly-distinguished houses, where all its rank and beauty, wit, eloquence, accomplishment and agreeability, may congregate; where, *above all*, each young recruit of promise may be received on an apparent footing of equality, his feelings taken captive by kindness, his vanity conciliated by flattery." Many a time has a young politician, with unsettled views and undefined principles, received the political creed which guided his after-career at one of these party dinners, to which he may have gone through the apparent accident of an off-hand invitation. Thus a young member is subjected to the tactics which he perhaps caused to be practised upon the constituency at his election. Many a vote has been gained by a good dinner and a good speech. It is stated by the above authority, that a former minister, celebrated for his amiable disposition and convivial qualifications, organised a regular series of entertainments, with an especial view to obtaining parliamentary proselytes.

In the army and navy, dining may be said to form part of the discipline. In the former service, the officers' "mess" is especially useful. When men of equal birth and education are so constantly associated, a great degree of familiarity must naturally exist amongst them, whatever be the disparity of military rank. And this gives rise to the difficulty of preventing that familiarity from impairing the official respect and deference to orders, which must be rigidly exacted from the subaltern to his superiors. All this is set to rights by the mess. While on duty, the differences of rank are most strongly marked, and obedience to the smallest command exacted in a peremptory tone, which a civilian would call harshness. But at the mess table, the order of things is reversed. Every expedient that ingenuity could invent, has been adopted to put all the officers on a friendly equality. Their dresses—which, upon parade, mark their difference of rank—are now exactly alike; so that it is impossible to tell the youngest ensign, by his costume,* from his colonel. In addressing each other, the surname is simply used. The designation "captain," "major," or "colonel," so rigidly exacted on parade, is seldom heard at table. The offices of president and vice-president are undertaken by each member of the mess in turn, so that no permanent superiority may exist in that respect. The field-officer, who has perhaps in the morning been giving a subaltern a severe reprimand (in military parlance, a "wigging"), may now be seen chatting and laughing with the same individual with the most unrestrained familiarity. The dinner is the great harmoniser: under its genial influence, all misunderstandings are charmed away, all differences forgotten.

The good effects of the dinner-system in the naval service are no less apparent. The opinion of Captain Basil Hall is decisive on this point. Dinner-parties, he asserts, contribute, "and that in a most essential degree, to the maintenance of strict discipline on board ship." Their mode of operation he graphically describes, by supposing a captain to have reprimanded his lieutenant with undue severity for some trifling fault. The latter, smarting under the infliction, meets in the ward-room a marine officer, to whom he tells his grievance, finishing the narrative by exclaiming—"It's quite clear that the captain has a spite against me, and is determined to drive me out of the ship, to make way for some follower of his own." "Stuff and nonsense!" exclaims the peace-making man of war. "The captain is the best friend you have." "Friend!" roars the other; "I tell you what——" But just at this moment the captain's steward enters the ward-room, and going up to the enraged officer, says mechanically to him, "The captain's compliments, sir, and will be glad of your company to dinner." To which the officer replies, quite as mechanically, "My compliments, and I'll wait on him." But as soon as the door is shut, he turns again to the marine, and says, "I'm deucedly sorry now that I did not refuse." The dinner is afterwards announced, and the sulky lieutenant takes his appointed

* The Physiology of Digestion, Considered with Relation to the Principles of Dietetics. By Andrew Combe, M.D., p. 287.

* Art of Prolonging Life (English edition), p. 282.

† See Quarterly Review, vol. 55.

* This is what is called a "shell-jacket," with small shoulder knots of gold lace, by way of epaulets; a white waistcoat, and the regulation boots and trousers.

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seat at the captain's table. "The pea-soup," continues captain Hall, "is discussed in pretty solemn silence; but while the remove is under adjustment, the captain says to his offended officer, "Come, Mr Haultight, shall you and I have a glass of wine? What shall it be?" By these few magical words, and in a single glass of sherry, is forgotten for ever and ever all the previous irritation. It is not by the words so much, as by the tone and manner of saying them, that the captain makes the officer feel how anxious he is to have the good understanding restored, or that he regrets what is passed. Of course, if the officer be not one of those pig-headed and inflexible fellows, upon whom all sense of kindness is wasted, he seizes the bottle, and filling his glass, replies, "With all my heart, sir!" And there, in all probability, is an end to the matter.*

Once a week the captain becomes a guest of the officers in the ward-room, and should any little differences be outstanding, they are pretty certain of being adjusted on that occasion, by some adroit civility from the captain to the person in dudgeon.

We now turn to the jurisprudence of our dinner-loving nation. The road to the English bar may be considered one of the easiest and most pleasant of all the highways and bye-ways to fame. The first step is taken solely by dint of dining. The candidate for forensic honours, having enrolled himself a member of one of the inns of court, is bound to keep twenty terms; but if he have been educated at a university, twelve will suffice. "Keeping terms" means simply the act of dining at the inn hall every day during term time, for three or five years. This gastronomic probation over, the "student," as he is styled, is called to the bar by the lord high chancellor. The first time he dons the wig and gown, it is customary for him to give a supplementary entertainment on his own account, to the most intimate of his fellow-students: my own experience of these "call dinners" assures me, that they are not always conducted with the sober formality of the hall dinners. No crabbed benchers are present to check the mirth, or to prescribe the exact modicum of wine, of which they are said, by nearly all the students of every inn, to be especially chary. On great public occasions, however, champagne has been known to flow "in hall" with a liberality which far from corroborates the charge. It is on these opportunities that the students take ample revenge for what they term short commons. At the Inner Temple, on certain grand days, a silver goblet is passed down the hall, filled with a compound, immemorially called sack. The butlers attend its progress, to replenish it; and each student is restricted to a single sip. Yet it chanced, some time ago, that seventy *sips* from this tankard (such being the number of diners on the occasion) were found to have caused the disappearance of thirty-six quarts of the beverage!

The student having eaten his way to the bar, the only road to the bench is by means of constant application to a profession decidedly more intellectually and physically laborious than any other. But it is the dinners which lay a solid foundation: for to what, I ask, is to be attributed that universal harmony which exists amongst the members of a profession, entirely supported by the contentions of other people? I refer, for a reply, to the early and lasting friendships formed at the hall dinners. The term, "my learned friend," has, more frequently than not, a deeper meaning than that of being a mere formulary of legal etiquette.

To go lower in the scale of justice, we shall find, that, upon the county bench, dinners have an omnipotent effect. Of the performances of road-trustees in this respect, it may be said with truth, that the excellence of English highways may be in some degree attributed to the heartiness of country gentlemen's appetites, and the excellence of English dinners. Again, how would directors of unsuccessful railways be able to meet the clamours of hungry shareholders, did they not fortify themselves previously with a good dinner? Lastly, let any person take a review of the municipal corporations of Great Britain, and he will find that the public business is most harmoniously conducted wherever the most dinners are given. Parish dinners are, I regret to observe, sadly on the decline; and I cannot but look upon it as a poor consolation, that the parish rates have decreased in consequence.

Having followed the English practice of dining through most of its ramifications, from the throne to the parish vestry, I have cleared the way for a few words on social dining. It is in the sphere of private life that the true philosophy of the thing developes itself. Whatever is brought nearest to our homes and our firesides, is most readily and generally appreciated; and though all kinds of public feasts have their separate attraction, none possess the charm of a "friendly" dinner.

As nothing is worth doing at all which is not worth doing well, a few remarks on the best mode of giving this excellent kind of entertainment will not, perhaps, be taken amiss. In the first place, "let not the company exceed twelve, that the conversation may be constantly general."† Secondly, do not fall into the too common error, of attempting more than can be well performed. A few plain dishes, well dressed, will be better relished than a great many rare ones, ill done. All too highly-spiced dishes are not only bad in themselves, but in bad taste. There is a most fallacious supposition afloat on this subject. It is imagined that eminent foreign cooks are famous for imparting out-of-the-way flavours to the viands. The reverse is the fact; the most proficient in their art heighten, rather than distort, the natural flavour of edibles. In proof of this I need only refer to the particulars of a dinner given by Baron Rothschild, the great capitalist, to Lady Morgan, and cooked by Carême, a celebrated professor of his art.* It has been often alluded to as the perfection of expensive good taste, which, from her ladyship's account of it, it appears to have been. "Every meat," she says, "presented its own natural aroma—every vegetable its own shade of verdure."† *Now, the plainer the dinner, the nearer this kind of perfection will be attained.* The next question is, what must be considered a plain dinner? A late accomplished but eccentric nobleman was wont to observe, that "a good soup, a small turbot, a neck of venison, ducklings with green peas, or chicken with asparagus, and an apricot tart, is a dinner for an emperor—when he cannot get a better." In this I perfectly agree with him; but there is no doubt, *he* would have thought it a plain dinner, and so would an emperor. I, on the contrary, in common, doubtless, with most of my readers, deem it a luxurious one. Thus, the definition of a plain dinner fluctuates according to the affluence of the person who provides or eats it. The rule I would lay down, then, is—let your entertainment be plain, according to the acceptation that term receives in the station of life to which you belong. The wines, therefore, need not only be limited in variety, but in quantity; for the least excess in drinking is so entirely exploded, that such a thing seldom or never occurs.

The custom of "taking wine" with one's friends at dinner, is a most agreeable and social one. In fact, I look upon it as forming a main charm. It is sometimes productive of great benefit, particularly in case of a previous quarrel or misunderstanding. Let us suppose that Mr Brown and Mr Jones have had a "tiff." They meet at Mr Robinson's to dine. All have taken wine together, except the two on ill terms. Mr Brown begins to think that the omission will cause remark; and being, moreover, in an excellent humour, from a pleasingly gratified appetite, he begins to consider, that perhaps Jones was not so very wrong, after all, concerning the matter in dispute, nor himself so very right. Upon this thought, he resolutely places his hand upon the neck of the decanter, catches Mr Jones's eye, bows, and desires "the pleasure of a glass of wine." Jones, delighted at this mark of concession, cordially agrees: they smile, and sip. From that moment the quarrel is made up, and they become the best friends of the party. The custom, therefore, now adopted in the higher circles, of being helped by servants from the side-board, though it may prevent fussiness, is decidedly unsocial. While taking exceptions, I may notice one radical defect in our system: it is that of allowing the diners to carve. This is a tax never imposed on the continent, where the dishes are first displayed in tempting array upon the table, and then removed to a side-board to be dissected by servants. A lady presides most frequently at the head of our tables, and consequently has the most important dish to carve. The utter impracticability of the thing is shown in the necessary politeness of her next male neighbour, who always relieves her of the trouble. This inconvenient system ought to be summarily abolished.

The charms of music are most properly invoked at the dinner-table. A song adds to the pleasures of the meeting, even if it be indifferently executed; for at such times there is generally a *gusto* and meaning thrown into it, that amply compensates any little musical deficiency. This remark does not, however, apply to part-singing. A glee should never be attempted, unless it can be guaranteed beforehand to be well in tune, and free from the slightest wavering in time. Speaking of time reminds me of a caution concerning punctuality, which ought to have been given earlier. The hour of meeting agreed upon should be most strictly kept. Ten minutes' law is the utmost a host ought to allow, either to his cook or to his guests.

Passing from town to country—from great to small things—let us just take a glance in at a cottage door after morning service on a Sunday. Is it possible to behold a more gratifying sight? The labourer and his family, all cleanly clad, are seated round the white dinner board. This is the only time when they can all be assembled, for, during the week, their avocations lie miles apart. With what appetite they eat! What unalloyed cheerfulness sits upon each countenance! Their relish for the humble fare before them far exceeds that of a confirmed epicure over his most coveted dish.

And here I conclude my defence of dining. It is a custom which is, more or less, observed at some period of the day by every nation upon earth. I do not, therefore, see the justice of that raillery—good-humoured though it be—with which Englishmen are liberally assailed concerning this matter. The charge of dining over-much I have endeavoured to disprove. All that our countrymen can be justly accused of, is a propensity for dining in crowds and parties.

* Fragments of Voyages and Travels, vol. i. pp. 242-3.

† *Physiologie du Goût* (Physiology of the Taste). By a Professor (M. Brillat Savarin). Paris. 1835.

* This fastidious cook refused to remain with the Prince Regent, at Carlton House, upon a salary of L.1000 a-year, because, he said, the royal establishment was too tradesman-like (*ménage bourgeois*).

† France in 1829. By Lady Morgan. Vol. ii. p. 414.

POPULAR INFORMATION ON SCIENCE.

FAIRY RINGS IN PASTURE.

In old meadow pasture-land, there often occur circlets of grass of a darker green than the rest, with, in some instances, a narrow bare space round about, to which the name of Fairy Rings is given. The circles and rings together form an object too conspicuous to escape the most heedless observation; and as their shape is peculiar, and no cause readily appears for their production, they have naturally fallen under the notice of superstition. The common people have for ages set them down as the ball-rooms of the fairies, the chosen spots where these delicate spirits hold their nocturnal revels to aërial music, vanishing at the approach of morn. It was supposed that the fairies danced hand in hand in a ring, and hence, it was presumed, the circular form of these portions of pasture-land. Browne, an admired poet of the reign of James I., speaks of

> A pleasant mead,
> Where fairies often did their measures tread,
> Which in the meadows made such circles green,
> As if with garlands it had crowned been.
> Within one of these rounds was to be seen
> A hillock rise, where oft the fairy queen
> At twilight sat.

It was observed that the grass of these circles was of a sour kind, and therefore avoided by sheep; whence our Shakspeare, who seems to have known everything, addresses the fairies in his Tempest as follows:—

> Ye elves —— you dwiny puppets, that
> By moonshine do the green-sour ringlets make,
> Whereof the ewe not bites.

We are told by Olaus Magnus, that the idea of their being fairy haunts prevails amongst all the northern nations. In Scotland, they were avoided by the ploughman with superstitious veneration, under sanction of the following old ballad verses:—

> He wha tills the fairies' green,
> Nae luck again shall hae;
> And he wha spills the fairies' ring,
> Betide him want, and wae;
> For weirdless days and weary nights
> Are his till his dying day.

And again—

> He wha gaes by the fairies' ring,
> Nae dule nor pyne shall see;
> And he wha cleans the fairies' ring,
> An easy death shall die.

It was thought in England, that any house which chanced to be built upon the place where a fairy ring had been, would insure prosperity to its owners.

The attempts made to explain the causes of fairy circles and rings, before science turned her attention to them, were of a most ludicrous nature. In the Gentleman's Magazine, about half a century ago, a running fire was kept up by a series of correspondents, during a space of several years, with regard to these phenomena, some suggesting causes, which others again immediately overturned; while not one appears to have ever thought of making those exact observations on the circles themselves, which, we would now say, were the only hopeful means of arriving at a correct explanation of the mystery. First came J. M., stating, that in a meadow at the back of his house, there were several circles of about six or eight inches broad, and from six to twelve feet in diameter, very perceptible, and bearing great quantities of the fungus called champignons. The meadow had been in the same state nineteen years, during which whole time there had been no alteration in the rings. He is anxious to know how the circular form can be accounted for by natural causes. D. H. then quotes a writer (Brand in his Popular Antiquities), who states that they are ascribed by some to lightning or ants. T. Eeles, of Norbiton, has no doubt that they are occasioned by the refuse of cattle, and accounts for the circular form by presuming that there has been in every instance a stake in the centre for the animals to rub their necks upon. Thomas Leybourn, of South Shields, was clear that they proceeded from lightning, a circular spot being in the first place burnt up, whereon the grass next year grew more luxuriantly. "A Farmer," all of whose rings appeared one year and disappeared the next, thought it most likely that they were occasioned by the working of moles under ground. He had considerable reason to believe that the runs of these creatures were chiefly of a circular form; but he remarked, that the green places in question were often seen in small segments of a circle, round patches, and irregular blotches of all shapes, which might be owing to the different positions of the runs. He supposed that the runs, in the course of time falling in, lightened the soil, and made it more proper for the growth of fungi.* Afterwards, "B," "to remove vulgar errors, and do away that superstition which still lingers among the common people," came forward with a quotation from the Philosophical Transactions, wherein a Mr Jessop had settled the question in favour of lightning; for a friend of his, walking abroad after a

* We must not be too ready to smile at the honest farmer for this opinion, for the same, we find, is advanced by Pennant in his British Zoology.

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thunder-storm, had "observed a circle of about four or five yards diameter, and whose rim was about a foot broad, *newly burnt bare*, as appeared from the colour and brittleness of the grass roots." Still, the readers of worthy Sylvanus Urban were not quite satisfied, and in the very next magazine appeared a speculation of "C," on the likelihood of the fairy circles being vestiges of trenches dug by the ancient Britons, and "used either in celebrating some of their sports, or in paying divine honours to some of their imaginary deities. These trenches," he says, "gradually filling up by the annual decay of vegetables, and being necessarily lighter than the adjoining land, and consequently more retentive of water, and less capable of enjoying the solar influence till later in the year, will not only be rendered more fertile, but the grass growing upon them more perceptible than the neighbouring parts of the field, especially in the autumnal quarter."

Mr Eeles's explanation was now combated by "M. C.," of Cornwall, who had fairy rings in a bowling-green, where cattle, of course, never were, much less stakes for the allayment of prurience in the neck; also by "B. L. A.," who never had seen a fairy ring with a scrubbing post in the centre; and, thirdly, by no less a person than Sir David Dalrymple, author of the Annals of Scotland, who says, that, in his garden at New Hailes, near Edinburgh, he has had fairy circles of twenty years' endurance, where there had never been either posts or cattle in the memory of man.

At this crisis of the argument, there appeared in the Transactions of the Royal Society of Edinburgh a paper by the celebrated Dr Hutton, describing some appearances of the character of fairy circles, which he had observed in the year 1776 on the hill called Arthur's Seat, near Edinburgh. In various parts of that mountain, there were tracts of withered herbage, of about ten inches broad, defined generally by borders of bright green grass, and in some places broken by patches of the same—from one to two hundred yards long, and generally affecting a circular figure, or being segments of circles. These appearances, though recent, or of that year's production, had certainly been preceded by others of the same kind; for, parallel to each tract of withered grass, there was another perfectly similar, on the side towards the centre of the circle, separated by a narrow stripe of green herbage, and presenting a black appearance, as if the grass which it originally bore were completely decayed. Still further inward, was a belt of luxuriantly green grass, which Dr Hutton supposed to be the newly-acquired cover of what had last year been a decayed tract, because plants of the same colour were beginning to make their appearance here and there on the back ground of the decayed tract of the present year. Thus it was evident, he thought, that those stripes were successively formed; and, indeed, he could in some places distinguish traces of five or six, by the gradation of colour observable in the grass growing on them, between a very dark green and the common green of the hill. The soundness of this conclusion was proved, in the summer of 1777, by the formation of a new *withered* tract beyond that of the former year, which had now passed into the decayed or black stage. Dr Hutton attempted no explanation of the phenomena; but he felt convinced that they were not explained by reference to electricity or to insects, for how should either of these causes operate in so peculiar a manner as to both time and local situation?

About this time, the opinion that fairy circles were produced by lightning, was adopted by several eminent men. Priestley advocated it in one of his works, and it was advanced with confidence in the "Botanic Garden" of Dr Darwin, who argued that a stream of electricity, issuing from a cloud, and penetrating the earth, would be drawn out into a cylindrical form, as loose wool is when drawn out into a thread, and would strike the ground from two to ten yards in diameter; and that, "as a stream of electricity displaces the air it passes through, it was plain no part of the grass could be calcined by it, but just the external ring of that cylinder where the grass could have access to the air, since, without air, nothing can be calcined." These assertions were all made with perfect confidence, and no one seemed to think it necessary that any observations or experiments should be made upon the rings themselves, with the view of settling the question. It is really remarkable to find men, so lately as fifty years ago, giving themselves up to endless blind speculation on a point which was evidently within the reach of observation, and could be settled by no other means.

As the further history of the question illustrates the state of science and also of mind at that time, we shall make no apology for going on to remark, that the first approach to the truth seems to have been made by a gentleman writing from Kendal, under the signature "J. G.," and whose letter appears in the Gentleman's Magazine for January 1791. He observes, that the causes producing fairy rings destroy the grass, root and stem. The decay of the vegetable matter enriches the soil, and is the main cause, he conceives, of the luxuriance of the grass when it again grows on the place. The new grass is produced by seeds advancing from the restored or healthy border within, as the edges of a green walk in a garden encroach on the land contiguous to them. Why is not new grass propagated, in like manner, from the other side upon the withered belt? Evidently because the ground is there incapable of vegetation. He thus arrives at the conclusion, that "the succession of withered tracts is occasioned by each tract being successively deprived of some principle of vegetation;" but how it is so affected, he does not attempt to explain. In the autumn of the ensuing year, a letter from a Mr Crocker, dated at Frome School, gives us the first account, after Hutton's, of any exact observations being made on the rings. He states, that, a twelvemonth before, he had set down in a plan the exact situations of a number of the circles in the paddock behind his house, some of which then bore fungi, both of the poisonous and esculent kinds. On taking up a spadeful of the earth, it was found full of the spawn of these fungi. He also observed places which were mere spots of a few inches diameter, where the grass was beginning to wither in the centre, and where he likewise found the spawn of fungi. These he thought the origins of fairy circles. He concluded that the fungi were the cause of the temporary extinction of the herbage which constitutes a fairy ring. The fungi growing on one of the isolated spots would decay in winter, so as to leave the ground ready to give forth new herbage by the next season. Meanwhile, "the spawn of the fungi extends itself to the circumjacent soil, in search of the vegetative principle necessary to its continuance, and forms the first ring round the last year's spot. This now forms a barren circle, or a fairy ring, of one year's growth. The spawn in this ring performing the same operation as the last year's spot had done, a second barren circle appears; and the spawn spreading itself further, in search of proper nutriment, forms, in the following year, a larger ring than the last." And so on, he says, the process will go, a wider circle being formed every year. This is, in reality, very nearly a full explanation of the mystery, and its being so is particularly instructive, when we consider that Mr Crocker was the first speculator on the subject who had given the matter of investigation a studious and exact attention.

The complete theory of fairy rings was given to the Royal Society in 1807, by the illustrious Wollaston, who does not appear to have been aware of Mr Crocker's views. Living for some years in the country, he had an opportunity of observing the phenomenon in some instances. In a set of circles of small diameter, he found certain fungi growing immediately on the outside of the circle of dark grass. This led him to suppose that "progressive increase from a central point was the probable mode of the formation of the ring." He "thought it not improbable that the soil which had once contributed to the support of fungi, might be so exhausted of some peculiar *pabulum* necessary for their production, as to be rendered incapable of producing a second crop of that singular class of vegetables. The second year's crop would consequently appear in a small ring surrounding the original centre of vegetation; and at every succeeding year, the defect of nutriment on one side would necessarily cause the new roots to extend themselves solely in the opposite direction, and would occasion the circle of fungi continually to proceed by annual enlargement from the centre outwards. An appearance of luxuriance of the grass would follow as a natural consequence, as the soil of an interior circle would always be enriched by the decayed roots of the fungi of the preceding year's growth." These views were supported by the results of observation, and have never been controverted.

"During the growth of the fungi," he says, "they so entirely absorb all nutriment from the soil beneath, that the herbage is for a while destroyed, and a ring appears bare of grass surrounding the dark ring. If a transverse section be made of the soil beneath the ring at this time, the part beneath the fungi appears paler than the soil on either side of it; but that which is beneath the interior circle of dark grass is found, on the contrary, to be considerably darker than the general surrounding soil. But in the course of a few weeks after the fungi have ceased to appear, the soil where they stood grows darker, and the grass soon vegetates again with peculiar vigour." "For the purpose," he adds, "of observing the progress of various circles, I marked them three or four years in succession, by incisions of different forms, by which I could distinguish clearly the successive annual increase, and I found it to vary in different circles from eight inches to as much as two feet. The broadest rings that I have seen were those of the common mushroom (*Ag. campestris*); the narrowest are the most frequent, and are those of the champignon (*Ag. orcades* of Dr Withering). The mushroom, accordingly, makes circles of largest diameter; but those of the champignon are the most regular. There are, however, as many as three other fungi that exhibit the same mode of extension, and produce the same effect upon the herbage. These are the *Ag. terreus*, *Ag. procerus*, and the *Lycoperdon bovista*, the last of which is far more common than the two last-mentioned agarics.

There is one circumstance," continues Dr Wollaston, "which may be frequently observed respecting these circles, which can be satisfactorily accounted for, according to the preceding hypothesis of the cause of their increase, and may be considered as a confirmation of its truth. Whenever two adjacent circles are found to interfere, they not only do not cross each other, but both circles are invariably obliterated between the points of contact: at least, in more than twenty cases, I have no one instance to the contrary. The exhaustion occasioned by each obstructs the progress of the other, and both are starved. I think it also not unworthy of observation, that different species of fungi appear to require the same nutriment; for in a case of interference between one circle of puff-balls and another of mushrooms, they did not intersect. I found once that a tree had interrupted the regular progress of a circle; but this appeared to be only a temporary impediment, as the extension had proceeded at the usual rate, and by passing obliquely from each side into the soil beyond the tree, had given the ring the form of a kidney, so that another year or two would probably re-unite the two extremities into one curve surrounding the tree."

We trust that the fairy rings, which have so long been regarded with superstitious feelings by the uneducated, and are perhaps to this day a mystery to many of the enlightened, are now satisfactorily explained. The explanation takes away a romantic dream of the popular mind; but it substitutes a better and more legitimate wonder, in tracing one of those beautiful arrangements of providence by which the fruits of the earth are made to grow each after its kind. We here see a lively example of that exhaustion of the food appropriate to particular species of plants, and that necessary and natural rotation of crops, which man is called on to take an enlightened advantage of, if he would cultivate the soil with success. The length at which we have given the history of the investigation will not be too much, if we have thereby, in the least degree, illustrated the absurdity of speculation without observation, and how it is only by the latter that any progress can be made in natural science.

"KOHL'S RUSSIA."—ST PETERSBURG.*

Of all kinds of facts, there are none so difficult to be obtained as facts about foreign countries; yet books of travel abound in a proportion far greater than those on any other subject. The reason of this is pithily explained by Captain Alexander in his work on Portugal:—"There are," he says, "more false facts than false theories in the world;" and no class of authors are so liable to promulgate the former, with an implicit belief in their truth, as the general run of travellers. In traversing other quarters of the globe, Europeans see everything with European eyes, judging of manners, institutions, and even of scenery, by their own standards. Nay, in many instances, absurdities are decried of which they themselves are guilty. The German student, for example, with his hair hanging half-way down his back, will make himself merry at the expense of the long queue of a Chinese; and we have seen a work on South America, in which the practice followed by the Butucodos tribe, of fastening pieces of cork into their chins, was much ridiculed by its Portuguese author, whose portrait, opposite the title page, exhibited himself adorned with a pair of ear-rings!

He whose statements are to be most confidently relied on, is the traveller who has lived for some time in the country upon which he writes; who has resided there long enough to find out the constant, general habits of the people; and who is a sufficient master of their language to dive into their prejudices, and to compare them with his own; to see under what influences, physical and moral, those prejudices have been formed; and having possessed himself of such knowledge, to be able to communicate what facts he has accumulated in a clear and forcible manner, and so as not to make them appear like a laboured collection of statistics. He must do more than drily assert—he must paint; not with the gaudy colours of exaggeration, but with the sober tints of truth.

This brings us to M. Kohl, who possesses all the qualifications we have named; but the last in a preponderating degree. He is, in the widest signification of the words, a literary artist; the fund of information which his long residence in Russia enabled him to collect, is imparted to the reader with the fullest effect. He does not relate merely, but he dramatises. When he has an anecdote to repeat, he makes the most of it; he brings it up to a climax, so that it may *tell*. When he has to describe, he places his reader in such a situation, as enables him to form in his own mind a picture of the place the author is portraying. An example of this occurs in the first chapter. M. Kohl wants to show us the city of St Petersburg; and he does not—after the fashion of those dull writers of travels, who take guide-books as their model for style—tell us the city contains so many streets, which are so wide in some places, and so narrow in others; but he takes us by the hand, and ascending an elevated tower, exhibits a panoramic view of the splendid array of palaces, monuments, and streets, of which the city consists, with the glorious river Neva gliding through it. In looking from this high position, he goes on to observe, that "the length of the open spaces bordered by the public buildings, is not much less than an English mile; and the spectacles, metamorphoses, living pictures, and phantasmagoria, which daily and hourly present themselves to the spectator who keeps watch upon the tower of the Admiralty, are as varied as they are magnificent and interesting. The rattling of imperial equipages scarcely ceases for a moment. Field-marshals, generals, governors, and gentlemen of the court, are constantly coming and going. Priestly processions, military parades, pompous equipages, and

* Russia. Part I. St Petersburg and Moscow. By J. G. Kohl. Forming vol. i. of the Foreign Library. London: Chapman and Hall.

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funeral trains, are thronging by at every hour of the day, and the drums and fifes are rarely silent, but continue, at brief intervals, to announce that a mighty man of the earth has just passed by."

Whilst most European capitals are boasted of for their antiquity, the Russian may pride himself upon the modernness of St Petersburg. A hundred and fifty years ago, those shores of the river Neva which form the site of the city, were uninhabited except by a few fishermen. Now, the best built, most convenient, and—looking to the size, number, and convenience of its structures—the most magnificent capital in the world, occupies its banks. Its founder, Peter the Great, was so much attached to naval affairs, that, with the ultimate view of improving the maritime importance of his empire, he visited Holland to learn the art of ship-building, and afterwards came to England, where he spent some time in the Deptford dock-yard as a common mechanic, often visiting King William III. in his working-clothes, and once went to Oxford in the same costume, to have a doctor's degree conferred upon him. On his return to Russia, he fixed upon its present site for the great maritime city of his empire, assembled 20,000 workmen, and in two years, from the 27th May 1703, when the first stone of the citadel was laid, by far the most considerable part of the city was completed. The work performed in that small period may be estimated from the fact of St Petersburg containing nearly eight square miles of building, having several bridges, three large canals, and consisting, in the words of Kohl, of "masses of architecture, worthy of mountains for their pedestals, ranged side by side in endless piles." The length of all the streets amounts to nearly 400 versts (about 350 miles), whilst the number and vastitude of the public monuments are nowhere exceeded, for in Russia there is a kind of passion for them. Rocks, columns, obelisks, statues, and triumphal arches, are set up in the most commanding positions amidst the most magnificent accessories.

The great object of attraction is the river Neva, which, with the three canals intersecting the land in many places, has given to St Petersburg the name of "the city of islands." Of these there are forty, great and small, nominally within the precincts of the city, but the largest of them only are occupied with houses, and are accessible over bridges. Five are called "Garden islands," and well deserve the name. The beautiful river itself, the waters of which are in summer as clear as crystal, is frozen over during six months of the year, and forms a highway for sledges and pedestrians. It is pitiable, however, to reflect, that the danger to be apprehended by a too sudden rise of the Neva, is so great as to involve the safety of the whole city, scarcely a spot of which is more than twelve or fourteen feet above the level of the sea. A rise of fifteen feet would be, therefore, enough to put the whole city under water; a rise of from twenty to thirty feet, and the whole population would be drowned! "As it is," remarks Kohl, "we must not be surprised if we read one of these days in the newspapers, that St Petersburg, which rose so suddenly, like a brilliant meteor from the Finnish marshes, has sunk as suddenly, and been extinguished there like an *ignis fatuus*. May God have the city in his keeping!"

In many quarters of the town, it appears inundations are of frequent occurrence, and come so suddenly, that the assembled guests at a party are not unfrequently unable to leave the hospitable roof under which they have been entertained. "Water is quite as much dreaded in St Petersburg as fire is in other cities, and measures are therefore taken to inform the inhabitants of their danger the moment the river begins to rise above its customary level. When the extreme points of the islands are under water, a cannon is fired from the Admiralty, and the water-flags are hoisted on every steeple, as a signal that the Nereids have declared the city in a state of siege. This alarm-gun is repeated every hour, until the danger seems to be at an end. When the river rises sufficiently high to lay the lowest streets under water, the alarm-gun is fired every quarter of an hour. In proportion as the river rises, the artillery becomes louder and more importunate, till at last minute-guns are fired, and are understood as a cry of despair, calling upon ships and boats to hasten to the aid of a drowning population."

The population of the island-metropolis amounted in 1832 to 500,000, and a more motley assemblage of beings it would be difficult to conceive. One-half of them are reckoned to be clad in uniform. The dress of the soldiers is glittering and costly in the extreme, and of them alone there are 70,000. Every grade of civil officer has also a peculiar costume, including the police, professors of the university, teachers, and even the pupils of the public schools. "Still, there remain enough of plain coats to keep up the respectability of the fraternity. The whole body of merchants, Russian princes and landowners from the interior, foreigners, private teachers, and many others, are well-pleased to be exempt from the constraint of buttons and epaulets; indeed, so much that is really respectable walks about in simple black and blue, that a plain coat is felt by many to be rather a desirable distinction, although the wearer is obliged on all public occasions to yield the *pas* (give way) to the many-coloured coats of the civil and military *employés*." In short, we find "every nation of Europe, and almost every nation of Asia, represented in the streets of St Petersburg. Spaniards and Italians, English and French, Greeks and Scandinavians, may be seen mingling together; nor will the silken garments of the Persian and the Bokharian be wanting to the picture, nor the dangling tail of the Chinese, nor the pearly teeth of the Arabian.

The commonalty bears an outside as motley as the more aristocratic portion of the community. The German *Bauer* may be seen lounging among the noisy bearded Russians; the slim Pole elbows the diminutive Finlander; and Esthonians, Lettes, and Jews, are running up against each other, while the Mussulman studiously avoids all contact with the Jew. Yankee sailors and dwarfish Kamtshadales, Caucasians, Moors, and Mongolians, all sects, races, and colours, contribute to make up the populace of the Russian capital."

The first to claim our attention is, of course, the emperor, who, from our German author's account of him, appears to be the most hard-working sovereign upon earth. At a daily review of troops in the Admiralty square, he generally commands in person; "and as there are always present several thousand men, and a host of generals and staff-officers, this simple parade forms at all times a handsome spectacle, and may, in fact, pass for a miniature review. To see the emperor ride by with his brilliant staff, is itself worth seeing. He is a handsome majestic-looking man. By his side rides his eldest son, and behind him follow a cloud of cavaliers, of whom each is at the least a prince's son and a major-general. As this splendid *cortège* advances, the soldiers, drawn up in line, present their arms, and the spectators uncover their heads. 'Good morning, children!' is the emperor's salutation. 'We thank your majesty,' is the response that comes thundering in unison from thousands of throats. The parade often lasts several hours; and whoever has witnessed a portion of it, taken a stroll down the Nevskoi Prospekt, looked into the Summer Garden, and walked up and down the English Quay, may quiet his conscience with the reflection, that he has neglected no part of the St Petersburg promenades for that day."

The Russian nobility present a peculiar aspect. In their homes they are tyrants, to whose will hundreds of retainers implicitly bow; at court, on the contrary, they are equally slaves to *their* master, the emperor; and this alternate servility and tyranny gradually descends through all grades, down to the lowest. Born under a pure despotism, the chief characteristic of the Russian is humility, and to this feeling may be ascribed the number of foreigners which swarm in St Petersburg. They have an idea that nothing can be so well done by themselves as by persons from other countries.

"According to the views of the ordinary Russian, the whole European world is divided into two parts, into 'Nashe Storona' (our side), and 'Vashe Storona' (your side), under which latter denomination he includes all Europe that is not Russian.

This other half of Europe he also calls 'the foreign land,' and has a general idea that all within it is of a superior kind, the people particularly excellent, nature extraordinarily beautiful, the productions of art and industry irreproachable. Thence come those 'Inostranzi,' or foreigners, those wise people, who understand everything better than he does, and from whom he learns so much."

The aristocracy of every nation has invented some nickname by which to designate the lower orders of their countrymen. In England they are the "mob," in France the *canaille* (rabble), in Russia, the epithet *tshornoi narod* is applied to them. Literally, these words signify "black people," but they may be also properly rendered by the term "dirty" or "unwashed." Of the Russian mob our author has taken copious notes. "At the first glance," he observes, "there is certainly something extremely repulsive in the Russian mushik (poor man). His hair is long and shaggy, and so is his beard: his person is dirty; he is always noisy; and when wrapped up in his sheep-skin, he certainly presents a figure more suitable for a bandit or murderer, than for a man devoted to peaceable occupations. This apparent rudeness, however, is less a part of the man himself, than of his hair and beard, of his shaggy sheep-skin, and the loud deep tone of his voice. The stranger, who is able to address him with kindness in his native language, soon discovers in the mushik a good-humoured, friendly, harmless, and serviceable creature. '*Sdrastvuitye brat!* Good day, brother; how goes it?'—'*Sdrastvuitye batiushka!* Good day, father; thank God, it goes well with me. What is your pleasure? How can I serve you?' And at these words his face unbends into a simpering smile, the hat is taken off, the glove drawn from the hand, bow follows bow, and he will catch your hand with native politeness and good-humoured cordiality. With admirable patience he will then afford the required information in its minutest details; and this the more willingly, as he feels flattered by the interrogation, and is pleased by the opportunity to assume the office of instructor. A few words are often enough to draw from him a torrent of eloquence.

Englishmen are too apt to attribute the courtesy of the Russian to a slavish disposition, but the courteous manner in which two Russian peasants are sure to salute each other when they meet, cannot be the result of fear engendered by social tyranny. On the contrary, a spirit of genuine politeness pervades all classes, the highest as well as the lowest. Foreigners generally describe the Russians as rogues, with whom it is impossible to conclude a bargain without being cheated; and no one can deny that the frauds daily practised in the market places are innumerable. Nevertheless, examples are also numerous among them of the most romantic acts of integrity. An instance of the kind came to my own knowledge. An English lady, holding an appointment in the Winter Palace, gave 500 rubles to a poor isdavoi (courier) to deliver to her daughter at Zarskoye Selo. On the following day he returned, kissed the lady's hand, and said, 'Pardon me, I am guilty. I cannot tell how it has happened, but I have lost your money, and cannot find it again. Deal with me as you please.' The lady, unwilling to ruin the man, made no mention of his offence, and after a time lost sight of him entirely. At the end of six years, he came to her one day with a cheerful countenance, and returned the 500 rubles of which his carelessness had deprived her. On inquiry, it turned out that during those six years he had denied himself every little enjoyment, and had saved up his wages till he had collected about 300 rubles. Having recently been promoted to a better situation, he had been in a condition to marry. His wife had brought him a dower of 100 rubles, and was, besides, possessed of some articles of trifling value, all of which had been sold in order to tranquillise the husband's conscience, who now came to relieve himself of a debt that had so long weighed upon his mind. No intreaty could induce him to take the money back, which was, however, placed in a public bank, to accumulate at compound interest for the benefit of his children."

According to the statistical returns, there are in St Petersburg as many as 85,000 servants, most of whom are serfs or slaves. This large number will be readily accounted for by the following anecdote:—"Ah, you really embarrass me with your kind visit," said Prince N—— to a friend who came unexpectedly to dine with him. "I must apologise to you, for you will be very badly attended to. One-half of my servants are gone hunting with my son; I have sent out some on business myself; and my good mother, who has driven out of town to pay a visit, has taken away nearly all the rest." Nevertheless, there were five diligent pair of hands to wait on twelve persons.

Here we reluctantly break off, although the subject is by no means exhausted; for M. Kohl has portrayed Russia with a careful and skilful hand. In this division of his work, the most minute feature of St Petersburg has not been overlooked, yet we write from an abridgment. The original, in German, can be nothing less than a microscopic view of the great city. The edition before us is that of the "Foreign Library," of which "St Petersburg and Moscow" forms the first volume; and looking at it as an earnest of what is to follow, the Foreign Library—intended to consist of translations of the best continental works—deserves the heartiest support, to which excellent print and remarkable cheapness strongly recommend it.

THE FIRST PIANO-FORTE.*

THE two heroes of this little history present a complete contrast. They began, continued, and ended their worldly career, under nearly opposite circumstances. One, at first rich, became suddenly poor through extravagance and dissipation; the other, originally poor, became all at once rich by the force of ingenuity and industry. The one gloried in his high-sounding title; the other was proud of being simply an artificer. The glittering courtier revelled in the royal saloons of Versailles; the laborious operative passed his days in a Parisian workshop. One finished his life on the public scaffold, condemned in 1793 by a populace driven to excesses by the tyranny of their superiors; the other peacefully expired amidst the blessings of his family and friends, his honest industry rewarded by affluence, and honoured by the favour of royalty. Finally, the first called himself Armand de Gontaut, Duke of Lauzun; the second was Sebastian Erard.

At the epoch when our tale commences, Sebastian Erard was a poor artisan whom reverse of fortune had driven from Strasburg, his native town, to seek, alone, without money or friends, his daily bread in Paris. He was well-educated; in his early youth he had studied drawing, architecture, and had devoted some time to scientific pursuits. He had dreamt, with the artless enthusiasm of youth, of one day distinguishing himself as an artist, a professor, or an architect. Conceive, then, his disappointment, when, at the age of sixteen, he found himself a journeyman maker of harpsichords. Pride and ambition unceasingly tormented him. In the obscure workshop where he pursued his monotonous avocations, he frequently gave way to a certain degree of vexation. But, happily, Sebastian Erard possessed nobler gifts than fall to the lot of most persons in his humble grade. Even his melancholy was no misfortune to him, for it made him a thinker. His intelligence again turned his thoughts to good account, and his ambition made him act upon them. The presentiment, that he should some day materially better his condition, never left him; and, inspired by this hope, he seldom complained aloud, but diligently pursued his work; for well did he know that any advancement he should make must be by following the very path along which he was now travelling. Instead, therefore, of bolting off the course, as ambitious but thoughtless young men are apt to do,

* Translated, or, more correctly speaking, paraphrased from the French.

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Erard reflected deeply on the nature of his art, and whether it might not be in his power to effect some important improvement upon it. With a critical eye and ear, he at length detected the deficiencies of the instruments it was his business to make —ill-toned inharmonious spinets and harpsichords, with which the ears of the court and the town were content to be charmed. He remarked that, from their imperfect mechanism, it was impossible they could remain long in tune, and that even when their intonation was correct, the sounds produced were harsh and wiry. These imperfections, which constant use of the instruments prevented some of the best musicians from perceiving, became apparent to the inquiring mind and apt ear of the young artisan. But a remedy for them had yet to be discovered; and for that object did Erard incessantly ply his invention. At length he became acquainted with the principle of an improved key-board, introduced by Silbermann, a German manufacturer, and that engendered in him a new and happy idea, the result of which the reader will presently learn.

While Sebastian Erard employed every spare minute in working out his new idea theoretically—for he had not the means of doing so practically—the other actor in our musical drama performed a very different part. Engaged in the useless employments and profitless pastimes of a man of fashion, the Duke of Lauzun sought to revive, at the court of Louis XVI., the dangerous gallantries and dissipated manners of the gay but brilliant court of Louis XV. and the regent. Nor was he ill-calculated to effect, by his own example, so evil an object: he was handsome, rich, and possessed a high flow of spirits, with a good share of intellect and wit. His conduct was not, however, always pleasing to Marie Antoinette, the queen; but so great a favourite was Lauzun with the king, that she never ventured to avow her dislike of him openly.

Amongst other things which displeased her majesty, was a courtship sometimes carried beyond the bounds of good-breeding, which the duke had established with the Marchioness de Milleroy, a lady whose position as governess to the royal children, ought to have induced, on her part, the most guarded conduct. As there was nothing positively improper in Lauzun and her forming a mutual regard, both took umbrage at the little checks which the queen thought it her duty on several occasions to give them. An opportunity to resent these supposed affronts soon occurred, and by a circumstance which brought Sebastian Erard most unexpectedly within the pale of court patronage.

Marie Antoinette, though surrounded by all the allurements of the French court, could not forget the land of her birth. "The Austrian," as she was currently called, would often retire to the solitude of her chamber, to call up from the depths of her memory scenes of childhood and of home. She gathered about her a host of objects, which served to remind her of Austria. The books, pictures, and sculptures, which adorned her private apartments, were all from Germany. But one article was wanting to make the collection complete. The young queen of France was a proficient musician, and loved the melodies of her native land; but how could she give effect to them with the inharmonious spinet then in her chamber? She resolved, therefore, to have a harpsichord from Vienna, and soon a magnificent instrument of improved tone and elegant form, well worthy of a royal residence, replaced the old spinet. That it should be displayed to the best advantage, the young queen determined to give a concert, at which she commanded her instructor and countryman, Gluck, the celebrated composer, to assist.

The new harpsichord was constructed by Silbermann, with his latest improvements, and won the admiration of all present. Amongst the guests were the Duke of Lauzun and the Marchioness of Milleroy. The praises bestowed upon the instrument made the latter envious of its possessor, despite the difference in their position and rank; and she demanded of the Duke de Lauzun a harpsichord of equal excellence and external beauty to that of the queen. The age of chivalry had not even then passed away, and the lover was bound to obey the wishes of his intended, be they ever so extravagant. But another and perhaps stronger motive prompted him. He saw, by complying with this request, a means of mortifying her majesty —of, in fact, lessening her popularity. He took care on every opportunity to point general attention to the readiness with which Marie Antoinette preferred the productions of her native to those of her adopted country. And he undertook to prove, in the present instance, that this preference was not guided by merit. "In a short time," he boasted, "I will produce an instrument of French manufacture superior in tone and in magnificence of appearance to the vaunted importation of the queen." He possessed wealth, ingenuity, and perseverance; his boast was therefore not an idle one.

The duke made the tour of all the eminent manufactories in Paris, but found no one who had enough of courage to undertake the seemingly impossible task he proposed; for all had heard of the marvellous harpsichord of Silbermann. After nearly giving up the pursuit in despair, he determined to visit the manufactories of a humbler grade. In one of these, a young and intelligent journeyman happened to overhear the offer made by the duke to his master, by whom it was declined. He started from his seat, and with a confident brow, declared *he* would undertake the commission.

The duke at first took little notice of the young artisan; but won at length by his earnestness and enthusiasm, consented to listen to a detail of the improvements in the making of harpsichords, which, in addition to those of Silbermann, the new candidate for his patronage proposed. With the leave of his employer, Sebastian Erard (for it was he) hastened to his lodgings for the drawings and notes he had made of his new invention. An hour afterwards, he was closeted with the duke at the residence of the latter. His explanations were so satisfactory, his plans so manifestly practicable, that Lauzun immediately engaged him to make the required instrument. A workshop was fitted up with an expensive collection of tools and materials in the duke's house, in which the young artisan employed himself early and late.

His perseverance and industry were at length crowned with success. When his work was finished, that of decoration began. This was the first instrument which had a moveable key-board, shifted by pedals, to modify its tones at the will of the player —which had a soft and a loud pedal. It was, in short, THE FIRST PIANO-FORTE. The Duke de Lauzun was delighted, and determined that no accessory of ornament should be wanting. He caused it to be enclosed in a magnificent case of gilded japan-work; the pedals were surmounted by a mythological group, exquisitely carved, from a design by the sculptor Houdon; whilst the profuse gilding was in many places relieved by exquisite paintings by Boucher, Greuze, and Vanloo, the most celebrated artists of the day. Finally, this triumph of art and mechanical skill was placed in the apartments of the Marchioness of Milleroy, who gave a concert, which the queen condescended to attend.

The admiration lately excited by her majesty's new German harpsichord was now completely thrown into the shade by that expressed for the instrument of native manufacture. The tones it gave out from under the skilful fingers of Piccini, the Italian composer, who was the first to play upon it, blended exquisitely with the beautiful voice of the Princess de Polignac, whom he accompanied. The queen herself was no less enchanted than the rest, and unwittingly hastened on that triumph which the malevolence of the duke and the marchioness had prompted them to anticipate.

"Pray," inquired the queen of Lauzun, as she broke up a group of detractors, of which he was the most active and sarcastic, "to whose skill are we indebted for this charming instrument?"

"To that, your majesty, of a Frenchman," replied the duke, with as marked an emphasis as he durst assume.

"His name?"

"Sebastian Erard."

"Indeed! that is a person I never heard of before," rejoined the queen.

"Unfortunately, the names of few meritorious *Frenchmen*," retorted the duke, laying a stress upon the latter word, "are known at the court of Versailles."

Without noticing this discourteous sneer, Marie Antoinette inquired to whom the piano belonged. Lauzun explained that it was made by his direction, and that he was the possessor. "You?" repeated the queen, with the good-natured archness by which she was always ready to conciliate the most undeserved ill-will. "And pray, what use can a colonel of huzzars make of so elegant, so lady-like an instrument?"

The duke replied, with an affectation of sentiment, that music was his most cherished relief from the cares of state and the fatigues of military duty.

The truth was, Marie was so charmed with the instrument, that she longed to become its possessor, and demanded upon what terms Lauzun would part with it. This was exactly the result he wished; and, with every appearance of sorrowful humility, he assured her majesty it was not in his power to part with it.

"How so?" she asked, a little piqued. "It is your own, and——"

"It *was* mine yesterday," interrupted the duke, "but to-day it has become the property of——"

"Of whom?" impatiently inquired the queen.

"Of the Marchioness de Milleroy," answered Lauzun, with a low bow.

Where pleasure is the idol, and frivolity the pursuit, it takes but a trifling occurrence to create a sensation. This was the case on the present occasion. The queen, despising this equivocation, turned quickly from the now triumphant courtier, and quitting the apartment abruptly, broke up the party.

Enough, however, had been done to make the fortune of Sebastian Erard. Next morning, he was sent for to Versailles, and presented to her majesty, who not only ordered from him a new piano-forte, but obtained from the king a *brevêt*, or patent, for his ingenious improvements. Once honoured with court patronage, the young artisan's early dreams of ambition were speedily realised.

Meantime a circumstance occurred which exercised an unfavourable influence over the career of the Duke de Lauzun. Extravagance had so impaired his fortune, that his union with the Marchioness de Milleroy —herself by no means rich for her station—was deferred till an appointment which he expected to receive at the death of a relation should become vacant. The command of the French Guards had for a long period been vested in the chiefs of the duke's family, and his uncle, the Marshal de Biron, hitherto held the appointment. The Marshal died, and Lauzun believed that, as a matter of course, besides succeeding to the title (his uncle left no fortune), he would be invested with the vacant and lucrative command. To his mortification, however, he was disappointed, and through, as he afterwards learnt, the influence of Marie Antoinette. From that moment he changed his side in politics. The first lowerings of the revolutionary storm, which afterwards burst with such appalling severity, had already clouded the political horizon. He joined the opposition, then headed by the Orleans family—he wrote pamphlets against the court—he composed epigrams against the queen—he satirised the nobility. In short, he performed an active part towards exasperating the populace against their rulers—towards hastening the deplorable crisis, which had so fatal a termination.

During the progress of that terrible revolution, to so insane a pitch was popular indignation raised against the aristocracy, that to be nobly born was considered a crime punishable with death. The king and queen were early victims; their supporters and adherents followed. Lastly, even that section of the nobility who in the beginning led the popular tumult, were successively led to the scaffold. The Duke of Lauzun was one of the earliest sacrifices of the popular nobility. He ended his career under the guillotine, leaving behind him the record of only one meritorious action—and even that was performed by accident, and out of pique—namely, rescuing from unmerited obscurity the talents and industry of Sebastian Erard.

The revolution had no other ill effect upon the latter, than that of interrupting the operations of a manufactory which had rapidly grown to be the most considerable in Paris. Sebastian Erard, respected by his fellow-citizens, was intrusted by them with a responsible municipal office. In executing it, a part of his duty lay in restraining, as much as possible, the wholesale pillage which was going on in all the residences of the king and the nobility. He had occasion to hasten to Versailles for that purpose, and found that most of the apartments had been already ransacked without mercy. Those formerly occupied by the Marchioness de Milleroy were, on his arrival, undergoing spoliation. The "first piano-forte" was still there. Rough hands had already been laid upon it. His threats and intreaties were for a time vain; but when the pillagers heard his name, and the story of the instrument, they desisted. The piano was unanimously ceded to him; and it is said that his descendants still possess several interesting relics of THE FIRST PIANO-FORTE.

HOW TO LEARN LANGUAGES.

WHEN a particular mode of doing anything has been persevered in for a long period, the prejudice in favour of it is so strong, that whoever dissents from the time-honoured system, is looked upon as a kind of heretic; as one anxious to subvert a venerated and well-established order of things; a sort of revolutionist, who would introduce into the system a terrible anarchy and confusion. However inexpedient he may prove the ancient method to be, the reply to his argument invariably is—"We have done very well by following the old plan for several years (perhaps centuries), and we see no necessity for change."

This is strikingly the case with the present mode of teaching languages, particularly those known as the dead ones. Since the Eton Latin grammar was compiled, in the time, we believe, of Henry VIII., it has been the universal primer for every person desirous of learning the Latin language, in spite of numerous attempts to supersede it. In vain has it been pointed out, that, being wholly in Latin, this grammar opposes unnecessary difficulties to the progress of the pupil. In vain has it been observed, that, when first in use, the Latin language was currently spoken in monastic and educational establishments, and that the scholars possessed some acquaintance with that tongue before the book was placed in their hands; that it was employed just as our English grammar is now, to teach him the theoretical construction of the language, *after* he had acquired, in some degree, a practical or colloquial knowledge of it; that it was not intended to commence, but to help to complete his studies; that, in short, though well adapted for learners at the period at which it was first used, it proves a sad stumbling-block to pupils of the present day.

To the important subject of teaching languages, public attention has been cleverly directed by an article "On the Study of Languages," in a recent number of Tait's Magazine. At the risk of being considered one of the dreaded innovators we have mentioned, the author, Professor Blackie, pleasantly but forcibly exposes the fallacies still so pertinaciously adhered to by many eminent teachers. "A notion has prevailed," he remarks, "that a portentous preparatory scaffolding of grammar is absolutely necessary towards any solid and lasting superstructure; a notion altogether false, and in practice most pernicious," inasmuch as "languages are to be learned mainly by practice. This principle being fixed, the next step is to ascertain what is the practice of Nature in the matter. How do little children learn languages? By what mystery do the innocent lips that at first found enough ado to suck as healthy children ought, learn to articulate

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Mamma and Papa, and to apply certainly these full-lipped and broad-throated vocal enunciations, to certain familiar and fixed persons of a pleasing aspect, by whose presence they are daily and hourly environed? 'Tis a very simple matter; but a matter, like all the great primal truths of existence, the neglect of which, in the study of languages, has puzzled many a hopeful scholar, and perplexed many a famous pedagogue. It is by the continual and persevering repetition of a certain sound, in plain, palpable, and direct connexion with a certain known and familiar object, that a child learns both to understand first one word of a language and then another when spoken, and to speak them with understanding. These two processes in the art of learning a language are contemporaneous on the part of the child; first, the continual hearing of a certain sound pronounced in connexion with a certain known object; and then the continual imitation or echoing of that sound, in self-perfecting phrase, by its own organ. The same process may be observed in persons of advanced years; as when a young midshipman enters a ship, he learns the slang or peculiar language of the sailors by hearing it continually repeated, and continually echoing what he hears; so a student at the university learns the university slang; and a student of theology the theological slang, Puseyite or Presbyterian, as the chance may be; so a lawyer learns the legal slang, which is very bad; a newsmonger the newspaper slang, which is worse; and a writer in critical reviews the critical slang, which is the worst of all. By the institution of nature, therefore, it appears, that to learn a language easily and profitably, a person must be put into an echo-chamber, so to speak, of constantly repeated sounds, and remain in that atmosphere for a certain considerable period, more or less according to his capacity of perception and imitation, till these sounds, in connexion with the things of which they are the symbols, have become an habitual and customary part of his associations; and every artificial or imitative system of teaching languages must be good or bad, according as its machinery approaches to or recedes from this original norm which nature has set up." It will, doubtless, astonish many a head-master, and sorely anger many a college tutor, when it is deduced from this fact, that "a dead language, learned only from books, can never be *thoroughly* learned. A living master, therefore, by the natural method of teaching languages, we hold to be indispensable; and to masters, accordingly, most people betake themselves. It is only lamentable to see how, from vain self-sufficiency on the one hand, and our want of normal schools on the other, so many people undertake to instruct youth in the elements of strange tongues, who are utterly unable to do that for which a master is in the first place, and in the second place, and in the third place, desirable—namely, to talk the language. For a good master of languages ought daily, and hourly, if possible, to be to his pupils that which papa and mamma are to the child, when they are supplying it with its first and most indispensable stock of enunciated ideas. And this remark applies not merely to teachers of the living languages—in whom inability to talk the tongue they profess is less excusable and less common—but in an especial manner to teachers of what are, or are called, the *dead* languages. The time was—scarce one hundred years ago, we guess, in this country—when the Latin language was taught in the natural and proper way, by talking and discoursing as well as by reading; and to the present day it is so taught, we believe, in well-ordered Catholic colleges. But for the most part, in this nineteenth century, Latin, and Greek also (which latter is certainly anything but a dead language), are taught in a most painful and perverse manner, by grammars and dictionaries and books only, to the utter neglect of the natural method." Hence, continues our bold professor, "If a sensible man wants good Greek, let him go to Athens for it, and not to Oxford."

Though the oral method of teaching Latin and Greek may be deemed preposterous by the staunch advocates of "dead grammars and dusty dictionaries," yet no objection can be raised against the plan as applied to modern languages. The absurdity of the grammar system in this case, applied as a commencement of study, is thus exposed:—"The teacher is not entitled (as is too often done) to throw all the labour off his own shoulders, and say at once to the scholar, 'Go to your grammar, at such and such a page, and get such and such a rule by heart, and then come and repeat it to me.' The master must act, in the first place, exegetically as a living, speaking, and incarnated grammar; and the scholar must not be discouraged in the outset, by being sent into a corner to learn from a dumb book in an abstract shape, what it is the very proper business of the master to present to him in the totality of its living completeness, and clad with all the freshness of its natural hues. The master must speak and read from the very first—and not only so, but cause what he speaks and reads (beginning, of course, with the most short, easy, and familiar sentences) to be got by heart on the spot, and boldly re-echoed back by his scholars—so that they shall learn the art of *using* the language in some measure the very first day; *even before they are perfectly familiar with the written characters*, if these be different from those used in their native tongue. We say the scholar must be taught boldly and without hesitation to echo back *on the spot* what he hears; for if he does not begin at first with a certain broad, bold, blundering confidence, he may twirl grammar rules about his fingers for months, and make no satisfactory progress.* Mark well the words—a broad, bold, *blundering* confidence. *Blundering;* for in the urgent practical movements of the human being, the man who begins with being too proud to stumble, will end in being too stiff to move. And this is a point on which we insist with peculiar emphasis—from having found in practice no greater impediment to the speedy acquirement of a foreign language, than that want of confidence, which may be nervousness or an ingenuous timidity in many cases; but in as many, certainly, is only a specious name for pride. You will not begin by speaking the language, because you are afraid of making a blunder, and committing an unpardonable sin against some solemn grammar rule, with whose requirements you are not yet acquainted. And then you are afraid some skilful person may laugh at your incompetency. Pshaw!—Who expects you to march like an old Roman senator, when you are only learning to stand, and must help yourself by creeping? And if impudent people will laugh at you, learn you to laugh at them again. It is one of the most useful and necessary lessons of life. It is, in fact, with the element of speech as with that of water; not weight, but fear, sinks the swimmer. Blunder on, therefore, we repeat it, with a broad confidence; and learn to stand as the child does practically, by learning not to fall."

The uselessness of letters instead of sounds—of appealing to the eye instead of to the ear—in acquiring modern languages, is shown by an amusing instance in reference to German. "It is by the ear that language properly comes, and not by the eye; as the example of many a Betty or Sarah who has gone to Carlsbad or Baden, with master and mistress, sufficiently shows. For, while master and mistress hear nothing but French and English from the fashionable society that frequent the baths, Betty has heard the native dialect from the mouths of native grooms and chambermaids, and has, with very little perceptible trouble, in three months, acquired a more practical command of a language of which she knows not a single printed letter, than many a famous scholar has done by solitary study in three years. So easy and profitable always is it to follow the plan of nature in all our proceedings."

But it must not be inferred from all this, that the professor would discard the grammar and dictionary altogether. "Are we," he continues, "really so insane as to dream that doctor or disciple can get on without them? or are we, perhaps, Hamiltonian in our notions, and would advise the use of an interlinear translation? No! neither Hamiltonian nor Oxonian, nor any other name of any pedantic or empirical extreme, which, with one half of a great truth, runs away and rides to the devil, while the other half is left behind, like the poor Samaritan, where no Pharisee will help it—in the ditch. Honour be to all makers of grammars and dictionaries (the most laborious species of much-labouring men), if they would only make the one in some cases more concise, and the other in all cases more complete! Let us state, therefore, shortly here, how the master and scholar are to use them. Now, in regard to these great implements of language-learning, it will be evident, from the scope of the preceding remarks, that we consider the two great practical blunders in the use of them to be, first, the substitution of these dead repositories altogether, as of primary importance, into the place of that of which they are merely the imperfect and stereotyped echo; and, second, the sending the unaided pupil to grope and grabble his way by the help of them only, at a period of his progress when he can use them but with small profit and with much tribulation. We would say, therefore, let only the most necessary forms and paradigms of noun, verb, and pronoun, be learned by heart from the grammar in the outset; and let the pupil not be left (as is too often the case, by the indolence or perversity of the master) to impress these necessary forms upon his memory from the grammar only, as an independent and separate business; but let the master commence with the reading of the first lessons, and, along with a correct pronunciation, take special care to bring before the pupil, in living examples, as they occur, the most common forms of noun and verb and pronoun; and, while he does this, let him never remit, according to a hint already given, to cause the pupil to repeat some short sentence, involving some single grammatical form, with a clear voice, on the spot. By pursuing this system for some time, the grammar will in fact be practically educed by the teacher from the living body of the language, and forced upon the scholar by the daily echoing of living sounds, differing from the body of sounds with which the spoken intercourse of life brings us into connexion, only in this—that the sounds are made to bear upon the memory of the scholar in a certain convenient succession wisely calculated by a scientific teacher. With regard to the other matters which grammars usually contain beyond the most necessary forms of declension and conjugation, they ought certainly to be let alone, till a period when the scholar has attained considerable progress both in reading the language, and in understanding it when read; and then, haply, he will find that he has now learned, insensibly, by practice, all that is essentially useful of that which the most laborious systematic study, previous to the practice, would have failed to hammer into his mind."

To those who have a desire to study languages, but have been deterred by the apparent difficulties which meet them at the very outset, this article of Professor Blackie's must prove most encouraging. There is another class of persons to whose attention we would even more especially direct the essay, which is to that of the secretaries or managers of Mechanics' Institutions.

* We take pleasure in pointing out that, upon just such a plan the French language is taught at the Liverpool Mechanics' Institution, as may be seen by reference to our article on that establishment in a recent number.—Ed. *C. E. J.*

VISIT TO THE MAMMOTH CAVE OF KENTUCKY.

The following interesting account of a visit to this celebrated cavern, is contained in a letter from the Rev. William Murphy, college of St Mary, Kentucky, to one of his colleagues, published in a periodical, styled, "The Annals of the Propagation of the Faith," for September 1842. Mr Murphy appears to have been accompanied by Mr Thebaud, a professor of geological science.

"We left Lebanon, a small town near our college, on the 9th of August, 1841, at eleven o'clock in the evening, and the vehicle in which we took our places set off for the south. The next day, at sunrise, we were in the centre of Green County, which is celebrated throughout the state for the excellent tobacco it produces. The landscape of this part of Kentucky is exceedingly monotonous; continual forests, in the midst of which immense clearing of the trees leaves bare, from time to time, a soil rich with deep alluvions, or mould, accumulated from the beginning of the world.

All the learned agree in classing the vast plain that extends from the Alleghanies to the Rocky Mountains, and from the lakes of Canada to the Gulf of Mexico, amongst the secondary and transition rocks. But this denomination is exceedingly vague, and this branch of the geological series comprehends, in all parts of the globe, an astonishing variety of strata, which the science has not as yet succeeded in classifying. Each author has, in this respect, his own system, and it may be safely said, that on this point the great difficulties of geology are to be found.

In so vast a portion of the earth's surface, if we take time to consider Kentucky, we shall find it naturally divided into two regions, perfectly characterised. The north and east, particularly, present oolithic and carbonic groups; the calcaire there abounds in fossils; the water-courses are numerous on the surface of the soil, which powerful alluvions render excessively rich. The south and west are, on the contrary, undoubtedly of the group of red variegated sandstone; and, what is surprising, the fossils are almost totally absent. I have been able to discover there only some cyatophylla of three different species. We rarely see rivulets; the springs find everywhere subterraneous conduits, through which they pass, and the soil must therefore present underneath its surface a multitude of caves and channels, where the sand, produced by the decomposition of the stone, is continually accumulating.

When the natural pillars which support those long vaults happen to give way under the weight of the earth and trees with which they are covered, we see on the surface a sinking down, in the form of a tunnel, into which the waters flow to filter themselves into deeper caverns, and deposit the lime which they hold in solution, in the fantastic form of diversified stalactites. Such is the whole secret of the formation of a cavern into which we are now to penetrate.

The grand and almost terrible aspect of the hills and valleys, at the bottom of which is the entrance to the Mammoth Cave, disposes the soul for the emotions that it is soon to experience: gigantic trees, piled-up rocks, and increasing darkness, all seize powerfully upon the imagination. The sun scarcely penetrates to the bottom of the valley; one seems to leave the brilliant abode of day, to enter the gloomy empire which the Greeks peopled with phantoms and wandering spirits.

We already approached it: the first feeling was that of amazement and a sort of terror. A cavern, thirty-five feet wide, twenty feet high, and about fifty deep, is terminated by a narrow door, which forms the limit between light and darkness. Under the guidance of a negro, the threshold is at length passed, and we are now in the main nave, extending six hundred feet long, from eighty to a hundred and ten feet high, and fifty broad. The light of the lamps that the travellers hold in their hands is lost in the depth of the abyss. You see it at a few paces' distance struggling with the increasing darkness. To see clearly an object, you must stand still, open widely the eyes, and bring the lamp near. It may be said, that the light borrowed from a torch, diffused in a place too large to be completely lighted by it, gives more grandeur to the objects. But no; human architecture has never devised such imposing models. The Gothic cathedrals of old Europe do not so entirely overpower the spectator under the weight of their gigantic mass. At the extremities of this long avenue, several branches of the cavern shoot off in different directions.

The general impression left on my mind by the sight of such a scene, is a sort of conviction, that a sudden revolution of nature was at first necessary to

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commence the excavation of this cavern. The slow action of time is a word void of sense, if we take no account of secondary causes: an inconsiderable stream could never, in any series of ages, hollow out in such vast proportions such numerous channels, so enormously large, and where the water has evidently risen to their highest margin. And if we suppose a great volume of flowing water, there should have been, from the commencement, a way under the earth to allow of its passage.

Being unwilling to prolong our first visit beyond five hours, we deferred to another day the exploring of the river; and we passed through a series of grottoes and avenues, such as are everywhere found where nature has formed subterranean cavities. We stopped, however, in the little chamber called the Haunted Chamber, in which the persons who first penetrated into the cavern found mummies, which are said to be now in the Peale Museum. Amongst several others, the body of a woman closely rolled in bandages, like the Egyptian mummies, attracted particular attention: to her arm was suspended a little bag, filled with needles and trinkets; she was in a sitting posture, and of small stature; her features showed a different variety in the human family from the red man; and if we join this singular fact to the curious discoveries of Mr Stephen, in Central America, where he saw the ruins of pyramids and colossal statues, palaces in which the full arch is not to be seen, covered with hieroglyphics and bas-reliefs, figures of gods and heroes, so like those which we still find upon the ruins of Memphis and Thebes, we cannot doubt of the perfect identity of the ancient Egyptians with the primitive American race. The valuable book of the envoy-extraordinary from the United States to Guatimala, is alone a complete demonstration of this identity, notwithstanding the prepossessions and prejudices of the author, who, in order to follow the systems of distinguished travellers and geographers, draws, at the end of his work, a conclusion which is contrary to all the laws of induction. But the discovery of the mummies found in Mammoth Cave is, it may be said, the final destruction of the theory of primitive people, renewed from the Greeks, to the shame of our age, and maintained, without reflection, by learned persons of the first order. If what a traveller relates be true, this cave is destined to supply hereafter important data on the ancient people of the American continent.

The sight of the Haunted Chamber, or great temple, as I may call it, surprised us, notwithstanding all we had seen. A circular space, which the guides assert to be eight acres in extent, and which the more moderate visitors reduce to four, presents under ground an immense vault, without natural pillars to support it. The action of the waters that anciently formed it, festooned it all around with draperies, fantastic or graceful figures, in the manner that in Gothic churches the chisel of the architects has executed arabesques, foliage, and elegant garlands. The Pantheon of Agrippa returned then to my mind, as the sublime diminutive of the colossal vault that I had before my eyes.

We entered the cave at four o'clock in the evening, and we came out of it at night-fall. The next day, before the sun had appeared as yet in the east, we descended again into the cavern, and without stopping to examine the curiosities in detail, we advanced at a quick rate towards the river, of which we intended to examine the course. Before reaching it, you must walk nearly four miles, at one time on the rock itself, or on piles of stones, that fell formerly from the vault, at another time upon fine sand, filled with pebbles. In several places, particularly in the labyrinth near the Dome of Gorin, there are found agates, calcedoniuses, and opals, of a common description, and of little value; but persevering examination would probably lead to more valuable results. During our excursion, a stone of the size of a pigeon's egg was found by one of the negroes, and given to a Maryland lady, who was one of our party. I could not, at the moment, ascertain its nature; but to judge of it from the exterior appearance, I should have taken it for one of the finest white opals that I have ever yet seen.

Before coming to the river, you pass over a gulf, called the Bottomless Pit. Two years ago, it was the limit of all excursions; a fathomless abyss was supposed to cross the only path of the cave. The distant noise of the waters of the river, which, repeated by the echoes of the caverns, resembles the deep murmuring of a cascade, the sight of rocks heaped in confusion, the almost sudden narrowing of the vault and path, all impressed with the belief that death would be the consequence to any one who dared to take a step farther in advance. But a traveller had more boldness than his predecessors; he took a watch with a seconds'-hand, sat down on the margin of the gulf, threw in a stone, and remarked, that after having rebounded against the sides, it finally stopped, making a greater noise than before; calculation, after several experiments, gave him 140 feet as an approximation of the depth. The noise of the waters announced to him, besides, that, beyond the precipice, there would be found, in spite of the momentary narrowing of the cave, other vaults and other passages, larger, perhaps, than those that he had already seen. He then took courage, flung a ladder across the mouth of the gulf, and crept along it with his feet and hands. A single negro accompanied him, who, impressed with a superstitious fear, solemnly announced to him that he was going to perish. The prediction had like to have proved true: the ladder not being sufficiently long, rested but slightly on the other side; thus, at the moment that the adventurer thought he touched the edge, it slipt, and the negro gave a shout of terror, imagining that the hydra of the abyss was punishing the white man for his sacrilegious audacity; but the intrepid traveller, at the moment of the greatest danger, preserved all his presence of mind; he stretched his hand whilst falling, seized a point of rock, which fortunately did not give way, and found himself immediately out of fear, at the entrance of a new cave. The negro himself, they say, emboldened by the unhoped-for success of a rash attempt, went to procure a longer ladder, followed after the white man, and returned with him by the same way, after having seen the bank of the subterranean river, towards which we are now to proceed. At present, a wooden bridge, thrown across the gulf, offers to the visitors every facility of passing without the least fear; and one is now astonished that persons had been for so long a time stopped by such an unimportant difficulty.

It is certainly surprising to find a river so far from the light of day; it is a wonder to see a dark valley surrounded with hills, passes, and ravines, peopled with living beings, and presenting, with the exception of light, all the character of the valleys in which we love to wander.

After having descended a small hill covered with sand and scattered rocks, we found ourselves on the banks of a new river, which may have in this place twenty feet in breadth, and it is considered to be as many deep. It flows upon a bed of fine sand and pretty pebbles. When it becomes less deep, and its shores are only covered with some inches of water, you find a great number of cray-fishes, for the most part of stunted growth, and entirely white. Sometimes, however, they are found of the ordinary size, nearly black, and in better condition.

The most remarkable character of these two species of fish is the absence of eyes, caused, no doubt, from their total uselessness. Complete blindness is the most striking character of the fishes that are found in the subterranean river. We know as yet but one species of the genus *cottus*. The largest that has ever been caught may be six inches long; their ordinary size is from three to four. It is quite certain that, exteriorly, no appearance of the organs of sight can be distinguished; and it is asserted, that a doctor of Louisville, after having anatomised several, ascertained their total absence.

To the list of animals that inhabit the cavern, I must add to the fishes and cray-fishes several species of insects, amongst them arachnides, phalangianæ, and crickets. Their limbs are, in general, long and slender; their skin starred and whitish; and the organ of sight wanting in all of them. We cannot place in the same class the bats that are found in the two near chambers of the principal one of the cave. Concealed during the day, and hanging in groups to the vault, they escape at night, and leave the cavern, to sport in the exterior valley. Thus, there is nothing to distinguish them from the ordinary bats.

But it is time to continue our way; a canoe awaits us at the shore; let us hasten our steps. It is a terrible thing to advance slowly upon an unknown river, which flows between two perpendicular rocks, passing sometimes through narrow grottoes, where the voyager must stoop, in order not to strike against the vault; and then rolling its waters on desolate shores, where rocks piled on rocks exhibit all the confusion of chaos.

We were too many to enter all at a time into the boat; the ladies first took their places, with their husbands. Each person, with his lamp in his hand, remained seated and quiet; two negroes alone struck the water with their oars. As for us, seated on the bank, we saw the boat move majestically towards the dark part of the gulf. The light of the lamps was reflected on the black and worn rocks as they passed them. The masses of shadows in opposition with the light, the profound silence of these retreats, when all hold their peace at the same instant, contrasting, at the least noise, with the sonorous reverberation of the most beauteous echoes I ever heard, all surprise and captivate the mind; and, after viewing a thousand wonders, it seems that one has never yet seen anything so astonishing. The boat soon took a turn to the right, and was hid behind an enormous promontory. A feeling of terror passed, I confess, over my soul; but at that moment, by a spontaneous and sympathetic movement, we all commenced singing. The voices of the women were sweeter and more melancholy, and those of the men more gloomy and majestic; and nature presented us there, at a small expense, with a scene which the art of producing strong emotions would endeavour in vain to repeat.

This first trip occupies scarcely ten minutes; the bark came back to take us; and we soon found ourselves re-assembled anew upon a bank of compact calcaire, beneath which the river disappears, as it were by enchantment, in the sand. This first passage may be avoided, by creeping across the rocks as far as the top of the lofty hills that border the river, in which case you must walk for a time on the edge of a precipice. You see, at the depth of 100 feet, an immense valley, of an elliptic form, at the bottom of which a deep murmur proclaims the presence of water. I have wished several times since to enjoy this terrible view. A false step would have precipitated me into the abyss; and I cannot even now recall, without shuddering, the words of a guide, who, seeing me stagger before him, cried out, 'Hold on; if you slip, you are at once in the *dead sea!*'—they so term the gulf which is surrounded by this grand amphitheatre of piled-up rocks.

After rowing a few paces only, we found again the bed of the river and another skiff. This portion of the water is shorter and less picturesque than the first. But after a second time passing the water, the river assumes a grand and terrific aspect; sometimes its course is narrowed between rocks, undermined by the waters; sometimes it widens, and presents the form of a lake. I several times crossed it, and each time with a new feeling of terror. These emotions were not, however, so lively as those of the evening of the first day. The party with which I was, determined to pass the night in the cave; I let them pursue their way, and I returned with a companion and a guide. The canoe that we found to repass the river in, was scarcely large enough to carry three persons. Imagine two old planks, nailed at right angles with a third, and upon which an intrepid American had first ventured, only a fortnight previously, to make the complete discovery of this little fresh-water sea! In this third crossing, we passed at least twenty minutes on the river; and after disembarking, pursued our way by a new route, in which, by climbing, and turning, and winding, in various directions, we at length cease to hear the rushing of the water, and arrive at a grand barrier, in the form of a wall, as black as basaltes. But it is the commencement of wonders. If you raise your head, you see a hole, festooned with calcareous incrustations, like bunches of grapes in graceful clusters. The floor is covered with a fine plaster dust, produced from the decomposition of the gypsum incrustations: the walls are covered with them. The figures are not only columns and draperies, but also leaves, flowers, roses, stars, and a thousand fantastic, natural, and graceful images.

Having reached near sixteen miles' distance from the entrance of the cave, we did not consider it well to proceed further, and returned to the light of day. Much of this wonderful cavern remains to be explored, including the final outlets of the waters which pass through it. No one, indeed, knows half the wonders for science that this kingdom of darkness may conceal.

A HINT TO BENEVOLENT IMPROVERS.

In the little tale, "The Helpful and Helpless," which we lately presented, an attempt was made to show how difficult it is to benefit those who have little care for helping themselves. The moral of the story was, that in all cases we should exercise a reasonable degree of caution, and at all events only render assistance in that form which would be accordant with previous habits and prejudices. We have a very striking exemplification of this general maxim in the numerous unsuccessful attempts to reclaim the humbler orders of Irish peasantry from their very wretched condition. Instead of going to work cautiously, educating and implanting better habits in the young, and setting a good example to, and encouraging the old, benevolent but injudicious friends have attempted to alter, as it were, by a single blow, habits and feelings which have been the growth of centuries, and are now ingrained in the constitutions of the people. It cannot be too much kept in remembrance, that there is no possibility of improving the external circumstances of a nation, till we have, in the first place, opened the minds of the individual members of that nation to the advantages of improvement; and this, it is apprehended, cannot be done but by slow and pains-taking efforts. Above all, prejudices must be treated with great tenderness, or, what is preferable, not meddled with at all.

We offer these remarks by way of preface to an anecdote told by Mr and Mrs Hall, in their work on Ireland, and which they present as an illustration of the way in which improvements have been too frequently set about in that fine but much abused country.

"An English lady of our acquaintance, who had married an Irish gentleman possessed of a good property in his own country, went over to Ireland with her head full of all sorts of plans for the improvement of his tenantry in education, cleanliness, industry, and every comfort; her husband assured her 'she might work away till she was tired, at what she pleased, so she did not worry him.' Our kind friend, in a month after her arrival, wrote to us that she was charmed with the people. Such an account as she gave of their reception — such bonfires blazed—such shouts rent the air—such hundreds bade them welcome—such a warm-hearted country she had never expected to see."

Distressed with the spectacle of the wretched huts in which the people lived, "she built eight pretty cottages with a porch and four rooms, and a back-door, and a piggery, and nailed juvenile honeysuckles up the walls, and sowed with her own fair hands mignionette in the borders of a little railed-in front garden; and the persons (and she chose the best) whom she put in these cottages—built on an approved English model—*had never been off the clay-floor* of a one-roomed cabin, until, *at once*, she placed them in this (to them uncomfortable) paradise. They were cheerful, grateful, honest creatures, but her wishes could not suddenly transform the unlearned into the learned. It was in vain the friends who understood the character of the people assured her that improve-

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ment—the *evidence* of education—must progress, not leap to a conclusion; that women, who had never trodden upon a boarded floor, could not be immediately expected to keep it clean, and that the first step to such a luxury was one composed of beaten lime, sand, and earth; that while they would appreciate the comfort of a two-roomed house, four rooms would be beyond their powers of management; that the culture of simple vegetables should precede the care of flowers; that more time and more means would be required to keep it, as the lady desired it should be kept, than an Irish cotter could possibly bestow; that, in fact, a peasant's dwelling should be of no more than two principal rooms *at first*, built upon a plan which admitted of additions as they were required; and that one addition made at the suggestion or by the hand of the humble tenant himself, is worth half a score of those performed by the landlord. All these protests were useless; the lady had made up her mind to turn, as it were, a potato-pit into a pinery. She filled her cottages with willing tenants, who promised, and at the time *intended*, to do everything 'her honour' desired, though they did not understand one-fourth of her instructions. And having been absent in England about four months, early on the morning after her return, she went to visit her tenants, full of hopes, and quite prepared for the anticipated blessings of grateful hearts in comfortable houses. The first she entered was pretty well outside; to be sure one of Mogue Colfer's stockings was thrust into the window, where one of the panes had been broken out, and a very audible battle was going forward within, between Ally, Mogue's wife, and the pig, who, having enjoyed the freedom of the dwelling during the absence of the lady, did not see why he should all at once resign it.

'Yer honour's welcome, kindly welcome, my lady. Hourish out, ye dirty baste, saving yer presence, ma'am, the pig that got in it in spite of me, and wants the run of the house, which he was used to; oh, murder, if it isn't under the bed he's getting, at the potatoes—oh, my grief!'

'And why do you keep your potatoes under the bed,' said poor Mrs ——, looking about in vain for a seat to sit on.

'Sure, yer honour forbid us to keep them in the kitchen, so we put 'em under the bed in the little room, to plase yer ladyship, where ye wouldn't see them only for the pig, bad cess to him for turning them out.' The lady sighed—'I wished you to keep them in the house provided for them.'

'Oh, ma'am, is it outside?—the potatoes! sure it's bit by the frost they'd be. Molly, take the iron pot off the chair, and wipe it down for her ladyship.'

'And why was it on the chair?' inquired Mrs ——; 'why, that is the great thing you boil your potatoes in.'

'Thrue for ye; see that now, how her darling ladyship knew that!—it was Mogue's shirt, and my own bits of rags, and the childre's, I was washing, to go clane and dacent before yer ladyship.'

'And where's your nice little washing-tub?'

'Is it the tub? Oh, bedad, I'd be sorry to put a present of yer ladyship's *to such a dirty use*.'

'But where is it?'

'Why, then, it's God's truth I'll tell ye, mee lady,' said Ally, taking up the corner of her apron, that she might have something to fidget with while she spoke; 'the little girl left it outside, and the sun (whenever it does shine, it's to take the shine out of us), the sun, plase yer honour, split it into smithereens.'

'And where *are* the smithe—what you call them?'

'Ah then, sure,' she said, lifting up the corner of her apron to her eyes; 'ah then, sure, it's Mogue that said don't be vexing her honour with the sight of the staves, but put them out of her sight; and so we did, plase yer honour—we burnt them!'

'And now, through your own carelessness, you have nothing to wash your clothes in?'

'Oh yes, my lady, thank ye kindly, we have; we don't want anything that way: we've what we're used to, and what's used to it, plase yer honour—the iron pot, ma'am, always handy, and without any trouble.'

The lady seeing the litter, and dirt, and carelessness in the cottage where she had expected so much that was clean and comfortable—annoyed by the woman's readiness as much as her untidiness—and pained at the blight of her first hope, turned to leave the dwelling without saying a word; but with so much evident disgust, that the quick feelings of the Irishwoman were wounded; rushing forward with all her national energy, she fell upon her knees before her.

'Ah then, sure, it's not going out of the place angry, that yer honour would be? I see it in ye, my lady, about the tub, and the potatoes, and the pig. Och, murder, sure I'd lay my hands under the soles of yer feet any day, and travel the country all hours of the night to serve yer ladyship, and fear neither wind nor rain for yer honour; and good right there's for it; it was you that took me and mine from the height of misery, and settled us here, where, to be sure, we might be like queens and kings of the earth, if we could only plase yer ladyship, and hadn't so much to do, *taking care of the convayniances yer goodness gave us*. Sure we do our best, according to our understandings, and will get more into the way of it afther a while. Sure, my heart's splitting at this very minute into two halves striving to plase yer honour, and do everything to plase ye, and yer ladyship not plased afther all!'

The lady was touched at first by the quaintness and tenderness of poor Ally, for she was neither heartless nor capricious; but her sense of justice revolted against the idea of the woman supposing she wished her to serve *her* when she wanted her to serve herself; she replied, that she was only anxious for the improvement of the people for their own sakes, and that it was very provoking to have what had been done destroyed by wilful neglect.

'I ax yer honour's pardon,' answered the cotter's wife; 'but it's holy truth I'm telling—I've no *wilful* neglect to answer yer honour for; on the conthrary'—and she burst into tears—'I have no pace night or day striving to keep things the way you'd like, and to remember the uses of the things you gave us for convayniance; and if yer ladyship had just given us the half of them, we'd have more understanding; only the iron pot yer honour's looking at, it's handy, as I *tould* ye, for everything; so that, barring the tub that went to pieces with the *druth*, everything else is spick and span new to show yer honour—all put up out of the way of the childre, on the loft, my lady, and that's the reason there's nothing on the shelves. God knows, ma'am, while you wern't in it, it's half-starved we war between the seasons; the old potatoes going out, and the new ones not in; and yet the Lord he knows I kep' the bits of *curosities* yer honour gave us for convayniance, safe, and would die rather than part them!'

Mrs —— was too much disappointed, to appreciate fully this strange mixture of right feeling and old habits. She never dreamed of blaming herself for expecting a poor uninstructed woman—whose cabin six months before had contained the obnoxious iron pot, a chest, two stools and a boss, a broken dresser, a couple of noggins, a kish and potato-basket, a bed, a cracked looking-glass, some remnants of plates and pitchers, and a portrait of a saint in a black frame—to remember the names, much less the uses, of all the things in a well-furnished cottage, in little more than a quarter of a year, to undo the habits of thirty years in four months. So she turned to the next—this was worse. She was obliged to step across a pool of stagnant water to get into the door.

'It's the ducks, my lady,' said a round-faced placid woman, who evinced habitual industry by keeping on at her knitting with great rapidity while she curtsied and spoke; 'it's the ducks, ma'am, that yer honour was so good as to give me, and I'm sure you'll be plased to see how I've as good as reared seven young ones; and they'd go blind for want of a sup of water and—'

'But surely one of your boys could drive them to the pond?'

'Bedad, he could, ma'am, and would ax no better divarshun; but what call for the bother of that, when all we had to do was to scrape out a bit there, and have the little craythurs safe under our eyes? I said yer ladyship would be delighted to see how they throve.' This interview sadly disappointed both parties; the poor woman really deserved praise for her industrious habits. She *was* greatly improved, but her patroness was so disgusted with the mud pool where she had planted a woodbine, that she left that poor woman also in tears.

One virago, when 'her ladyship' found just fault not only with the carelessness, but the wanton destruction of her cottage, where the floor had been actually lowered to admit of the action of the flail, so as to enable the grain to be thrashed in the kitchen, upbraided her with her having been the cause of her 'catching her death of *could for want of the smoke*;' and to remedy this, she had placed a flag on the top of the chimney, and had blocked up the back-door, 'because none but an *informer* would come in at it.' *This* was a solitary instance of ingratitude—all the rest were eager to please; but the veil had been rudely torn from the lady's eyes. It was a damp October morning, and this added to the neglected look of the dwellings, which four short, short months before, had been fit to illustrate a page on rural beauty. The people lost interest in her eyes, though they were exactly the same people who had at first excited it. The truth was, the lady lacked the three grand requisites for those who seek to improve Ireland. The first is patience; the second is patience; the third is patience. The people were not incapable of improvement: with the exception of the virago, they were all willing to learn, and *were* learning; but the system they were taught upon was wrong—as though you put a book into a child's hand, and bade it read before it knew its letters! But, like many others, Mrs —— lacked patience, and, alas, *abandoned the country!*"

A CHINESE INVENTION.

There is a device of the Chinese which is worthy of imitation, and considering the increased security it offers to floating property, and the additional safety of the lives of navigators, it is surprising that it has not been adopted by Americans and Europeans; namely, the division of the holds of ships by water-tight partitions. The Chinese divide the holds of their sea-vessels into about a dozen distinct compartments with strong plank, and the seams are caulked with a cement composed of lime, oil, and the scrapings of bamboo. This composition renders them impervious to water, and is greatly preferable to pitch, tar, and tallow, since it is said to be incombustible. This division of their vessels seems to have been well experienced, for the practice is universal throughout the empire. Hence it sometimes happens that one merchant has his goods safely conveyed in one division, while those of another suffer considerable damage from a leak in the compartment in which they were placed. A ship may strike against a rock and yet not sink; for the water entering by the fracture will be confined to the divisions where the injury occurs. To the adoption of a similar plan in European or American merchantmen, besides the opposition of popular prejudice, and the increased expense, an objection might arise from the reduction it would occasion in the quantity of freight, and the increased difficulty of stowing bulky articles. It remains to be considered how far these objections ought to prevail against the greater security of the vessel, crew, and cargo. At any rate, such objections do not apply to ships of war, in which to carry very heavy burdens is not an object of consideration.—*Ewbank's Hydraulics.*

THE BELEAGUERED WIDOW.

[After the Earl of Athole was slain by Moray, his widow, the daughter of the English Sir Henry Beaumont, was besieged with her infant in the castle of Lochendorb, whence she earnestly implored the aid of her father and King Edward. A noble matron, in sorrow for the slaughter of her husband, beleaguered in a mountain fortress, and sending for succour to the King of England and his barons, reminds one of Amadis or Palmerin. Edward obeyed the call, and hastened to her rescue.—*Tytler's Scotland.*]

Oh! who is it stands in widow'd guise
On yon rugged Highland tower,
And o'er the wild moor, with longing eyes,
Looks forth for England's power?

Her Scottish lord untimely slain,
And her babe in jeopardy;
Her heart is in England's host again,
Her hope in its pennons free!

Come quickly, come, my father dear;
Come quickly, ye barons bold;
The Beaumonts' child is a captive here
In this dismal mountain hold.

Come quickly, come, my youthful liege;
'Tis a daughter of England calls,
Whom her husband's murderous foes besiege
Within these hated walls.

They have slain my brave Athole in yon dark wood,
All grim with their stunted pine;
And they thirst ev'n now for his young son's blood,
Else little I'd reck of mine.

Oh! why did I leave the fair land of my birth,
For this barren north countrie?
Oh! Scotland, Scotland! thou never wert worth
One-half thou hast lost to me!

Oh! why did I leave my father's hall,
In Eamont's peaceful vale,
To stem the rude waves of lawless brawl
With a lord of the bloody Gael?

Oh, Athole! why did thy manly form
A spirit so fierce enfold?
Oh! why didst thou rush to brave the storm,
Nor stay in thy mountain hold?

Oh! little didst think of thy sorrowing bride,
And less of thine infant heir,
When forth to thy fate thou wouldst reckless ride,
And leave us here to despair.

Hadst *thou* been beside me, I never had thought
Of peril, or famine, or harm;
Hadst *thou* yet lived, I never had sought
Redress from another's arm.

But thou art laid low! The stately oak
Is rent from the clinging rose.
My spirit is quench'd, my heart is broke,
And I quail before thy foes.

Oh, father! remember yon fatal hour
I shudder to think on still,
When the treacherous Scots from *thy* leaguer'd tow'r
Turned aside the crystal rill!

It was hard that feverish thirst to bide
Ev'n for stalwart knight like thee;
Then harder far for a mourning bride
With an infant on her knee!

Bethink thee, my father, what 'tis to melt
In famine's grasp away;
Bethink thee what brave Dalwolsy felt
As he wasted day by day!

Bethink thee, my father, what scenes and sights
There be when a castle's ta'en;
When base kernes exult over belted knights,
And the living envy the slain!

Oh! let me not live to feel and see
What my flesh hath crept to hear;
If ye come not quickly to save, 'twill be
To carry me forth on my bier!

Come, father, come, for peril is nigh,
The leaguer is closing fast!
If thou wouldst not see thy daughter die,
Let her hear thy trumpet's blast!

Come, quickly come, mine own liege lord,
St George! to the rescue! fly!
If ever again I hear joyful word,
'Twill be England's battle cry!

WHAT TO DO WITH A WATCH WHICH HAS FALLEN INTO WATER.

We are assured that the best procedure in this case is to plump the watch as soon after as possible into spirits. Oil, which is sometimes used, is objectionable, as clogging the mechanism; but our informant has known instances of watches which had been soused in water, keeping in good order for months after, if placed for a little while in spirits.

NOT A BAD HIT.

A gentleman expatiated on the justice and propriety of an *hereditary* nobility. "Is it not right," said he, "in order to hand down to posterity the virtues of those men who have been eminent for their services to the country, that their posterity should enjoy the honours conferred on them as a reward for such services?" "By the same rule," said a lady, "if a man is *hanged* for his misdeeds, *all his posterity should be hanged too.*"—*Scottish Jests and Anecdotes.*

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ENSIGN MARTYN'S FIRST SCRAPE.

I WAS just nineteen when I saw myself gazetted to an ensigncy in her majesty's ——th Highlanders. What a proud day that was for me! My kind, good parent, gave me *carte blanche* on that prince of all tailors—Buckmaster—and I hastened up to London, determined to avail myself of it to the utmost. My outfit was splendid. My epaulets would have suited a captain; my claymore was at least three inches longer, and my satin scarf six inches wider, than the regulation; and I sent to Scotland for a Cairngorm brooch, as large as a saucer, to loop the latter up with. Before I had time to show off in my uniform, I was ordered to join the depôt of my regiment—then, alas! entombed in the depths of Ireland. With many a sigh, I was obliged to relinquish dear Cheltenham in all its gaiety. One consolation, however, remained, which was, the certainty that my departure would occasion the most profound grief to some half-a-dozen belles. On my arrival in Dublin, I devoted a few days to see all that was to be seen, and then started to join my depôt, which was quartered in Birr, or Parsonstown, as it is sometimes called, chiefly celebrated for a huge statue of the famous Duke of Cumberland, and a superabundance of young unmarried ladies. I was agreeably disappointed in the barracks, which are handsome and commodious. In truth, I must confess, I had landed on the Green Isle with not a few of the English prejudices which are so generally entertained against Ireland. I was received with the utmost cordiality by my brother officers, and for many weeks could not help feeling a slight degree of pride when a soldier saluted me. The well-appointed mess, too, had its charms, where all was light-hearted gaiety and badinage.

About a month after I had joined, I received by post the following letter:—

"STOKWELL STREET, *Glasko*.
July 3d, 1839.

MY DEREST LUVE.—A glad and a happie woman was I to sea you had suckseded in yure endeevors to get the apointmant you have bene so long trying about. Yure own name, two, in print. Yure mother was sore overcome with the joy. But just to think you ar at last an offisher. Wel, William dere, you were in the rite, I now sea, insteed of stayin hear, drawin teeth for a sixpense, and bleedin and blisterin for sometimes naething at al. I wood have wrote to you long ago, but thot you wood like some littel time to settel down, and get things made cumfortabel for mee in baraks. Rite to mee, my dere husband, and say when I am to cum to you, for I am weerying to sea you once more; four yeres is a long time to leeve youre wife and bairns; but as our neeybor Jenny Haivers sais, a' is for the best. Yure mother is quite wel; only her site not quite as it used to bee. No more at present, but hopping too here from you sune.—Yure luving wife, til deth, ISABELLA MARTIN.

The babby's ar wel."

This elegant epistle, directed to Mr William Martin, Esq.——th regiment, Parsonstown, was folded in a most original manner, and closed with a red wafer, which bore the unique and humble impression of a thimble. I examined the precious *morceau* minutely, and was not long in determining from whom it came. "Some more of Lacy's confounded tricks; another of his numerous hoaxes," I exclaimed; and I resolved to answer it in manner conforming. As nearly as I can recollect, I wrote as follows:—

"ADORABLE ISABELLA—Your letter has given the greatest pleasure to your too long separated husband. Come, dearest, immediately, and complete my happiness. Without thee, life even in a barrack-room—embellished as it always is with unpapered walls, two wooden chairs, one small table, and half a poker—could not be long supportable. In the midst of my brother officers, a set of unfeeling youths, who dance, ride, fish, shoot, and smoke cigars, without a single thought of matrimony, I only sigh and think of thee—thee whose elegance and accomplishments I have never seen equalled in all my wanderings. Come, then, my angel, and never more be parted from—Your ever affectionate husband,

WILLIAM MARTYN.

Mrs William Martin, Stockwell Street, Glasgow."

This rhapsody I carefully consigned to the letter-serjeant, being quite confident it would soon find its way back to the author of Isabella's fond effusion. At mess that evening, I fancied I detected a lurking smile of intelligence pass between Lacy and Power; I kept my own counsel, however, quite pleased with having paid them off with their own coin. A few weeks elapsed; and the angelic, deserted Isabella, and her epistle, had been consigned to oblivion; when, very early one morning, Duval, my Swiss valet, entered my bed-room, and, with an expression of curious and unwonted meaning, announced that a lady desired to see me.

"A lady wishing to see me?" I cried: "A lady wishing to see *me*, and at this time in the morning? Impossible!"

"*Vraiment!*" exclaimed Duval, with that indescribable shrug with which foreigners contrive to convey volumes. He was evidently highly elated at the unexpected honour done me, and kept bustling about, arranging, re-arranging, folding, and unfolding, every article of my toilet, appendages, and uniform.

Recovering, by an effort, my composure and breath, I desired Duval to look out my most becoming morning costume, restricting his services to last twenty minutes. [I may, by the way, remark, and every ensign in her majesty's service should profit by the hint, that it is invariably the best plan to allow your valet to choose your dress. For his own sake, he will take care to dress you well.] Of my four morning gowns, he selected a rose-coloured satin one. An embroidered dove-coloured cashmere waistcoat and velvet slippers completed a costume which *he* deemed worthy of the occasion. Entering my sitting-room, I gave one hasty glance at a rich silk dress, blushed (remember I was but nineteen), made a profound bow, and handed the lady a chair. But, instead of quietly seating herself, she rushed towards me with the energy of a dancing bear, and the rapidity of the Falls of Niagara, and giving me a warm embrace, exclaimed, "Dear, dear Wully!" in a tone, and with an accent, the vulgarity of which was unequalled. Judge of my astonishment! It was too dreadful. I extricated myself as well as I could, and sunk half fainting on the nearest chair. The idea rushed into my mind, that, in my apartment, and, in *propria persona*, there was present—she of the well-spelt letter. It had not been a trick after all! An instant sufficed to make me fully sensible of the awkward scrape into which I had got, and at least a portion of its consequences, including the merciless jokes to which it would necessarily subject me at mess, and the more grave regard which it might attract from my commanding officer. I mentally execrated the rash folly of answering such a letter in such a style, and groaned to think that I was only made aware of this by experience.

"Eh, Wully, how very braw ye've turned sin' ye was made an offisher! but I daursay ye'll no deny that I'm weel put on mysel, and fit to be seen as your wife ony day. My freends saw to that before I cam awa, for we had mair sense than no ken that ye wad like to see me decent-like when ye introduissed me to your brother offishers and their leddies. Eh, truly, how glad I am to be here at last, and see my ain Wully again!"

Such was the address of my fair visitor, as she possessed herself of my easy smoking chair, and arranged herself in it with an air of the greatest possible freedom. Though nigh confounded with the horror of the occasion, I could not help taking a hasty glance of the being who seemed to have come on purpose to torment me, and beheld a coarse woman about thirty, overloaded with diverse-coloured finery, and bearing an aspect in which vulgarity was strangely relieved by an appearance of eccentricity. She had a large face, of fair complexion, slightly marked with small-pox, no eye-brows or lips, but a profusion of wiry ringlets; and I could observe, even at that moment, that, while all the rest of her clothes were of silk, she wore white woollen stockings and thick-soled shoes. She was evidently a woman of humble rank, and, I made no doubt, had actually been deserted by some sort of husband; but then I—unfortunate I, William Martyn, Esquire, of her majesty's ——th—was not the man!

"Madam," said I, "this seems to be a strange mistake on your part ——" but ere I could complete the sentence—

"Oh, nae mistak' ava," she broke in. "How can ye gang, Wully, to say that? Hae I no been sair eneuch tried already by your leaving me sae lang wi' the bairns, and are ye no gaun to be kind to me noo, and mak a' odds evens?"

"But, madam, you are mistaken, if you suppose me to be your husband. I never saw you in my life before: and you must or ought to know, from my appearance, that I am not the man."

"Eh, did ony body ever hear the like o' that?" she exclaimed; "to gang and say that you are no my man after a'! The very bairn here—our ain young Wully—wad ken ye, let-a-bee mysel, if it hadna been that he was only a sookin wean when ye gaed awa." And here she pointed to a member of the company whom I had not before observed; namely, a boy of about five years old, who was making strenuous efforts to get hold of my epaulets, as they lay on the table, fortunately beyond his reach.

"If this is your son, ma'am," said I, "I think he is rather a witness against than for you, as he shows that it must be several years since you were married. Now, I am only nineteen last birth-day, and, so far from being married years ago, I do not intend to be married for years to come."

"Ah, but ye're my ain Wully for a' that," said she; "nae doot something different fra what ye was whan ye keepit the 'pothecary shop i' the Stockwell; but then it's only your braws that hae changed ye. We a' ken that fine feathers mak fine birds, and that, in fack, as Jenny Haivers says, dress is everything. I'm no sure but some o' my ain auld neebors wad scarcely ken me, noo that I'm a dressed-up offisher's leddy. But ye've just the same bonny dark hair and whuskers that ever ye had, and the vera same rollin ee that first wan my puir virgin heart, waes me, that hae been a deserted meeserable woman for four lang year for want o' ye. Ah, Wully, it was an ill turn to gang awa leavin wife and bairns to tak care o' theirsels, and scarcely write a scrape o' a pen to me sin' syne. But let a' byganes be byganes, noo that I've gotten my Wully again, as the sang says. Somehoo, I aye thought ye wad get on to be something after a', for

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ye had aye a notion o' being up in the warld; and glad am I to find that I hinna been mista'en."

All this was addressed to me with such an accompaniment of coaxing and ingratiating looks, winks, and smiles, as would have at any other time made me expire with laughing. Alas! I felt but little disposition to mirth at that moment. Like Frankenstein, when visited at home by his monster, I could think of no better course than to leave my tormenter in possession of the field. It happened, too, that I was engaged that morning to breakfast with Major Ellis, commanding officer at our depôt, and to accompany him afterwards upon a shooting excursion. There was therefore little time to argue out the matter with my new Glasgow friend, or to take measures of any other kind to assure her of her error, or to get quit of her. This led me to a wrong step, which I afterwards had reason to repent of, though I did it for the best. With the hope of keeping her absurd story quiet, I asked her to remain in my lodgings till my return, under the care of Duval, who undertook to get breakfast ready immediately for her and her little boy. Then hastily accoutring myself for the field, I proceeded to Ellis's lodgings.

In the course of our forenoon's walk, Ellis shot beautifully, and quickly filled his bag; but I, though reputed his equal, missed every bird I aimed at. This excited his surprise, and, in connexion with sundry other marks of confusion in my conduct, induced him to ask if anything was the matter with me. I had previously determined to keep my own secret, but it now occurred to me that it might be as well to make a confidant of the major, as it was not impossible that he might yet have something more to do with the case. I therefore related to him the whole circumstances, only intreating that he would not communicate them to Mrs Ellis, or to any other person, unless as a corrective to any less faithful version of the story which might become public. He agreed to this, and we returned late in the morning to dress for mess. Inquiring for my unlucky visitor, I was informed by Duval that Madam Martyn—I think the rogue's eye twinkled as he pronounced the name—had left my rooms soon after breakfast, and had not since returned. It was almost with satisfaction that I found the immediate presence of the incubus taken off; but I could not suppress a dread that worse was yet to befall me. No sooner had I entered the anti-chamber which served our mess as a drawing-room, than I became mortifyingly aware that the whole affair was blown abroad. My appearance was the signal for a universal peal of laughter, in which Major Ellis himself could not help joining. Inquiries after Mrs Martyn's health, comments on her youth, beauty, and elegant style of speech, met me on every side. I was overwhelmed and stunned, insomuch that I scarcely knew which of my foes to face or reply to, or whether it would be most advisable to treat the matter seriously, or to take it as a joke. As the dinner proceeded, I heard nothing but lamentations that they were likely so soon to lose me as a regular member of the mess; but all agreed, with mock solemnity, that husbands *ought* to dine with their wives, if wives they had, and that many officers were improved by domestic life, though it was not the case with all. I soon ascertained that the fearful woman, on leaving my lodgings, had found her way to the quarters of the commanding officer, where, Ellis himself being from home, she had obtained an interview with Mrs Ellis, and made her acquainted with the story, following it up with the most strenuous averments that *I* was her missing husband, with no change but what dress and improved manners might easily account for. Mrs Ellis, a sharp lively Irishwoman, fond of a joke, and rather held in terror on that account in the regiment, took up the case in a moment, and with a serious air assured the stranger that there was no fear but Ellis would see her righted, supposing that she could make good her claim. Though, of course, feeling no doubt of my innocence, she could not suppress so glorious a quiz against the fine young ensign, but immediately commenced a round of morning calls, to laugh it all over with the other ladies of the depôt. In short, long before our return from the shooting excursion, "this strange story of young Martyn and a lady from Glasgow" had been repeated to everybody connected with the regiment.

I returned home that night with a burning heart, furious at my brother officers, at Mrs Ellis, and, above all, at my odious Scotch visitor. At an early hour next forenoon, I had a note from the major, begging me to step across the way; and when I obeyed the summons, the first object which met my eye in his parlour was the frightful Isabella. Mrs Ellis received me with an affectedly rigid and serious air, as if she felt that things were looking very bad for me; and even Ellis was scarcely so cordial as usual. I saw that I was to be put upon trial, but thought it best to submit to the inquest with a good grace.

"Well, Martyn, this is really a strange circumstance. Here comes a lady [a slight elevation of the eye-brows at the word lady] from Glasgow, to join you as your lawful wife. She insists that you are her husband, and I must say it is odd that you should have written a letter acknowledging her as your lady, and requesting her to come to you. I know you say that you thought her epistle a hoax of your brother officers; but how am I to be sure of this?"

I could not believe him half in earnest; but his address was annoying in any shape in which I could take it, and I hardly knew how to treat the matter, so ridiculous at once and so serious had it become.

"I assure you, my dear major," I said, "that I have given you a candid account of the affair of the letter. I wish my hand had been burnt when I wrote it; but certainly it was only with a view to turn back a bad joke upon its authors. If it has been the means of bringing this lady so far from home, I am sorry for it, and I shall be happy to make a proper reparation for the consequences of my unlucky *jeu d'esprit*."

"Aih, ye're just my ain Wully, now," interrupted the fair claimant, or plaintiff, as I may rather call her in the present circumstances. "Come, come, my dear, acknowledge me for your leddy at ance, and make nae mair wark about it. Aih, Wully, Wully, did I ever think to be disowned by ye, when lang syne ye used to court me on the Sunday nights, walking along the Gallowgate, or when we were livin' sae cozily in our bit back-shop in the Stockwell after we were married! It has been a sair weediehood to me sin' syne, this four lang year; but ye'll mak' it a' up to me yet. And the bairns, puir things, we'll hae them a' brought here, and they'll be sae glad to see their papa again. The best o' our days are afore us, Wully, my dear, if ye'll only listen to reason, and own me for your lawfu' wedded wife, as I am."

"Come now, Martyn," said Mrs Ellis, with the face which I knew she always had when bent on tormenting any poor wretch with her wit; "if this lady is really Mrs Martyn, why not say so at once? we'll all be glad to see her in the regiment; and consider what a lot of young recruits she brings with her. I must say her story tells wonderfully well, and I would say it is most likely you really are her husband, as I never yet knew any wife who might not have sung, as Mrs Gordon sometimes does—

> Weel would I my true love ken,
> Amang ten thousand Highlandmen.

Certainly she should know best. And really, it would be a great hardship to have come all the way from Glasgow, in search of a missing husband, and not get him after all. I fairly let you know I'm of Mrs Martyn's party."

"My dear Mrs Ellis," said I imploringly, "this is really no jesting matter, for the poor woman has surely been sufficiently deceived already. Upon my soul, I'm sorry for her, and I'll give her enough to pay for the expenses of this expedition, and a little more, if she'll only agree to go back and trouble me no more. My family is not known to any one here; but I have only to write to Cheltenham to get evidence of my having been a boy at Sandhurst at the time when this lady alleges I was keeping shop with her in some confounded street in Glasgow."

"Well," said the major, "let us hear what Mrs Martyn says to this."

"Oh, oh, what a hardened heart he has!" blubbered forth the lady in question. "To offer me siller to gang awa and no trouble him, when I'm his married wife, as sure, mem, as ye're your ain gudeman's! That's what I ca' adding insult to injury, mem; and nae honest woman can stand it. Isn't his name the same? And did we no hear, first, that he had got or was gettin into the service, and then see him put into the papers as a full ensign in the ——th; and then, wasna there my letter answered by him as my dutifu' lovin' husband, and a' the rest o't. And is he no the vera man, there where he stands—joost the exack hicht, the eedentical face and figure—a' the same, in fack, but the bits o' fine claes he's got on noo, as richt he should. My friends never misdooted that he was my man when they saw the letter, and that was the reason they made up a lock siller to fit me decently oot as an offisher's leddy; but hae na I the yevidence o' my senses into the bargain? Oh, Wully, ye're surely my ain man, and the bairns's father, and I can nae langer keep frae fawing i' your airms, little as ye may think o' me, for weel I wat nature's strong and maun hae her way."

And, ere I was aware, the fair tigress had actually precipitated herself upon me, and taken me firmly round the neck, while her slobbered face and dirty crumpled-up handkerchief reposed upon my bosom. It was the most embarrassing situation imaginable, for I was obliged to give her some support, to save the poor creature from falling; and on the other hand, there stood Mrs Ellis declaring that it was the most affecting reconnaissance and re-union she had ever beheld. Was ever gay young ensign in such a dilemma before? But I was now beginning to be a little savage at my situation, and strong and decisive measures were evidently becoming necessary.

"Woman!" I said, "take yourself away from me, and give up this shocking humbug, or I'll have you taken before a magistrate, whatever Major Ellis may say or do. I'm not to be hoaxed any longer in this way, I assure you. So be off, I tell you again. Do you hear me?"

But the poor creature had before this time fainted in my arms, a clear proof, at least, that she fully believed me to be her husband, though how she could mistake a mere stripling for a man who, from her own account, must have been at least thirty, was what I could not account for on any theory consistent with her possession of common reason. There, however, was she, in a genuine swoon, brought on evidently by the intensity of her feelings. Things had now reached a most distressing crisis to all of us, and even Mrs Ellis seemed affected. Between concern for my own honour, the sense of the ridiculousness of my situation, and pity for the unfortunate woman, I knew not what to do or say—when, just as my fair burden was coming to her senses, enters Curran, my groom, with a look which from the first I thought a herald of relief, and, addressing himself to Major Ellis, said, "Plaze you, sir, I think we've found the raal husband. We've been on the puzzle all morning, ye see, about this mighty odd business, and now we've sure got light on't."

"Well, my good fellow, tell us what you know."

"Why, then, major. This lady's right enough about her husband having joined the——th; but sorra a right she is about the man; that's all. It's not Ensign Martyn at all, at all, d'ye see, but William Martin, a poor private, like myself, in Captain Gordon's company."

"Can it be possible?" was the simultaneous exclamation of the whole party, excepting Mrs Martin, who seemed to listen in a kind of incredulous bewilderment.

"By the powers, it's as true as my name's Phil Curran. We thought the fellow looked rather quare this morning, and his wishing to be excused from parade confirmed us, your honour. So, Bill, says we, what if you are the lady's husband the sell o' thee? And he looked quite red, then, your honour. So we all fell upon him for desairting so swate a creature and her four small childher into the bargain, and it all ended in his not being able to say he was not the woman's husband, sorra take him for a skulker as he is."

"Bring up the fellow here instantly," cried the major, "and we'll have the affair settled one way or another at once."

While this order was in the course of being executed, I learned that private Martin was a superior sort of man, though of reserved manners, who was supposed to have seen better days, and to have enlisted under the pressure of want. He had conducted himself since he joined the regiment with so much propriety, that all his comrades thought him in the fair way of that promotion for which an education somewhat better than theirs seemed to qualify him. No one had anything to say against him, except that he kept himself much apart from his comrades, though this they excused, in consideration of his having once been better than they. All this was stated in presence and hearing of Mrs Martin, who said, "Weel, it 'll be a sair dooncome if my man's only a preevat; but yet it's better to hae a man o' some kind, than be a widow bewitched, that's neither fish, flesh, nor gude red herrin'. Jenny Haivers hersel wad allow that."

Martin soon appeared, and, when confronted with the fair lady of the Stockwell, looked as sheepish as I ever saw any man look in my life. It was rather odd that he did bear a considerable resemblance to me, though, I flatter myself, at a deuced long interval in some respects.

"Now, madam," said Ellis, "will you please say if either of these men is your husband, and which of them."

"Aih, losh, major! I'm sure that ane o' them maun be the man; but it's ill to say whilk ane it is. The ensign's sic a bonny lad, and sae like what my Wully was when I married him, that I could maistly swear he's the thing yet. But, again, when I take a look o' the tother ane, faith I believe I've been mista'en, and this is my ain Wully after a'!"

"To cut this matter short," said Martin, "I confess myself to be this woman's husband. I can only say, in excuse of my conduct, that it was misfortune in business which first made me leave her. I had some hopes of finding a new opening in Ireland, where I had some friends, and came here to see after it, but was disappointed. Instead of being able to send for my wife and children, I was in the greatest poverty myself, being only employed sometimes as a clerk by butchers. From shame, I ceased to write to her; and, besides, I heard that her brother, who is in tolerable circumstances, had taken charge of her. At last I was obliged to enlist as a common soldier. Yet I still intended, if I ever got any promotion, to ask her to join me. This is the plain truth, and the whole truth, I assure you, gentlemen. I am really sorry that Mr Martyn has been put to so much trouble. It is partly owing to my wife being not just so sharp in the judgment as some other people, as you all must have seen. If he considers this, and my own misfortunes, I hope he will excuse us both."

"A-weel, weel, Wully," said his wife, shaking him by the hand (how cool, compared with the accolade she bestowed upon me!), "we'll just mak it a' up, and I'll sell my braws, and tak up my quarters i' the barracks, and aiblins ye'll be as gude an ensign yet as Mr Martyn there, and sae I may be an offisher's leddy after a'."

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Matters were now accommodated to the satisfaction of all parties, and it only remains for me to say, that we soon got Mrs Martin and her blooming progeny comfortably settled. Martin has since got a couple of cheques across his arm, and his wife washes linen beyond all competition. Lacy and Power were confoundedly quizzical upon me for a month or two; but it's now all pretty well blown over, and a true Mrs Martyn is yet in the bosom of destiny.

"KOHL'S RUSSIA."—MOSCOW.*

Moscow, the grand old capital of Russia, differs entirely from its modern rival St Petersburg. The streets of the latter, observes our authority, are "so broad, the open places so vast, the arms of the river so mighty, that, large as the houses are in themselves, they are made to appear small by the gigantic plan of the whole. This effect is increased by the extreme flatness of the site on which the city stands. No building is raised above the other;" whereas in Moscow the streets are seldom sufficiently long to form a perspective, for the greater number of them wind like the paths of an English park, or like rivers meandering through fields. St Petersburg, again, rests upon a flat surface; Moscow is built upon hills, and presents, instead of the rigid regularity of the modern capital, a labyrinth of courts, shrubberies, and gardens, a mass of streets which nowhere take a direct business-like course, and give to it more the character of a suburb than of a city. "The houses do not stand in straight rows like soldiers, nor are they all of similar height and dimensions; one house will be large and magnificent, another small and paltry; one is painted white, another green, a third yellow. One stands boldly forward, seeking notice, another retreats within its little garden or stately court-yard, in which coaches-and-four are constantly circling. A city, in one sense of the word, that is, an assemblage of human dwellings pressed closely together, till they seem as if hewn out of one rock, Moscow is not, excepting perhaps the square verst contained in the Kremlin and Kitai Gorod." These are two of the five divisions of Moscow. The first, the Kremlin-hill, was the nucleus around which the ancient city was built, and is to Moscow what the Acropolis was to Athens, or the Capitol to Rome. It contains the imperial palace, a portion of which consists of what remains of the ancient palace of the czars. This hill has also a highly sacred character, thirty-two churches, including several cathedrals, resting upon it. The cathedral of St Michael incloses the tombs of the Russian sovereigns, from the time that Moscow became the capital (in 1147) till the demise of Peter the Great. In this quarter there is also the imperial museum, the arsenal, the palace of the patriarch, a nunnery, and a monastery. The second quarter, or Kitai Gorod, is the centre of trade. The Beloi Gorod (white town), or third division, is the seat of learning and education, and is also the residence of the governor and the troops. Its most remarkable building is an enormous covered military parade, or exercise house, within which the evolutions of 2000 foot and 1000 horse soldiers can be conveniently performed. Zemlianoi Gorod (earthen town, so called from an earthen rampart which once surrounded the city) is a miscellaneous assemblage of spirit stores, schools, a military victualling office, a philanthropic institution, a monastery, handsome public promenades, and houses of all grades. The fifth division is the Slobodi, or suburbs.

The great distinctive feature of Moscow is its religious character. It is the residence of two archbishops, and contains the most important ecclesiastical establishments in the empire. Thus, the Russio-Greek Christian regards Moscow with the same veneration that Mecca is looked on by a Mohamedan; but besides this, it is endeared to the heart of every Russian from other causes. By a kind of political fiction, it is still considered a capital; and it is here that the splendid coronation ceremony of the Russian emperors takes place. "In the Kremlin, everything is kept in constant readiness for the reception of the emperor, as if it were his usual residence. If we consider the position of Moscow in the very heart of Russia, how the stream of active and commercial life rolling hither from the Black, Caspian, White, and Baltic seas, find their natural centre on the fair hills of the Moskwa; how the whole acquires form and substance from this centre, and that the empire is, in fact, rather Moscovite than Russian, it will be evident that Moscow seems destined by nature, as well as by history, to be the capital of Russia, and must one day again become so. The Russian emperors, to a certain extent, acknowledge this, by admitting the before-named fiction to continue. In official documents, Moscow is always designated 'Stolnitza' (chief city), and the inhabitants call it 'nasha drevnaya stolnitza' (our old capital) with evident satisfaction. 'No foreigner can know what magic power these three words have over a Russian heart,' said Professor S—— once to me, as we drove out of Moscow, and took leave of his native city with tears in his eyes. He assured me that every Russian loved Moscow as much as *he* did, and yet more, and that even those who had never seen it, clung to the idea of the 'holy city' with the same devotion as to 'God and the emperor.' We may comprehend, then, how important a place for Russia that city must be, which, besides its 300,000 inhabitants, is also peculiarly the one to which many millions of loving eyes are directed."

The churches give to Moscow a most picturesque appearance. They are very numerous, and each has a small cupola rising from the roof, shaped like a bulb or onion, and painted, exteriorly, of the gaudiest colours the palette can afford, and often silvered or gilt; but from their "interior a gigantic picture looks down, whose enormous ugliness is much better calculated to scare than to assist devotion. It is generally the figure of the Redeemer, the Virgin, or of John, and in the centre cupola is the pictured form of an old grey-headed man, meant to represent the Father. The walls are usually painted, from top to bottom, with grotesque-looking saints and angels, all pretty much in the style of the fifteen-ell-long Mary in the church of Marienberg in Russia, and the Roland of Bremen. Fortunately, they are pretty well faded, and it will hardly occur to any in the coming century to restore them. The centre cupola is supported by four pillars so immoderately thick, that they diminish the space of the church very considerably.

In the north of Russia, the severity of the climate has introduced the use of summer and winter churches. They are generally under one building, the summer church being placed above the winter one. The former is lofty, airy, and light in the upper or second storey of the edifice: the latter is a low dark vault, in which light and air are sparingly admitted. There are many of these double churches in St Petersburg, and also in Moscow. In the new churches stoves are introduced instead, and the entrances provided with double doors. When, in addition to the warm air and the stoves, we have the tick of a house-clock, these churches have quite the effect of sitting-rooms."

The custom of placing clocks in church towers is wholly unknown in Russia; hence, a common house clock is sometimes set up in the interior. In some places the hours are struck by a watchman upon a bell. There are no belfrys attached to the churches, but the bells are placed in a detached building, and even, in some instances, are hung upon the branches of a neighbouring tree. Bell-ringing, as an art, is at the lowest ebb; the science of double and triple bob-majors being utterly unknown. "It is a curious sight," Kohl remarks, "to see a Russian ringer begin his work. He does not put the bells themselves in motion; indeed, they have no clapper. To every bell a moveable hammer is attached, and, from the hammers, strings are passed to the ringer. If he have only two to ring, he sits down and pulls on either side alternately. But when he has many, he holds some in his hands, fastens another to his back, and sets others in motion with his legs. The motions he is obliged to make have a most comic effect; a former czar found the business so diverting, that he used generally to ring them himself in the court church. What renders this noise so disagreeable is, that the people never allow the sounds to succeed in measured time, but hammer away, right and left, like smiths upon an anvil; however, the bells are not attuned to each other, but clash one against the other in fearful discord. The bell-founder's art is a very old one in Russia. Herodotus already speaks of great castings of metal as practised in the Scythian land."

The commercial importance of Moscow is also very considerable; as, from its central situation, it is the entrepôt for most of the internal trade of the empire. Some idea of its trade may be formed from the annexed description of the *gostinnoi dvor* (bazaar), or principal market of Moscow. "It is a colossal building of three storeys; three rows of pillars and three rows of shops stand, one above another, connected together by countless passages and steps. Beneath is the greatest crowd, above the greatest commerce. In these courts and galleries, from year's end to year's end, is the greatest standing warehouse of the empire, and a continual fair. Hither, from the Black Sea, streams all that the Levant can produce; from the Baltic, the produce of Western Europe; from Siberia, what China and Tartary yield. Moscow is the centre of the whole interior traffic of Russia. Along the galleries long-bearded Russians and black-robed Persians, with their pointed sheep-skin caps, were roaming about; silken-clad Bokharians rustled by, and Tartars and Greeks sat on the balustrades reckoning their gains. The gostinnoi dvor has magazines and shops for the most considerable merchants of Moscow, who trade here wholesale only, and are more than nine hundred in number."

The retail trade is carried on in the Ryädi, which signifies, literally, rows of shops. "The number of shops in the Ryädi are not less than twelve hundred, all united under one common roof. Not only the shops, but the passages between, are covered, but the roof is so awkwardly constructed, that in the strongest sunshine people stumble in darkness, and after the slightest shower wade through mud. It would be difficult, nevertheless, to find a market of a more cheerful character than the Moscow Ryädi, not that it can be said the Russian merchants are more indifferent to gain than others, but they have, notwithstanding their lust of gain, a cheerfulness of temperament wholly wanting to the German and English merchant. The Russians carry on their business in the midst of praying, tea-drinking, ball and draughts, playing, laughing, and gossiping. Their appetite is always ready, and nearly as many sellers of edibles are to be met with here as customers, with everything necessary for breakfast ready prepared, including plates and knives and forks. They play at ball in the narrow passages between their shops, making use of a great leathern ball filled with air, which is struck by the foot. But the favourite game is draughts, which they play before their doors, in the shops, and sometimes in the middle of the street; however, they neither play for money nor bet; they love their kopeks too well to expose them to such danger. The whole range of shops are plentifully adorned with pictures of saints nailed to the beams, with lamps burning before them, singing birds in cages, and whole flights of pigeons, which nestle under the eaves of the shops, and are cherished and fed by the owners as a kind of sacred bird. The merchandise is arranged here, as elsewhere, in masses, not promiscuously; here a range of thirty shops for paper, another range for spices, a third for ornamental articles, a fourth for pictures of saints."

Nor is literature neglected in Moscow, which boasts of thirty booksellers' shops. "Among them are some that have a stock of not less than 100,000 volumes. Those of Glasunoff and Shireinoff are the principal ones. The latter is said to have 200,000 volumes in his shop. In 1806, there were only three booksellers of any consequence in the city; in 1808, four; and in 1810, six. After 1812, however, whose flames appear to have exercised a wonderfully stimulating effect on the minds of the Russians, the number of the venders of literature increased rapidly to ten, then to twenty, and at last to thirty. Before 1812, the annual average of spelling-books consumed in Moscow was 10,000. Immediately after that memorable year, the number increased to 30,000, and in 1837, no less than 200,000 civil and ecclesiastical primers found customers. The Viedomosti, the celebrated newspaper of Moscow, that has now been published since 1761, had only 2000 subscribers before 1812. Immediately after that year, the number rose to 6000, and the regular sale is now 12,000 copies. The taste for reading is greatly on the increase among the trading and lower classes. I often observed a group of merchants' servants sitting together, listening to one who read aloud; nor were the books selected bad ones. Karamsin's History of Russia was one I often saw in their hands."

In 1835, Moscow numbered between nine and ten thousand houses, seven cathedrals, twenty-one monasteries, and churches as follows—two hundred and forty-five Greek, two Roman Catholic, three Protestant, two English, three Armenian chapels, and a Turkish mosque.

We must not take leave of the two capitals of Russia, without some allusion to a climate, the severity of which, both from heat and cold, excites so much remark from travellers. To give one an idea of a Russian winter, M. Kohl, with his usual tact, commences with the graphic expedient of an anecdote. "In the year 1836," he says, "and in the month of December, a man threw a piece of apple-peel out of his little air window in Moscow. The peel of the apple did not reach the street, but happening to strike against the ledge of the window, froze fast to it, and remained ice-bound on its way from the window to the street, till it was set free by a thaw somewhere in the month of February, and was enabled to complete the journey on which it had set out six weeks and three days previously. This may afford a tolerable notion of the severity and perseverance of a Moscovite winter.

Such a thing could not have occurred in St Petersburg, for in the marshy delta of the Neva, the temperature is more variable than in central Russia. The icy winds that blow from Siberia are, in some measure, tempered by the influence of the Baltic. Rainy west-winds, freezing north-easters, thick fogs, and cheerful frosty days, are succeeding each other constantly, and keep up a struggle for mastery throughout the whole of the six months' winter. A man is as little secure against rain and mud in January, as against frost and snow in April. In Moscow, on the contrary, the sky was never known to drop a single tear of rain in December; and neither among the records of the city, nor the traditions of its inhabitants, will you trace one instance of a pair of boots having been spotted with mud in January.

It is only when the cold falls to an unusual degree of severity that any change takes place. When the thermometer stands at 20 degrees (Reaumur),* every man pricks up his ears, and becomes a careful observer of its risings and fallings. At 23 or 24 degrees the police are put on the alert, and the officers go round, day and night, to see that the sentinels and *butshniks* keep awake. Should any one be found nodding at his post, he is summarily and severely punished, for sleep at such a time is a sure state of transition from life to death. At 25 degrees, all the theatres are closed, as it is then thought impossible to adopt the necessary precautions for the safety of the actors on the stage, and of the coachmen and servants waiting in the street. The pedestrians, who at other times are rather leisurely in their movements, now run along the streets as though they were hastening on some mission of life and death, and the sledges dash in *tempo celeratissimo* (double quick time) over the creaking snow. I don't know the reason, but 20 degrees of cold in St Petersburg signify a great deal more than in Germany, and are attended by more

* Russia. Part I. St Petersburg and Moscow. By J. G. Kohl; forming vol. i. of the Foreign Library. London: Chapman and Hall.

* Considerably below our zero.

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injurious consequences. Faces are not to be seen in the streets, for every man has drawn his furs over his head, and leaves but little of his countenance uncovered. Every one is uneasy about his nose and his ears; and as the freezing of these desirable appendages to the human face divine is not preceded by any uncomfortable sensation to warn the sufferer of his danger, he has enough to think of if he wish to keep his extremities in order. 'Father, father, thy nose!' one man will cry to another as he passes him, or will even stop and apply a handful of snow to the stranger's face, and endeavour, by briskly rubbing the nasal prominence, to restore the suspended circulation. These are salutations to which the people are accustomed, and as no man becomes aware of the fact when his own nose has assumed the dangerous chalky hue, custom prescribes, among all who venture into the streets, a kind of mutual observance of each other's noses, a custom by which many thousands of these valued organs are yearly rescued from the clutches of the Russian Boreas. A man's eyes at this season cost him some trouble likewise, for they are apt to freeze up every now and then. On such occasions it is customary to knock at the door of the first house you come to, and ask permission to occupy a place for a few minutes by the stove. This is a favour never denied, and the stranger seldom fails to acknowledge it on his departure, by dropping a grateful tear on the hospitable floor."

This book gives the clearest insight into Russian habits, manners, and general statistics, of any work on the subject which we have hitherto consulted. Though sometimes minute, M. Kohl is never tedious, because he always manages to combine, with the most trifling matter, allusions or comparisons that make it interesting, from the vivid manner with which it is conveyed to the reader's mind. The English translator's task has also been most creditably executed.

The undertaking, of which the volume is a commencement, deserves the most extensive success. It promises to complete a task the Foreign Quarterly Review has so well begun—that of affording the British public an insight into the best current literature of the continent.

THE BOURBONNAIS.

THE division of France into departments has in one respect failed in its intention; namely, that of annihilating the distinction between the different races of which the old provinces were composed. It will require some other power than the decrees of any party, however strong and influential they may be, to obliterate the characteristic features, the habits, the external form, and the mental manifestations of the Breton, the Norman, the Gascon, the Burgundian, and the Bourbonnais. In Paris, every citizen may, by imitation and exertion, overcome or conceal those things in which he differs from the world of Paris. But a gradual change is taking place; daily and hourly, the provincials are acquiring knowledge, and with that knowledge a consciousness of their power; and Paris will cease to be France long before the different races of its population lose their characteristic distinctions. The Normans are decidedly the finest of the tribes in person, and the most advanced in intellect; the natives of Touraine probably the ugliest; the Bretons the most uncivilised; so that locality has nothing to do with these divisions. The Bretons and their Norman neighbours, placed in juxtaposition, vary as much as the ancestors of the Cwmry and the Northmen of centuries gone by. These provinces are perhaps more known to the English traveller than many of the central parts of France; the Bourbonnais, for instance, offers far less temptation to our ramblers than the high route to Paris, or the neighbouring shores of Bretagne and Normandy; but the Bourbonnais has many objects of interest in various localities.

Bourbon L'Archambaud, which may be called the central attraction of the district, is the cradle of the royal race;* it can boast its Roman antiquities, its tales of the old heroes of Gaul, its traditions of the Bourbon chiefs. It has, too, its baths and its visitors attracted by that powerful spell; but still, the baths of Bourbon L'Archambaud are not much celebrated in England or other European lands, though the greatest names in France have figured amongst "the company" from the days of the Bourbon princes to those of Prince Talleyrand, whose tenacity to life seemed to gain in intensity as its close drew nearer and more inevitable. In days of yore, too, these baths were visited by Madame de Montespan; first in the splendour of a royal mistress, with royal guards and courtiers, six maids of honour, equipages with six horses, and all the parade of that weakest and vainest of animals—Louis le Grand; but the love of the monarch cooled; another vanity filled his thoughts; and, in 1707, Madame de Montespan, the rejected favourite, was again at Bourbon L'Archambaud, sinking under her mortified feelings, nervous and dispirited, anticipating death with more than common alarm, and so fearful of the event, that though in no apparent danger, she could not endure to be left alone for a moment. During the night, her chamber was illuminated with twenty enormous wax tapers, and a number of attendants watched by her bed-side. A slight attack of illness threw them into great alarm; and La Marechale de Coeuries, the chief amongst them, without waiting the arrival of a physician, administered so violent an emetic, as to bring the patient into the very danger she sought to avoid. The certainty of her approaching fate, however, restored to the patient her energy of mind, and she became tranquil and resigned, to the great edification of her ladies. Her only legitimate son, the Marquis D'Antin, was summoned to the deathbed of his mother, and flew with all the speed his horses could give him. He rushed into the apartment, and threw himself upon her neck in a transport—not of grief or filial affection; no—but of anxiety to possess himself of a key she wore suspended to her person, and which belonged to a casket containing her valuable jewels and papers of importance. Having obtained possession of these treasures, the affectionate son returned to his carriage, and left to others to perform the last duties to his parent. The organ of acquisitiveness in this gentleman was so largely developed, that, amongst other instances of its activity, it is recorded, that the dauphin, son of Louis XIV., having one day gained a large sum of louis-d'ors at play, had carelessly thrown them into his hat, which was held by the Marquis D'Antin; but the fortune of the game changing, his royal highness had recourse to the deposit of his winnings—rather before his friend was aware of his intention—for he encountered the hand of the marquis conveying the coin into his own pocket. "Pardon me, my friend," said the dauphin, "but, for a partnership to be legal, the consent of both parties is requisite. I have not yet given mine."

The town of Bourbon has not much to boast of architectural beauties, the hands of the republicans having destroyed the glories of the St Chapelle—a splendid work of the middle ages, which held the remains of several of the princes of Bourbon, and its towers being in some degree the emblems of the race; for it is a curious fact, that on the same day in the year 1589, when the hand of Jacques Clement struck the sole remaining male heir of the elder branch of the Bourbons, in the person of Henry III., the lightning from heaven struck the lofty tower of the holy chapel at Bourbon, and levelled it with the ground. The building suffered again from the same cause in 1648, when all the bells in the tower were destroyed, one of which was said to have been of considerable value. A number of wealthy and distinguished visitors who chanced to be at Bourbon at the time when the bell was founded, attended the ceremony, and threw into the furnace a large quantity of silver coin. But the final destruction of the St Chapelle was contemporary with the fall of the monarch. A band of sans culottes, with drums and trumpets, and a cannon to aid in the havoc, marched most gallantly against this splendid edifice, defended only by some centuries of veneration. An explosion of their artillery in the nave sufficed to shatter the magnificent windows, whose stained glass had been an object of universal admiration. To destroy the carved work with axes and saws, the pictures with swords and pikes, to guillotine the statues of the saints, to sack the treasury and the altars, were easy feats to these heroes; and the honours of zealous and worthy citizens of the great republic were gained, with little danger and difficulty, whilst the zeal of patriotism, advancing in its glorious course, most beneficially for the cause of liberty, changed the name of the town itself, and Bourbon L'Archambaud became regenerated under the name of Burges les Bains. But its old designation soon superseded this new title, and the baths of Bourbon have still their visitors and their worshippers, who vouch for the miracles of healing its waters have effected, through the suspension of ex voto crutches and beds.* Wooden legs and spectacles, no longer required by their wearers, are less numerous, perhaps, than in the days of yore; yet what is of more importance still to the visitors, the hotels are very much improved, so are the public promenades, and the balls are delightful. What more can be required by those who visit the baths of Bourbon, or Baden, or Cheltenham, or Spa?

The neighbourhood Bourbon has several spots of legendary interest; in the direction of Vieuse are the remains of an old baronial residence. In examining the spot, a peasant pointed out what he told me was the remains of the famous tower; but, alas! I was ignorant even of the existence of the mighty Barons de la Celle, and of their magnificent chateau, till within a few hours of my visit. However, not to expose my want of information more than I could avoid, I only asked for the history of the "famous tower," which had formed the western angle of the building. It had been destroyed by lightning, in consequence of a great crime committed by a very wicked nobleman, who was a wizard, and everything that was bad, &c. With some trouble, and by the aid of other elucidations, I made out the following tale:—

A certain Count de Montguyon, chief of one of the oldest and most distinguished families of the Bourbonnais, was young, handsome, rich, and profligate—a very Don Juan in his day; but this day was but a short one; and at twenty-five, the young count had gained so bad a reputation, and wasted so much of his property, that, finding a change of life inevitable, he resolved to make it effective, and taking the cross, departed for the holy land, then the fashionable resort of the roués of the time. After a time, the pilgrims who returned from the east brought tidings of the young crusader, whose sword and lance had done good service in the Christian cause, and wrought the Saracens proportionate annoyance.

Years rolled on, and the count returned not till the generation which had witnessed his evil deeds had passed away, or had nearly forgotten them, in the brighter fame he had acquired in the plains of Syria. After an absence of five-and-twenty years, the Count de Montguyon appeared again in his native Bourbonnais, and presented himself at the chateau of his relative, Seigneur de la Celle. Though fifty years had now passed over the head of the crusader, and sprinkled his thick black curls with some silver hairs, yet his bold and martial figure, the flashing of his large dark eye, and the noble expression of his haughty and still handsome features, remained; he was not a guest to be slighted or coldly received; and whether from policy or affection, the Chatelain of La Celle received him with cordiality, and Montguyon became for some time an inmate of the chateau, whose lord, of course, had a young and lovely daughter. Like Desdemona, she listened to the doughty deeds, the combats, the hair-breadth escapes of the count, and all his tales of land and flood, till, forgetful of his years and all beside her admiration of her hero, Louise de la Celle became deeply enamoured, whilst the object of her love seemed to pay but little regard to the conquest he had made, and the poor maiden began to fade as if from some unknown and undiscoverable disease, till a slow fever seemed to have brought her nearly to her grave. But during some of the wanderings of her thoughts, the secret was disclosed, and imparted to Montguyon, who received it at first with apparent wonder, and then with unbounded gratitude and love. Matters were soon arranged, the crusader and his youthful bride stood before the altar to pledge their mutual faith in the presence of all the assembled relatives of their houses, the bridegroom had just placed the ring on the finger of the bride, when she was seen to turn pale. A cold trembling shook her limbs, the ashy hue of death spread over her lovely features, and she fell a corpse at the foot of the altar. At the same time, a thick cloud was observed to roll along the roof of the chapel; the tapers were extinguished, and a horrible laugh (so says the legend), shook the whole building; and at the same time a voice, which terrified still more the trembling crowd, exclaimed, "Montguyon, I have brought the bride to the altar, my promise is fulfilled, now keep yours!" A flash of lurid light broke from the darkness, and showed the figure of the count like a statue of stone; but when the flash had passed away, the place was void. Montguyon was seen no more. The body of the fair bride was carried to the nuptial-chamber, which had been prepared in the western tower, and now became her bier. Soon after, a storm, such as the valley of the Vieuse had never witnessed, burst over the chateau; and when the morning dawned, the burning embers of the tower showed only the funeral pile of the unfortunate maiden. During the lapse of ages, the tower has been several times restored; but no sooner is it completed, than the lightning again lays it low.

Such is a sample of the popular traditions of this ignorant race, who are immersed in all sorts of superstitions, and trace many of the ordinary phenomena of nature to the influence of demons, witches, and fairies. But with this far from uncommon defect, the traveller will find much to amuse and much to please him in the character of the Bourbonnais. Their bargaining and manœuvring is such, that they will exert as much intrigue in buying a cow or in selling a few feet of ground, as a diplomatist of the school of Talleyrand in concluding an international treaty; and their love of finery is so well-known, that it has become a proverb—"Bourbonichon habit de velours et ventre de soi." But with all their faults of levity and carelessness in some things, they are a most kind and hospitable race, and the brighter parts of their character throw far into the shade the defects and failings natural to man in every clime, from Indus to the pole.

* This ancient place of resort is situated near the centre of France, at about 170 miles south-east from Paris.

* Dr Regnault, a physician, inspector of the baths, recently published an account of their virtues. Out of 6180 persons who have used them, 2769 have been cured, and 2905 greatly relieved; the heat of the water is 60 degrees, and it rises in such abundance, that it yields 2400 cubic feet in 24 hours.

ISLE OF SKYE.

Of Skye, a rugged island on the west coast of the Scottish Highlands, the following notice has lately been made in a Perth newspaper:—"The years are but comparatively few since there were no roads in Skye, and, consequently, no conveyances, such as carts, gigs, vehicles, &c., which are now as numerous as in any other country. Travelling was then no less arduous than dangerous; and at many times it could not be at all effected, when the mountains poured down their rapid torrents into the contracted valleys underneath. But the case is now otherwise. The whole isle is intersected with beautiful roads. Its rivers and rivulets are severally crossed with substantial bridges. The good Hebridean has no longer to guess the distance which he walks, or to form his long Highland miles in imagination. His ways are marked and measured with firmly-fixed hewn granite mile-stones, and each stone is formed into three faces, on which are figured the distances from localities of importance. The march of improvement is equally apparent in the post-office department. At present, the mails arrive from the Scottish metropolis three times a-week, at the remotest corner of Skye, in the space of about forty-eight hours. Let this be contrasted with the state of letter-conveyance less than half a century ago, as many in the place still freshly recollect. There were then no public roads be-

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tween Skye and Inverness, and, consequently, no mail-gigs or post-horses as at present. How, then, it may be asked, were the letters carried? They were conveyed from the Highland capital to Skye, and *vice versa*, by a sturdy Hebridean, who was hired for the purpose by the resident gentlemen, at the low rate of about five shillings for each trip. Owing to the great distance to be performed, to the want of public roads, and the difficulties of the journey, Norman's visit from Inverness could hardly be looked for more frequently than twice a-month or so."

ON A MYSTERIOUS CIRCUMSTANCE CONNECTED WITH SCOTTISH GASTRONOMY.

BY AN OVERGROWN SCHOOL-BOY.

PORRIDGE of oatmeal is the universal breakfast of the humbler classes, and of the young of nearly all classes, in Scotland; and a very nice pleasant meal it makes, particularly with good butter-milk:

"The halesome parritch, chief of Scotia's food,"

sings Burns, in his Cotter's Saturday Night. But there is a mysterious circumstance connected with porridge, which seems to merit attention. Boys are very frequently found to be under a peculiar irritability when regaling themselves upon it. Take any young specimen of human voracity at any other of his eight or ten meals during the day, and you may joke with him and at him in every sort of way, without the least chance of putting him out of humour. But, at his porridge! why, a word, a cough, a look, a mere glance of the eye, will then be sufficient to put him into a passion. Down goes the spoon; upside down, perhaps, goes the porringer of milk; and off sets the indignant juvenile with such a bounce, that you look to see if he has not, Sampson-like, carried off the door-posts with him! This conduct would be intelligible enough, if you were to make any remark really calculated to offend—for instance, if you were to insinuate that you had seen a mouse making free with the meal which was employed in making the porridge. But that a young man of twelve or thirteen should be so touchy, as to fling off at a mere word or look, seems inexplicable. I have known a youth forsake his mess for no other cause than because some one came near him. The fact is, it is hardly possible to avoid offending a boy under these nice and critical circumstances.

It behoves parents, servants, and all persons concerned about youth, to beware of a boy at his porridge. Who that has ever lived in a large family, has not deeply-impressed reminiscences of the vexation and dismay generated throughout a whole house, when the word passed, that George had bolted, and left half his porridge! Eagerly rushing to the children's parlour, six or eight persons would be seen gazing, breathless with consternation, at the unfinished mess and overturned porringer, Mr Juvenile, meanwhile, having rushed no one knows whither. "Ah, something has been *said*," remarks the particular female whose favourite George is, and who takes his part on all occasions: "some one must have affronted him, or he would never have left so much of his porridge—poor boy!" There is no doubt that George was affronted; but it was by something so inconceivably trifling, that no one could pretend to say what it was. George, however, is seen no more till his return from school in the afternoon, by which time, I guess, he is considerably a-hungered. Again, I say, beware of a boy at his porridge.

One thing is very clear, that boys consider themselves as conferring an obligation by taking this particular meal. They are somewhat grateful for other meals; but, in taking their porridge, they feel that they are doing their parents a favour. Does this lead us a step nearer to the cause of the strange ticklishness which they betray at their porridge? I fear not; for the question arises, Why do they suppose themselves conferring an obligation by the taking of porridge, and not by the taking of other things, none of which are observably better? We have got to the tortoise supporting the elephant; but what supports the tortoise? It is, however, rather a curious feeling, this of the boys—perhaps some ancient tradition of the boy-part of mankind from the times when the race itself was in its boyhood. Break up a party at dominoes, and order it off to bed, a little before it is inclined to go, and you will hear low muttered threats passing round, to the effect, that not one of them will sup more than the half of his porridge next morning. Not unlikely, the least little fellow amongst them, raised to a pitch of enthusiasm by the general strain of remark, ejaculates, "I will not even taste mine!" It is certainly a prevailing notion amongst boys in Scotland, that the porridge is a fulcrum on which to rest in all sorts of designs against their seniors. Their taking or not taking this farinaceous aliment is a grand point in the relation subsisting between them and their parents. They feel that it is a most alarming thing to a parental bosom to think of a boy deserting his porridge, or threatening not to take it. It is the only ready way, but it is a capital one, of "doing" the governor and all his myrmidons. They here know that they have the whip-hand of all the authorities over them; and assuredly the proverb holds good, that, though one man may lead a horse to the water, twenty may not be able to induce him to drink. All of these things, I say again, we know very well, for they are as plain as the food in question; but still the mystery remains unsolved, How should it be supposed that a threat to abandon porridge will be potent over the dignitaries of the establishment, and not a threat to abandon any other thing?

Strange, indeed, that so wholesome a dish should be so liable to be abused! Perhaps there is not a species of food in existence which is so highly spoken of by those who do not take it, as porridge. Its virtues are extolled in all companies. Scotsmen in general swear by it. Yet true it is, and of verity, that it is this particular dish, of all others, which boys esteem it an obligation to their parents to take. Can it be that this food, notwithstanding the high character which it bears, has some quality which boys feel to be unpleasant? Or is it, that the young rogues have detected that it is given to them as an economical kind of nutriment? Or has the mere anxiety invariably manifested to get them to "sup out" their porridge, raised a spirit of contradiction in them? There must be some cause, if we only could find it out. Seeing that boys will show such sauciness towards this meal, how would it do to supply them with a considerably less quantity than is generally served up? But I am speaking that never had a son. I must leave this question to those who are acquainted practically, as well as theoretically, with the rising generation.

Only allow me, in conclusion, a very small general remark. Suppose a boy that regularly sups out, peaceably and quietly, his mess of porridge every morning—nay, further (but he must be a real phenomenon), actually makes his own porridge when he sees the servants busily employed—happy, happy the parents of such a son; for, assuredly, he will one day or other rise to be a provost, or a bailie at least, in despite of every obstacle that may lie in his way!

A NIGHT AT A GERMAN VILLAGE.

THE following graphic account of a night's lodging at a small inn or dorf in a German village, occurs in Mr Howitt's "Rural and Domestic Life of Germany."

"This night we slept at a dorf amongst the hills. But who can sleep in a German dorf, especially on a summer's night? At ten o'clock the watchman commences his rounds. In some cases he has a rattle, with which he introduces and concludes his call of the hour. In other cases a horn, which he blows lustily, on the good old principle of waking all the people every hour, to let them know that he is on duty, and at the same time, if any thieves are about, to give them notice to keep out of his way. Besides springing his rattle or blowing his horn, he sings out a rustic rhyme, varying it every hour with some piece of advice or moral saw. As in an old and very pious one:—

Hear, my masters, what I tell!
Two has struck now by the bell.
Two paths before our steps divide;
Man beware, and well decide.
Human watch no good can yield us.
God will watch us, God will shield us.
May he, through His heavenly might,
Give us all a happy night.

Hear, my masters, what I tell!
Three has struck now by the bell.
Threefold is what's hallowed most—
The Father, Son, and Holy Ghost.
Human watch, &c.

Hear, my masters, what I tell!
Four has struck now by the bell.
Four times our lands we plough and dress;
Thy heart, O man, till'st thou that less?
Human watch, &c.

Some watchmen are fond of a different, of a jocose and satirical strain—warn their neighbours to beware of fire and thieves, and to take good care of their wives and daughters. Thus they go on from ten till four o'clock, some with a longer story, some with a shorter. In the mean time, as if the hourly watchman was not enough of a public disturber, on the church-tower is stationed a still more pestilent rogue. This is the fire watch, who often lives up in the church-tower with his family. His business is to walk round the tower every quarter of an hour through the night, and watch if any fire is anywhere breaking out, either in this or the adjoining dorfs. Every quarter of an hour out he comes, marches round the balcony of the steeple, gives a tremendous and dolorous blast of his horn; and if he luckily spies out a fire, rings lustily the alarm bell, or fires off a gun. In some towns a cannon is fired off when a fire is discovered breaking out anywhere in the night. If it be in the town itself, it is fired once; if in the country, twice.

The street-watchman and the fire-watchman aloft having kept up this disturbance very manfully till about two o'clock, the cocks also crowing against one another from every part of the place, by that time all the hamlet is astir. They begin to let out their geese, which fly rejoicing, making a most infernal clangour up and down the streets, till the goosemaid or boy, with infinite pains and prolongation of the hubbub, collects them together, and drives them out to the common feeding-ground. Then come out the cattle. There is a lowing here and a lowing there, as first one and then another bauer lets his loose, and they make their way to the village brunnen to drink, and then the cowherd collects them, or they are again immured in their stalls. Then rush out herds of swine, more wild and bedeviled than those which ran headlong into the sea in the country of the Gadarenes; huge, gaunt, long-legged, arch-backed, greyhound-stomached, with snouts double the length of any reasonable hogs' snouts, and manes like their cousins-german, the wild boars. Out they bolt savagely, here and there, as their various styes are opened, with screams and horrid guffaws, shaking each other by the ears, and scouring like hounds up the street; while the swineherd with his heavy-lashed whip, which he slings behind him, with enormous sweeps and snatches in a style peculiar to himself, makes the streets echo with so many musket shots. This larum, mixed with plentiful quackling of ducks, rumbling of wagons, smacking of wagon whips, cries of children beginning to play, and loud talking and greetings of the people going along, being somewhat abated, at three o'clock a bell rings, a band of musicians mount the church-tower, and there, with pipes and voices, commence lustily Luther's Morning Hymn.

A fine old hymn is that of Luther, and a very pious and poetical custom is this of sounding it forth from the church-tower in a morning; but to the ears of weary travellers a little too soon, rather a little too soon, is this three-o'clock serenade. Yet, if one could but ejaculate a hasty prayer at 'this sweet hour of prime,' turn over and sleep again, it would not be much amiss. But at four, the watchman goes off his post, and having it in commission from certain heavy sleepers to arouse them before he departs, he now goes from one door to another, thumps loudly with his staff, rings a bell if there be one, bawls up to the chamber-window, and having pretty well wakened the whole place, and being barked at by all the pent-up dogs in it, goes home, no doubt, with a very pleasing feeling of well-discharged duty, and with your hearty curse to boot. Now swarms the whole living hamlet abroad; children play, bauers shout and talk, wagons rumble on more livelily than ever, troops of men and women are seen going off to the fields with hoes or rakes over their shoulders, and just as your are dropping to sleep, your coachman knocks at your door, and tells you that it is five, and the carriage ready below; for in summer, if you do not mean to be baked alive on the road, you must make good use of your mornings and evenings."

THE NIMBUS.

THE Nimbus is a Latin term signifying literally a storm-cloud, but metaphorically a woman's veil, and is employed by artists to express that halo with which they are pleased to surround the head of the Divinity or holy personages, when represented in paintings. On the origin and character of this species of symbol, some interesting papers have lately appeared in the Literary Gazette.* The practice of indicating holy personages in pictures by the nimbus did not originate with the early Christian or Catholic painters. It was borrowed, according to M. Didron's opinion, from the ancient creeds of the east, for its prototype may be recognised in the flame-like symbol with which the Persians and other oriental nations surrounded the heads of their deities, and of their famous individuals. In the royal library at Paris are several Buddhist books, illuminated with portraits of saints who have devoted themselves to Buddh; these are enveloped with the flaming emblem. The same thing appears with some of the Hindoo gods. The ancient Greeks and Romans also used figures of a similar kind, to indicate a divinity or a hero. In the paintings of Herculaneum, Circe appears to Æneas with her head encircled by a nimbus like that of the Virgin Mary and the Christian saints. In the Vatican at Rome, there is an illuminated copy of Virgil's works, in which pictures of Cassandra and Priam of Troy are ornamented in like manner. Indeed that author expressly states, that the nimbus is a luminous fluid, which encircles the heads of the divine personages.

The adoption of the nimbus by the Christians doubtless began with the chaplet or crown placed upon men who distinguished themselves by some noble action; a custom which affords explanation of the crown of thorns thrust in derision upon the head of the Saviour. In the first ages of Christianity, therefore, a crown became the recompense and symbol of martyrdom; and among the earliest monuments of Christian art, the hand of the Almighty is seen descending from the clouds to place a crown or wreath on the head of a martyr. This crown afterwards gave place to a line, resembling a ring, which completely encircled the head; but it was not till the sixth century that the nimbus became uniformly attached to representations of holy persons. From that period, it took forms varying according to the spiritual rank of the personages to whom it was assigned. The nimbus attributed to the Deity had the space between the circle, which formed it and the head, filled up with a cross. This cross, in representations of Christ, was sometimes inscribed with two Greek syllables, signifying, "he who is." The Latins substituted the word *rex*, or "king." The angels and saints were in most instances distinguished by the plain outline. The nimbus of the Virgin Mary, however, and that of the apostles, is sometimes ornamented with a hem of small pearls, or with arched lines of foliage. Occasionally, the oldest specimens of art exhibit not only the head, but the hand of the Deity with the halo. In an Italian manuscript of the fourteenth century, the Father is represented with half his body out of the clouds, scattering his grace over the earth in the form of rays

* Translated from an article by Monsieur Didron, in a French publication, called, "The General Review of Architecture and Public Works."

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darting from his hands. Around the head is a square nimbus, which, it should be observed, was an exclusive peculiarity of the early Italian artists.

With the progress and refinement of art, the nimbus was altered in character and name. Its first change made it appear, by means of a trembling and uneven line, like a luminous circle; then the line disappeared altogether, and rays springing from the head of the portrait terminated so as to present the outline of a circle without its being marked. At last, towards the end of the sixteenth century, these harsh lines were abandoned, and the nimbus, properly so called, disappeared, leaving for its substitute an *aureole*. The aureole is that luminous transparent halo encircling the head of our Saviour, which has never been wholly abandoned by artists, for it is seen in most modern pieces. This closes the history of the nimbus.

But it was not only the head which in some of the oldest paintings was surrounded with a symbol of divinity: the whole body of the Deity is occasionally encircled with a series of lines, taking their outline in some measure from the shape or position of the figure. To this kind of nimbus or aureole, M. Didron gives the name of a "glory."

It is right we should add, that the article in the Literary Gazette, from which these remarks are drawn, is illustrated with engravings, which help the explanations materially. We trust, however, that, in the absence of this advantage, we have been intelligible enough to acquaint our readers with the meaning of a word often used in works on ecclesiastical art, the signification of which may not be very generally known.

AGRICULTURE IN ENGLAND.

Mr Greg has addressed a second letter to the editor of the *Manchester Guardian*, on the subject of farming in the Lothians, and the degree in which the practices in these and other improved districts of Scotland may be extended to the southern part of the island. As this, like the first letter,* has attracted considerable attention, we propose to offer an abridgment of it, along with such remarks as the statements seem to require.

The first thing which strikes us is the wonder and incredulity with which Mr Greg's account of Lothian farming appears to have been received in England. If he had been describing the usages of a country thousands of miles from home, he could not have excited more surprise. How such excellent systems of husbandry and rural management should be actually existing on the same island with themselves, and yet they profoundly ignorant of it, has been most puzzling to English agriculturists, and shows how limited is the range of their professional knowledge. In his second letter, Mr Greg occupies considerable space in clearing away the disbelief which his previous statement had incurred, and in explaining that the lands to which he referred are by no means, naturally, an earthly paradise, but, on the whole, inferior in point of fertility and climate to the bulk of lands in England; in short, that all lies in *good management*.

"I merely described," he proceeds, "the general facts which struck me, whether from their novelty or their importance, hoping thereby to rouse the attention of my countrymen, and induce them, so far at least as their peculiar circumstances permitted, to emulate the successful cultivation of the Lothians. Enough, surely, of that system admits of general application, to challenge the attention, and awake the activity, of every agriculturist on this side of the border. A suitable course of cropping, economy in the use and keep of horses, good implements, and steam-engines where the extent of a farm warrants it, may everywhere be introduced. Above all, the land may be furrow-drained wherever requisite, money-rents be converted into corn-rents, and a tenantcy-at-will tenure be exchanged for one of leases.

But to proceed with the subject more immediately before us, namely—How can such an improved system be introduced generally into England? The difficulties we have here to encounter are, it must be confessed, of a very serious character. 'Where,' as I inquired in my former Letter, 'are the landlords ready to grant a nineteen years' lease? Where the farmers of sufficient intelligence and capital, to manage successfully 500 acres of land, and able and willing to lay out L.1000 or L.1800 in draining alone, during the first two years of their lease? Where the ploughmen educated enough to convert into bailiffs on such farms, for an extra shilling a-week?'

I still adhere to the opinion, 'that *the more generally diffused and more practical education of the Scotch* has been at the bottom of this improved state of things.' It is true, that little knowledge of a superior kind may be imparted to the youth in those schools. I am convinced it is through their agency that the mind is first awakened, the intellect developed, and the means of subsequent education placed within the pupil's reach. That Englishman must be dull or prejudiced in the extreme, who can travel through Scotland without being struck by the quickness and intelligence of the peasantry and farmers, compared with what he ordinarily encounters in England.

The low state of intelligence, therefore, arising from a want of early and better education, I am inclined to place at the foundation of our difficulties. This shows itself, amongst other instances which might be quoted, in a stupid prejudice against all innovation, and frequently in a dogged resistance to it. A few weeks ago, I introduced a thrashing-machine on my own farm in Hertfordshire; but the second day, it was broken by a bar of iron, which some one had concealed for the purpose in a sheaf of wheat. A similar fate befell another thrashing-machine, which had just been put up on a farm of 1000 acres in the neighbourhood. Considering the benighted state of the poor fellows who broke this machinery (impressed, doubtless, with the belief that the machines would doom them to the workhouse, and that there existed no world, for them at least, beyond the limits of their own parish), we can feel no surprise, and ought not to feel much anger, at their conduct. But the farmers themselves, in many parts, regard the introduction of machinery with somewhat hostile feelings. The language they hold is this: 'There are too many labourers in the parish already, and you increase that surplus by the machine you introduce; the rate-payers at large must maintain those whom you discharge, which is no less injustice to them than hardship to the poor labourers. *Since we must maintain them, we might as well employ them.*' Not a few of the landowners entertain similar sentiments, and employ the same words in expressing them.

But breaking thrashing-machines is a trifle compared with *the fires of the incendiary*, which may be the doom of those who make themselves peculiarly obnoxious, from any cause, to any individual. Now, it must be admitted, that such theories on the one hand, and such practices on the other, offer a serious bar to the progress of improvement. For every thrashing-machine actually broken, one hundred are actually prevented from being put up; and the conflagration of a single stack-yard makes every farmer in the country recoil from his contemplated alterations.

The evils of a surplus population, however, it must be admitted, are not easily dealt with, as every one must be aware who has resided for a short period in a purely agricultural district. The very humanity which secures a maintenance to the labourers, whatever their numbers or moral character, encourages the delusion, that all have a *natural right* to maintenance—a right, if it be one, nature herself is incompetent to make good. But such a *legal right* renders it more imperative that the lower classes should be intelligent and civilised beings, otherwise such a law may become, with an ignorant and reckless population, incompatible with the rights of property and the existence of social order.

The state of intelligence amongst the farmers of a great part of England is little raised above that of the common labourer. How few have received any education deserving the name! How few there are who read—fewer still who travel about to see what is going on elsewhere, and to note what improvements may be introduced at home! *Isolation*, an almost unavoidable disadvantage to which the cultivator of the soil is exposed, and the circumstance of the few persons he can associate with being of the same rank, education, and prejudices as himself, are evils which act with double force on an unenlightened mind. Education alone, the company of books, and the excitement arising from the knowledge and interest they impart, can mitigate the mischiefs resulting from so unfavourable a position. The charge of want of education may indeed be brought, with equal truth, against the landowners themselves. They receive no *special instruction* which may serve to fit them for the management of their estates, or the guidance of those to whom the cultivation of their estates, and, consequently, the amount of their incomes, is intrusted. I will not, however, dwell on the evils arising directly and remotely out of this strange omission in the education of the higher classes.

Amongst the impediments, therefore, to the introduction of a superior system of agriculture in England, I place

1. What I have been describing at so much length, *the low state of intelligence of both farmers and labourers*; speaking, of course, generally, and not stopping to name parts of the country which may be deemed exceptions to the rule.

2. *The divided and uncertain ownership of land*, particularly such as arises out of common rights, and the undefined claims of lords of the manor and the crown. It is not easy to believe what extent of fertile land, as well as that of inferior quality, is doomed to partial cultivation or total sterility from this cause. To give a few instances, falling more immediately under my own observation. In the parish where I reside, there is a common of 1000 acres, capable of high cultivation, such portions of it as have been reclaimed letting for L.4 or L.5 per acre; and yet, from variety and uncertainty of ownership, and expense of acts of enclosure and of law, it is doomed to perpetual waste. In Hertfordshire, adjoining my own farm, and in some of the neighbouring counties, a right of common pasturage exists over all the uninclosed country; which limits the land to corn crops, with every third year a fallow. It is true, in many parts this right is not enforced; but the land is valued at 25 per cent. less, owing to its existence, and a ninepenny rate only is imposed, instead of the usual shilling rate, which is levied upon all land of similar quality, but which is not subject to this antiquated right. A third case, also made within my own observation, is the rich valley of the Lea, between Ware and London, the finest soil, and reaching to the very walls of the metropolis. It is traversed in its whole extent by a navigable river and railroad, and within reach of an unlimited supply of manure; yet, from being subject to common rights and other causes, a great part remains in grass, in a state of comparative unproductiveness. Here and there fields, bearing enormous crops of mangel, potatoes, or turnips, show how great might be the production, were all under similar culture. A great extent of fine land, and, from its vicinity to large towns, capable of being rendered most productive, is, in like manner, doomed to comparative sterility from the common rights of pasturage. Probably not less than from one-sixth to one-eighth of the land in the south of England is similarly situated, under various titles, as *common*, *forest*, *plain*, or *down*. In all these parts labour is abundant; so abundant, indeed, that a man's wages do not exceed 7s. to 8s. a-week; and nothing is required to cover these wastes with smiling harvests, and to give employment and food to the half-starved population, but a *mere permission* to cultivate them, a mere withdrawal of the obstacles which now prevent the cultivation.

3. *The law of entail*. By this law, most landowners are not owners of their own estates, but merely what the law styles them—'life tenants.' They are, perhaps, absolutely prohibited from granting to their tenants leases of nineteen or twenty years; they are, at all events, prevented from mortgaging their estate, or selling a part of it, so as to have the remainder of it cultivated on an improved system; consequently, most entailed property is less productive than it might otherwise be rendered. It may be said, that a landowner may devote some portion of his income to this purpose; but what he *can* save is more justly devoted, perhaps, to creating a fund for the maintenance of his younger children, than to swelling the rental of his eldest son, on whom the whole estate, with all its improvements, must descend.

4. Another difficulty which stands in the way of improved cultivation, is the general *prevalence of tenantcy-at-will* tenure, and the unwillingness of landowners, by granting long leases, to resign the incidental privileges which attach to landed property. If the English landowners, however, covet the enjoyment of Scotch rents, and a tenantry of intelligence and capital, such as exists in the Lothians, they must make up their minds to grant long leases, they must resign all claim upon their tenants' votes, and no longer permit their game to ravage their tenants' crops.

It is true, long leases must be confined to such tenants as will make a proper use of them; a limitation which will, I fear, cut off a considerable portion of the present race of farmers. Long leases to such as are destitute of sense and capital, so far from promoting improvement, sensibly retards it; and deeply is it to be lamented, that the general experience of English landowners is against granting leases. This, however, proves nothing but the poverty or *low state of intelligence* amongst the English farmers, and in no respect militates against the necessity of long leases to an improved cultivation, where this involves, as in most cases it does, a more than ordinary expenditure. Again, if the landowners are anxious to improve their incomes, they must not only be prepared to grant leases, but they must, amongst other sacrifices, reduce in number and extent their covers and preserves, and give up, or greatly abate, the quantity of *game* upon their estates. The first materially diminishes the extent of profitable surface, and the latter occasions a most serious deduction from the quantity of produce. On a small preserved estate, the destruction by game is a tax not much inferior in amount to the *tithe*, and may be reckoned at 3s. or 4s. per acre.

I have at this moment lying before me particulars of a large estate advertised for sale. The first farm on the list consists of 244 acres, rent L.210 per annum; and the second 230 acres, rent L.220. Both the farms are within twenty-five miles of London, *tithe-free*, and let to yearly tenants; and a note is attached to the description of both—'*an exceedingly low rent, in consequence of the damage arising to the crops from the game and rabbits.*'

5. Next to tenantcy-at-will we rank *money-rents* as the great bar to improvement in English agriculture. It is to the conversion of money-rents into corn-rents, as they are called, that the Scotch farmers attributed their superior condition, and their ability to continue improvements upon their farms, even during the trying times of 1833 to 1835. A corn-rent is the payment of a certain fixed quantity of the farm produce to the landlord, in lieu of a certain fixed sum of money. In other words, the tenant pays only so much money as the number of quarters of wheat, or barley, which constitutes his rent, have actually sold for in the market. The price is ascertained from the published sales from which the averages are obtained.

The principal difficulties, then, in the way of the general establishment of an improved system of agriculture in England, I conceive to be:—

1. The low state of intelligence amongst the English farmers and labourers, and the general ignorance of land-owners themselves on the science of agriculture, and proper management of their estates.

2. The uncertain and divided ownership of land, arising out of common and manorial rights.

3. The law of entail, by which no man owns his own estate.

4. The prevalence of tenantcy-at-will, and unwill-

* See article, "An Englishman's Tour among Scotch Farmers," No. 502 of Journal.

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ingness of landowners to grant leases, and to resign the incidental privileges of landed property.

5. The rents being paid in a fixed amount of money, instead of a given quantity of produce.

The appropriate remedies suggest themselves, or have been already alluded to. The *education of a nation* being a slow business, let us commence quickly and resolutely, and, in the meantime, apply such alleviations as may be within our reach. Had a sound system of national education been established some years ago, we should now be far on the road towards a better state of things. Let the legislature simplify the tenure and ownership of land, and reduce the expense of enclosure and partition acts. Let the law of entail be so far relaxed, as to enable the owners of property to raise the capital necessary for an improved cultivation of it. Let landlords grant long leases to such intelligent and improving tenants as they are fortunate enough to meet with; and let them remember, that bankers or friends will advance money to a farmer for the purpose of improving his farm, *if he has a lease of it*, but not to a mere *tenant-at-will*. Above all, whether leases be granted or not, let *money-rents* give way to *corn-rents*."

THE WALHALLA.

Those who bestow no more than a passing glance upon that department of the newspapers dedicated to foreign intelligence, may have seen the words which head our article, without knowing, or without having the curiosity to find out their meaning. The term is borrowed from the northern or Scandinavian mythology, and signifies a collection of deities—in fact, a Pantheon. It is now applied to a new and beautiful structure recently erected near Ratisbon, solely to contain sculptures of some of the greatest men which Germany has produced, from the earliest times to the present.

The idea originated with Ludwig, the present king of Bavaria, by whom it has been completely carried out. So long ago as the year 1806, when that prince was only twenty years old—an age when designs of so noble a character seldom enter the mind—he conceived the project of concentrating mementos of the great and the good in a single but splendid monument. The energy and perseverance with which, from its first conception, he prosecuted the plan, will be better understood, when it is remembered that at that period Germany, prostrate under the power of Napoleon, was, to all appearance, sunk into a hopeless state of dependence. While, therefore, the country remained in such a condition, the design of Prince Ludwig had no chance of being completed. Nothing daunted, however, the young patriot immediately commenced his undertaking by commissioning several eminent German sculptors to chisel busts of some of the heroes and scholars which were to have a place in the projected building. During all the political vicissitudes which befell the country from 1807 to 1814, the works were steadily proceeded with, in the hope of better times. In the latter year, these hopes were realised by the first overthrow of Bonaparte at Leipsic, on the 18th of October, which is even now a day of rejoicing in Germany. That year had not expired, before a programme or specification of the nature of the intended structure was issued by Ludwig himself, and every architect in Germany invited to a competition. This invitation, however, produced no result; none of the designs were deemed worthy of so truly national an undertaking, though, in the meanwhile, the best sculptors had never ceased their labours on the busts. At length, in 1821, an architect, who has since become celebrated in his native country, M. Léon de Klenze, submitted a design to Prince Ludwig, which obtained his approbation.

The next important step to be taken was to choose a suitable site for the building. The prince had long fixed on the environs of Ratisbon, a place of great celebrity in history,* and most advantageously situated for the purpose. This ancient city stands on the largest of German rivers (the Danube), in a plain surrounded on one side by a chain of miniature hills, and open on the other to the Alps of Tyrol. Circumstances delayed the commencement of the work till the spring of 1826, when the architect, accompanied by able engineer officers, was furnished with instructions to take a survey of the neighbourhood of Ratisbon, and to fix upon a site. The choice was made of a rugged eminence on the left bank of the river, the form of which being nearly conical, was well adapted to serve for the basement of the projected monument. Grander, more picturesque views than those presented from the summit of this eminence, it is hardly possible to conceive. On the west the landscape is bounded by the verdant hills of Abach and Kelheim; to the east lie plains through which the Danube has forced its sinuous bed; northward is seen a chain of hills which, covered with trees, extends into the heart of the vast Bohemian forests; whilst the southward view stretches to the far-off Alps.

The great work was commenced by hewing and levelling the sides and summit of the hill, so as to adapt it as a foundation for the destined structure. On the 18th of October 1830, all was ready for the ceremony of laying the first stone, which was done amidst much pomp and festivity by Ludwig himself. In twelve years from that day, the stupendous German Pantheon was completed, and on the 18th of October* 1842, its opening or inauguration took place. Having thus prepared the way, we proceed to describe it from the text before us.

The Walhalla is in all respects a purely Grecian temple of the Doric order. The king himself had prescribed that style in his original programme, as the basis of the design, with the best taste; for Grecian architecture possesses those elements of order, grandeur, and symmetry, which are best suited to a monument of such a character. In the lesser details, however, the architect was left to his own fancy, provided he kept them in harmony with the grand whole. In this he has admirably succeeded; for although the general outline of the pile is strictly Grecian, yet no single model has been servilely followed, and the Walhalla presents a specimen of Doric architecture unlike any other, except the ancient Parthenon, to which some German hypercritics have detected too close a resemblance. The design has also been admirably adapted to the site. The building on the hill-top is approached by a triple range of terraces and rows of steps, hewn in the sides of the eminence. Mounting to the first platform, we find, branching right and left, two other, but double, ranges of steps, which lead to a terrace, from which we are introduced by a door of bronze to the subterranean galleries destined for the reception of busts which have yet to be consecrated in the Walhalla. Thence another ascent is to be accomplished by one of two ranges of steps, rising on contrary sides to the second platform, where diverges a balustrade meeting on the platform which the building rests upon, having accompanied the steps without interruption from the base of the hill. "I know," continues the writer, "no example of such a succession of terraces and step-ranges which has so singularly happy an effect." The entire hill is made to appear like an immense pedestal, for the reception of the pile towering above it; and forms a noble basement, one hundred and thirty feet in height, from the plain whence it rises, to the floor of the structure. Like the stupendous works of ancient Egypt, the Walhalla would seem to have been built for eternity. It is composed almost entirely of marble and metal, and its principal walls are nowhere less than nine feet thick; in some parts considerably more.

The effect of the interior is no less imposing, and considerably more novel. The exterior form—that of an oblong square surrounded with columns—belongs also to the interior, which exhibits a multitude of busts of celebrated characters, ranged at various heights along the four sides of the hall. This unavoidable arrangement tends to produce a degree of monotony, which is not lessened by all the busts being of a uniform shape. Even their colour—that of white marble—imparts an unfavourable coldness to the scene. But to correct this, one of the conditions imposed upon the architect in the original specification was, the admission of the greatest possible quantity of light; and the manner in which he has accomplished his instructions greatly relieves the immense apartment from a monotonously-sombre character. There are no windows in the walls; a flood of light is made to gush in through the roof, which is what architects call "open;" that is to say, there is no ceiling or masking of any kind. It is, in short, an enormous but tastefully-designed sloping skylight, with an iron-frame and plate-glass. Nothing is so well calculated to atone for a sameness of general appearance as an amplitude of light; and this desirable object is admirably effected in the Walhalla. But other expedients have been successfully resorted to. Along each side, several columns project from the wall, every two supporting an architrave and entablature, ornamented with sculptured figures, which support the roof. At one end of the hall a space is reserved, by the interposition of six Ionic columns, surmounted by a grand balcony. This balcony is destined for the choir, which assists at the ceremony of consecrating any new bust, and placing it in the temple. A similar, though less imposing, gallery, stretches along other two sides of the building, for the accommodation of spectators on these occasions. Exclusive of the space divided off for the balcony, and a few smaller excisions from the main area, the apartment is somewhat less, by English measurement, than one hundred and fifty feet long, by fifty-seven feet wide, with a height of fifty-four feet. The most striking object of this noble interior is the frieze which surrounds it near the ceiling. This consists of a piece of sculpture in low relief, two hundred and ninety-four feet long, by nearly four feet high. Upon this extensive field is exhibited a sculptured history of Germany. It would take days to examine in detail all the figures it displays, but the general effect is grand beyond description. It is divided into eight compartments, being interrupted just so many times by the figures which give support to the roof. In the account before us, the whole of this frieze is described; and though it would be tedious to repeat these details here, yet we may say that, so far as it is possible to judge from such slender materials, this work must present to a spectator an extraordinary achievement of modern art. It was executed by Wagner and his pupils at Rome. In historical value, however, it can hardly surpass those wonderful reliefs and paintings on the walls of Thebes. The interior of the Walhalla may be said to have a complete lining of coloured marbles. The walls are everywhere faced with them; the floor is similarly paved; so as to form a finely wrought mosaic pattern, in colours which have been assorted with exquisite taste. The columns, also, are cut from the rarest marbles. The lesser details have been combined with a brilliancy of effect, which gives to the whole an unsurpassed gorgeousness. The ceiling is sumptuously gilt, and profusely dotted with gold stars upon a blue ground. The furniture, if it may be so called, is so contrived as to enhance the general effect. The candelabra are of antique forms, and beautiful workmanship. The chairs and seats—partly of marble, partly of gilt work—being also from ancient models, are in admirable keeping. Thus, the florid style of ornament, the painting, the gilt work, the variegated marbles, the columns with the figures which crown them; but, above all, the copious streams of light distributed throughout the apartment, take off in a great degree from the monotony which would otherwise pervade it.

In depositing the busts in the places destined to receive them, little regard seems to have been paid to classification—another expedient to lessen that sameness, which was to some extent unavoidable. Thus, in one compartment, Rudolph of Hapsburg is separated from Lessing the poet by Frederic I.; Marie Therese, second wife of Napoleon, finds a place between Raphael Mengs the painter, and Henri l'Osileur, an ancient king; Rubens and Vandyke, the greatest of German painters, Grotius, Maximilian I. of Bavaria, and Charles X. of Sweden, are near neighbours to Van Tromp, the well-known Dutch admiral. The number of busts is about a hundred.

Several of the most renowned names will, however, be sought in vain. In a union of great memories, to which every corner of the Germanic continent has contributed, it was necessary that the smallest motive for dissension should be absent. No representatives of the great heads of the reformed church, therefore, appear; such as Luther, Calvin, or Melancthon. This must be regarded as a wise measure of the designer and perfecter of this great undertaking. Though the Protestant states might have been well-pleased to find the fathers of their church among the illustrious assemblage of the Walhalla, yet states, in which other creeds are professed, would not have been unreasonable in wishing representatives of the worthies of *their* faith. An occurrence, which shows that these sort of dissensions are still easily excited on the continent, has just taken place at Strasburg. M. David, an eminent French sculptor, presented a bas-relief for the statue of Guttenberg, the parent of the German printing-press. Among other figures, that of Luther appears upon it; the ultra-catholics took offence, and the sculptor was obliged to substitute a likeness of Erasmus, before his generous present was accepted. Hence, by excluding busts from the Walhalla which might have excited discussion or disunion, the king of Bavaria must be looked upon as having exercised a sound discretion.

The inauguration of this magnificent Pantheon, though it proved an extremely interesting ceremony, was not attended by any other sovereign or prince of the great German states than the king of Bavaria. This may be accounted for by supposing, that, as the sole merit of designing and completing the undertaking belonged to that prince, so the sole honour of opening it was accorded to him. Another reason may be found in the day chosen for the ceremony. If there be anything of importance to be done in any of the German governments or states, the anniversary of the battle of Leipsic is nearly certain to be chosen. Thus, the king of Prussia was occupied on that day at a meeting of deputies from all the provincial assemblies of his kingdom, to discuss the propriety of a representative form of government. And it is more than probable, that each of the princes and sovereigns of the other states were also occupied in transacting some local affair on the cherished anniversary.

On the appointed morning, nearly all the houses in Ratisbon, already picturesque from their antiquity, were ornamented with garlands and foliage. The entire road, from the city to the site of the Walhalla, was similarly decorated; in some places with triumphal arches, in others with verdant arbours. The king, accompanied by the princes of his family and his officers of state, was met at the foot of the hill which supports the temple, by a troop of young girls, distributing garlands and flowers, each habited in the peculiar costume of the Bavarian towns. This was, unquestionably, the most interesting moment of the ceremony. Preceded by these maidens, the king and his followers slowly mounted, stage by stage, to the highest terrace—a new, extensive, and brilliant landscape bursting upon the view at each ascent. A band

* It is the most ancient town in Germany, having been founded by the Romans, and was once the capital of Bavaria. From 1663 to 1806, Ratisbon was the seat of the *dict*, or meeting of emissaries from each state and kingdom of Germany. Its German name is Regensburg.

* The frequent recurrence of this date is explained by its being a day dear to the memory of every German—that of the overthrow of the arch-enemy to Germany, Napoleon. It furnishes us, besides, with an amusing instance of literary sensibility, so purely French, that we cannot help recording it. Some portion of our article is translated from a paper in the *Revue des Deux Mondes*, the writer of which, to all appearance, left Paris for the *express purpose* of being present at the inauguration. Arrived at Munich, however, he found that the appointed day was too much for his feelings. "Frenchman as I was in Germany," he writes, "I could not forget that the 18th of October is inscribed as a day of mourning in the calendar of my country, and I feared that, in being present at such a ceremony on such a day, I should associate it with sentiments of a hostile nature unworthy of the occasion."

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of musicians, and a large number of chorus-singers, were stationed on each of the terraces, and accompanied the progress of the procession with solemn and impressive music. When the king arrived at the principal entrance of the building, he was met by the president of the local government; the music ceased, and the functionary addressed to his majesty a speech, from which the following is an extract. "The Walhalla will be the Palladium of modern Germany, and the name of its royal founder will hold, in future ages, a large place in the recollection of every person who has a German heart, and who wishes the welfare of his country." To this the king of Bavaria made a reply, which concluded thus:—"May the Walhalla contribute to extend and consolidate feelings of naturality; may all Germans, of every race, henceforth feel they have a common country—a country of which they may be proud; and let each individual labour, according to his faculties, to promote her glory."

At the end of the oration, the doors of the structure were thrown open. It was then that a spectacle was presented, to those permitted to accompany the king, at once grand and affecting. According to our authority, his majesty himself appeared moved and astonished at his own work; and a murmur of admiration arose from the courtiers, in itself more impressive than the most audible expressions of praise and pleasure.

AN EDUCATIONAL TREAD-MILL.

[From the *Morning Herald*.]

THE subject of prison discipline having of late excited so much attention throughout the country, the following description of a substitute for the common tread-mill used in the public jails and penitentiaries of the kingdom, invented by Mr Gardener, the intelligent governor of the Bristol jail, and which is now exciting much interest in that city and the neighbouring counties, may be acceptable to our readers.

In communicating his invention to the public, Mr Gardener states, that, in the construction of his novel and exceedingly interesting machine, he has had in view the removal of various objections which have been urged against mill-labour, and also one of the most fruitful sources of crime—the want of education. The objections to mill-labour have been, that it is too monotonous in its character; that it does not afford sufficient exercise to the mind; that it is a useless expenditure of time and labour, which might, under another arrangement, be more profitably employed; that it is prejudicial to the prisoners' health, by overheating them while at work on the mill, and exposing them to the draught caused by its action when off; that, while not at work, the motion of the mill before the prisoners' eyes confuses them, and makes them giddy, thus preventing the occupation of their unemployed time either in reading or reflection. In order to meet the first and second of these objections, Mr Gardener has made his mill an educational one; that is, he has so constructed the machinery, that the prisoner, while working at it, is taught to read. The following description will show also that the other objections are met by the peculiar action of the mill.

The model exhibits the yard of a prison, with a building at one end of it two storeys in height, which is occupied by the machinery, the mill wheel being erected in the upper storey. In front of the lower part of the building are a number of working cells, extending into the yard to the depth of several feet. These form the arches of a gallery in front of the wheel, to which access is obtained by a flight of steps at either end. The mill is divided into compartments like the labour-cells, and the arrangements are such as to preclude one convict from seeing another. The supervision of the whole yard is vested in an educated turnkey or schoolmaster, who, from the command he has of the whole building, will be enabled to perform the duties of three men.

At the back of every compartment of the mill is a glazed window, behind which is a wheel possessing a number of flat surfaces, on which are painted the letters of the alphabet. This wheel is made to work so that the schoolmaster can, in a minute, cause any letter to appear before the window. It is intended that, prior to the exhibition of any letter, and during its continuance, he shall visit every compartment, and describe to its inmate the name and sound of the letter---a mode which, it will be seen, will destroy the monotony of the labour, and exercise the mind of the criminal. After it has remained a sufficient time to admit of a knowledge of it having been obtained, the letter will be changed, and in this manner words and sentences can be introduced as the prisoners advance in their reading. In order to obviate the overheating the men, they will be worked in sections, one-half only being on at a time, and that for periods of 4 minutes each. Under the present system, it takes a convict 20 minutes to get through the wheel, and he generally comes off in a profuse perspiration. In the intervals of 4 minutes, during which prisoners are off the mill, it will be shut out from their view. This is done by means of a beam, to which are attached half as many doors as there are compartments, which work backwards and forwards, and close up those in which the resting prisoners are. A bell struck by machinery, will be used to denote the time at which the men are to go off the wheel; and should a man be unwell, or have any occasion to go off the wheel, he can, by pulling a handle affixed to the wall, ring a bell, and at the same time throw out his number from his door, so as to indicate to the schoolmaster by which prisoner the bell has been rung.

CASE OF PREMATURE INTERMENT.

A case of premature interment is recorded in the Apology for the Life of Mrs Bellamy, as follows:—"Upon our arrival in Dublin," proceeds Mrs Bellamy, "my mother and myself were very kindly received by Dr Walker. The doctor, at this time, was writing a treatise against the Irish custom of burying the dead within a few hours after their decease. When my mother heard on what subject he was writing, she related to him the story of Mrs Godfrey, and as soon as she had concluded it, she promised that if she should be in the same kingdom with him when he died, she would attend to the corpse, and take care that it was not entombed whilst there was the least probability of return to life." The sequel of the story is, that, some time after, Dr Walker fell ill of fever, and "one afternoon, sending to inquire after him, the servant returned and informed her that he had died during the night, and that they were going to bury him; she added, that as they were about to shroud the body, the orifices which had been made in the arms for letting blood had bled afresh." For reasons which are stated, neither Mrs Bellamy nor her mother could go to the doctor's that night, and they therefore sent the servant in a coach, directing that if the body was interred, to have it taken up at all costs, for they had learned that Mrs Walker had been persuaded by her sister to leave the house and retire with her to Dunleary. The servant, while on her way, either from apprehension or love of company, contrived to take several persons with her, and, on arriving at the doctor's, found the body had been interred immediately after she had left, lest the disorder of which he had died should be infectious. She also learned that, Mrs Walker being a Dissenter, the body had been interred in the Anabaptist burying-ground at the other end of the town. She proceeded, therefore, in search of the sexton, still accompanied by her friends; but as they could not find his house, they clambered over the gate, and got round the grave, where the servant alleged she heard a groan. About daybreak, by means of some labourers who informed them where he lived, they found the sexton, who, after considerable hesitation, disinterred the body; and on opening the coffin —"I shudder while I relate the horrid scene," says the authoress—"they found the body now totally deprived of life, but observed that the doctor had endeavoured to burst it open, had turned upon his side, and the arms had bled afresh. The family, however, hearing of the circumstance, the body was ordered to be re-interred, and the affair was hushed up."—*Binns on Sleep.*

THE FRIENDS OF MY YOUTH.

[From "SACRED LYRICS, by Richard Huie, M.D.," lately published.]

Friends of my youth! Where are ye? On the stream
Of joyous life we gaily launch'd together;
Bloom'd then each bank, as in a fairy dream,
Serene the sky, and placid was the weather!
But ye are gone, and have not told me whither!
Alone my bark is drifting down the tide;
Alone she floats, nor one companion with her,
To hail her progress, or her motions guide!
Alone I seem to live, where all is dead beside!

Friends of my youth! Where are ye? On the bank
Scarce here and there the willow branches wave,
To mark the spot where some fair vessel sank
Beneath the billows, to a watery grave!
Ah! was there none for you the storm to brave?
None o'er the deep the friendly line to throw?
None from oblivion dark your names to save,
Or on the lost one simple stone bestow,
To tell what truth, what worth, what beauty rest below?

Friends of my youth! Where are ye? On the gloom
Of midnight drear I often fix mine eye;
And seem to view, returning from the tomb,
The joys of other moments gliding by!
'Tis then I wipe the tear, and check the sigh,
And bid the hymn replace the plaintive moan;
But morning dawns, the sainted visions fly,
I stretch my arms to grasp them—but they're gone—
And I am left again—sad—comfortless—alone!

Friends of my youth! Where are ye? Lost awhile!
But not for ever! No! The hour shall come,
When I shall meet you with a fairer smile,
And taste the raptures of your heavenly home!
Cheerless, indeed, and lonely here I roam!
But there is ONE, who is my pilot still;
One, who, amidst the tempest's thickest foam,
Can grasp the rudder with a master's skill,
And steer my skiff to land, and safety, if He will!

A FIGHT BETWEEN A MUNGOOZE AND COBRA CAPELLO.

Being desirous of seeing a combat between a snake and its inveterate enemy, the mungooze (an animal similar to the ichneumon of Egypt), I requested the charmer to exhibit a fight of the kind. He instantly consented (as every one of these men carry not only snakes, but mungoozes with them), and led us out into the compound—the field attached to almost every house in cantonments. Having expressed our fears lest any of the party might be injured by the reptile, he proposed that the exhibition should take place under an enormous pheasant-coop of worked wire, which was lying unused in the court-yard. This arrangement was acceded to, and, at our suggestion, the snake first taken in the morning was selected for the encounter. The mouth of the vessel in which he was enclosed was placed under the edge of the coop, and the covering suddenly withdrawn. In a moment after, the cobra capello darted out. The kedgeree-pot was then taken away, and the edges of the pheasantry let down. During two or three minutes, the monster poked his nose all round the enclosure, evidently wishing to escape; but finding this impossible, he quietly coiled himself up, freeing, however, his magnificent head from the folds, and remained in a sort of listening attitude. Presently, the man produced the mungooze, and let him in to his adversary. Never was I more surprised. This was the first time I had seen one. I had expected to behold a somewhat powerful opponent. Never could I have fancied that so small an animal would have dared to cope with serpents of the largest and deadliest kind; such, however was the case. The little creature which now sniffed round the edge of the coop was about half as large again as an English rat, of a mottled colour, with small red eyes, and would have been a very ugly animal, had it not been for its tail, which was long and bushy, in circumference, near the centre, almost as large as the little body to which it was attached. For a time the mungooze ran about without going direct up to the snake, which, however, having perceived its tormentor on its first entrance, had prepared to give him battle. Suddenly, the tiny creature, which seemed to be little more than a single mouthful to its adversary, saw the snake, and, without hesitation, ran to it. So apparently unequal a contest I never beheld. The cobra capello had reared itself, and spread out its hood—a sort of fleshy cape it inflates when irritated, and which has given rise to its designation. The marks round its eyes resembled a pair of spectacles. Its marble-stained scales seemed all alive, as it raised itself some three feet high to meet the attack of the little savage, whose fiery eyes seemed suddenly to glow like red-hot cinders as it rushed towards its mighty enemy, and bit it. The snake darted at it, squeezed it, inflicted its dreadful wound, and then threw itself back. The mungooze was evidently disabled. Faint, and almost dying, it retreated. Many of us fancied the battle over, and regretted the untimely end of the courageous little beast. After limping about for some time, and even lying down with exhaustion, the mungooze began to poke its nose on the grass. What it swallowed none have ever been able to trace, though large rewards have been offered for the discovery. What the herb is which this little animal partakes of, none can tell, but certainly its effects are miraculous; for no sooner did the creature imbibe the sought-for antidote, than it suddenly recovered its pristine strength, and again attacked the serpent. This scene was re-enacted no less than seven times; each time the cobra appearing weaker and weaker, till actually tired out. The mungooze at length succeeded in catching the monster by the throat, and destroying it, to the surprise and admiration of all present.---*Bentley's Miscellany.*

MAKER OF WEALTH AND HIS HEIR.

Consider, further, the difference between the first and second owner of property. Every species of property is preyed on by its own enemies, as iron by rust, timber by rot, cloth by moths, provisions by mould, putridity, or vermin; money by thieves, an orchard by insects, a planted field by weeds or the inroad of cattle, a stock of cattle by hunger, a road by rain and frost, a bridge by freshets. And whoever takes any of these things into his possession, takes the charge of defending them from this troop of enemies, or of keeping them in repair. A man who supplies his own wants, who builds a raft or a boat to go a-fishing, finds it easy to caulk it, or put in a thole pin, or mend the rudder. What he gets only as fast as he wants for his own ends, does not embarrass him, or take away his sleep with looking after. But when he comes to give all the goods he has year after year collected, in one estate to his son, house, orchard, ploughed land, cattle, bridges, hardware, wooden ware, carpets, cloths, provisions, books, money, and cannot give him the skill and experience which made and collected these, and the method and place they have in his own life, the son finds his hands full, not to use these things, but to look after them, and defend them from their natural enemies. To him they are not means, but masters. Their enemies will not remit; rust, mould, vermin, rain, sun, freshet, fire—all seize their own, fill him with vexation, and he is converted from the owner into a watchman or watch-dog to this magazine of old and new chattels. What a change! Instead of the masterly good humour, and sense of power, and fertility of resource in himself; instead of those strong and learned hands, those piercing and learned eyes, that supple body, and that mighty and prevailing heart, which the father had, whom nature loved and feared, whom snow and rain, water and land, beast and fish, seemed all to know and to serve, we have now a puny, protected person, guarded by walls and curtains, stoves and down-beds, coaches and men-servants and women-servants, from the earth and the sky, and who, bred to depend on all these, is made anxious by all that endangers those possessions, and is forced to spend so much time in guarding them, that he has quite lost sight of their original use, namely, to help him to his ends, to the prosecution of his love, to the helping of his friend, to the worship of his God, to the enlargement of his knowledge, to the serving of his country, to the indulgence of his sentiment; and he is now what is called a rich man---the menial and runner of his riches.---*Man the Reformer, by R. W. Emerson.*

HEIGHT OF SOLDIERS.

In consequence of arguments respecting the height for soldiers, we have taken some pains, at various times, to ascertain the relative height of English, Irish, and Scotch recruits. As far as the Line regiments are concerned, the Irish have a decided advantage in height. It must be, however, taken into account, that the guards, the marines, and the majority of the cavalry and artillery, are English, and the recruits for these are all of superior standard. It may then be doubted, if an equal number of tall men were deducted out of the total recruits raised in Ireland, whether any difference would exist. In weight, the English recruit has the advantage, the heights being equal. A regiment of the Line that consists wholly of Englishmen will generally be found to average shorter than either the Irish, Scotch, or the mixed corps.—*Naval and Military Gazette.*

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